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GEUSS, Raymond, 1946-
PERSONS AND SELVES.

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Persons and Selves

by

Raymond Geuss

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ABSTRACT

Persons and Selves

Raymond Geuss

The dissertation compares Strawson's "concept of person" with Heidegger's notion of the self with special emphasis on the methodological context within which the respective theories are developed. An initial discussion of Descartes serves to clarify the problem and define the points at issue between Heidegger and Strawson.

Various inadequacies in Strawson's concept of a person are discussed: difficulties in identifying which entities are persons, contradictory statements about whether a solipsistic consciousness can have a notion of "objective particular," confusion about the status of self-consciousness. In addition to these internal criticisms, several criticisms which arise directly from Heidegger's treatment of the problem are considered: the charge of substantialization of the person, criticisms of an ontology which takes as its basic entities "objective particulars," criticisms of the program of "philosophy as conceptual analysis." An attempt is made to show that the inadequacies of Strawson's theory are partly the result of a confusion on his part about just what he

is doing philosophically. Strawson claims to be engaged in "conceptual analysis" and "descriptive metaphysics," but an examination of his more detailed theoretical statements of methodology shows that he in fact has no coherent notion of "conceptual analysis," and that his sharp distinction between science — the study of the facts of the world — and philosophy — the study of the concepts used in science — is not tenable, even on his own grounds. A consideration of the actual course of Individuals leads to the conclusion that Strawson's own philosophic work does not in fact use a method which can reasonably be called "conceptual analysis." Some more general doubts about the philosophic interest of an analysis of the concept of person which is in use in our everyday language are suggested.

Reasons are given for believing that a "hermeneutic" approach to the problems of the self might be capable of overcoming the difficulties inherent in Strawson's position. Heidegger's theory of the self is sketched in some detail as an example of such a hermeneutic theory of the self. The exposition gives special attention to explicating Heidegger's claim that there is no person, i.e. no entity which is the self, and that one can avoid the substantialization implicit in speaking of the self as a thing by

taking "understanding oneself as..." to be primitive. Some difficulties for this position are treated.

Finally, several fundamental reservations about Heidegger's treatment, especially of problems of philosophy of language and of the status of an ontology of particulars are noted. Hermeneutics may constitute a more enlightening approach to the problems of the "self," but until it has satisfactorily clarified these basic issues in the theory of predication, it is not philosophically acceptable.

PR. AC.

[illegible]

Chapter I attempts to locate and define the problem which the author is attempting to solve. In the next chapter, the author presents a brief literature survey. Chapter III contains a description of the experimental design and the results of the experiment. Chapter IV contains a discussion of the results and a conclusion. Chapter V contains a bibliography.

the first of these is the fact that the word "er" is not
used in the same sense as in the other two. In the first two
cases, "er" is used to denote a person or thing, as in
"the man who was with me" or "the house which was built by
him". In the third case, "er" is used to denote a quality or
characteristic, as in "the man who was with me" or "the house
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Chapter One : Descartes

§ 1.

Heidegger rejects practically all of the traditional apparatus of philosophic discourse, and introduces a highly complex terminology, which — he claims — is not definable in terms either of our ordinary language or of the traditional vocabulary of philosophy. The result is that it is often difficult to determine just what "problem" he is treating, and even more difficult to make fruitful comparison of his doctrines with more traditional approaches. If the central concepts of Dasein, Sorge, Verstehen, etc. can be given no equivalents in traditional language, we seem to be confronted with a totally hermetic system of tokens, which can be given no interpretation in either of the two systems of concepts available to us: ordinary language, or philosophic terminology of a traditional sort. To be sure, once the basic concepts of Sein und Zeit were understood, Heidegger's other neologisms could be defined in terms of them — e.g. Uneigentlichkeit could be explained in terms of Verstehen, Verfallen, and das Man. But how

are we to take the first step into this hermetic system?

Although considerations such as these make a direct comparison of Heidegger's theory of selfhood with Strawson's doctrine of the concept of person seem unpromising, there is an indirect approach which might offer some hope of success. Namely, both Heidegger and Strawson see their respective theories as "anti-Cartesian," and both define the problem they are treating with reference to the historical problem dealt with by Descartes in his discussion of the self. This gives us a point of reference. Heidegger, Strawson, and Descartes differ greatly in their analyses of the self. But Heidegger and Strawson clearly feel that the problem they face is sufficiently like Descartes' "problem of the self" to warrant calling their own positions "anti-Cartesian." The designation "anti-Cartesian" makes no sense unless the positions being contrasted are positions on approximately the same problem. Descartes' analysis will provide the tertium quid for comparing Strawson and Heidegger. Since the problem of intelligibility is most urgent in Heidegger's case, this procedure will make it possible to follow Heidegger's terms back to their origin in the problem of Descartes. The exposition will then show how Heidegger defines his terms and draws his basic distinctions with reference to the phenomenon which was

"seen, but misinterpreted"¹ by Descartes. In other words, Heidegger would reply to objections that his philosophy is unintelligible in terms of any system of concepts available to us by asserting that the expression "system of concepts available to us" is ambiguous. This expression could mean "system of concepts which we use with ease and familiarity," and in this sense, of course, the terms of Heidegger's "fundamental ontology" are not available to us. But there is a second interpretation of the expression under which the "—able" in "available" is stressed. In this sense a system of concepts is "available to us" if we could acquire it under suitable circumstances, and these circumstances can be specified more or less precisely. To adapt one of Heidegger's metaphors², Descartes', Strawson's, and Heidegger's theories are the branches of a tree which is rooted in the same soil: pre-predicative

1) Cf. Martin Heidegger, Sein und Zeit (10th ed.; Tübingen, Max Niemeyer Verlag, 1955), p.58. (Hereinafter cited as SZ).

2) Martin Heidegger, Einleitung zu: "Was ist Metaphysik?" in Wegmarken (Frankfurt a.M., Vittorio Klostermann Verlag, 1957), p.195. NB. Many of the early works of Heidegger have been collected in the volume entitled Wegmarken. Whenever possible I will refer to the text and pagination of the early smaller works as found in the Wegmarken edition, hereinafter cited as WM.

experience³ or pre-ontological understanding of being. If this dimension of pre-predicative experience exists, and Dasein⁴ has the "pre-ontological understanding" Heidegger claims for it, Heidegger can appeal to it to give a definition of his own terms, and to point out the distortions implicit in Descartes' very terminology.⁵ We will be working, then, with five different positions in the course of this chapter:

- 1) the philosophic doctrines of the historical René Descartes.
- 2) Heidegger's "hermeneutische Diskussion der cartesianischen Ontologie"⁶ — the position which was to be destroyed in the second half of Sein und Zeit.⁷
- 3) Strawson's analytic reconstruction of a Cartesian position.
- 4) Heidegger's own theory of selfhood.
- 5) Strawson's doctrine of the "concept of a person."

We begin with a comparison of 2) and 3) against the background of 1).

3) The term "pre-predicative experience" is, of course, Husserl's — cf. Erfahrung und Urteil (3rd ed.; Hamburg, Claassen Verlag, 1964) esp. §§ 1 and 6. Heidegger would object to the use of "experience," but in this introductory section I am speaking loosely.

4) "Dasein" is used throughout as a technical term and will not be italicized.

5) This appeal to "pre-ontological understanding" is crucial, as will be shown in Chapter II. Cf. SZ pp. 12-14.

§ 2.

Strawson claims that in our everyday life and ordinary linguistic usage we make use of a certain concept, the concept of a "person," conceived as an entity to which both p- and m-predicates are ascribable.⁸ The task of a "descriptive metaphysics" in this context is to show how we acquire and use this concept.⁹ Descartes, however, instead of accepting this normal usage of "person" and giving an account of its genesis and connection with other terms in the conceptual scheme, substitutes for it a new concept which he calls by its name. From Strawson's point of view this is "revisionary metaphysics," a philosophic enterprise which in analysing concepts changes their reference or their meaning vis-à-vis ordinary usage.¹⁰ Thus Descartes analyses "I" in such a way that the resulting

6) SZ, p. 95.

7) Cf. SZ, pp. 23-27, 39-40.

8) PF Strawson, Individuals: An Essay in Descriptive Metaphysics (Garden City, NY, Doubleday and Company, 1963), pp. 97-98. This work is hereinafter cited as Individuals.

9) Individuals, pp. 1ff.

10) Individuals, pp. 88-89.

concept does not refer to a single entity, but rather has an irreducibly dual reference.¹¹ When I say "I" I can be referring either to my mind or to my body. Mind and body are distinct substances, separate subjects of predication. They are, on Strawson's "Cartesian" view, the "logically primitive notions"¹²; "person," "self," etc. are to be construed as derivative from them. In particular, a "person" is a complex conjunct of a body and a mind standing in a causal relation to one another.

It might be well to note at this point that this interpretation of Descartes by Strawson is a misrepresentation of the former's views. Strawson seems aware of this to some extent, and is careful to add the disclaimer that the position he is criticizing may not be that of the historical Descartes.¹³ In fact, Strawson is attacking his own distorted "analytic reconstruction" of Descartes. Descartes certainly did not think that the body which I move, "my" body, is "me" in the same sense in which "my" soul or mind is "me." He did not think that the "I" refers equally to body and to mind. He did not believe (as

11) Individuals, pp. 88-97, esp. pp.88-89.

12) Individuals, p.98.

13) Cf. Individuals, p.89, n.1.

Strawson implies) that " I am a body, and I am (also) a mind," but rather" cogito, sum."

What then did I formerly [i.e. before exercising the dubito] believe myself to be?... I considered myself as having a face, hands,... and flesh as seen in a corpse which I designated by the name of body. In addition to this, I considered that I was nourished, that I felt, and that I thought, and I referred all these actions to the soul: but I did not stop to consider what the soul was.... [But] can I affirm that I possess the least of those things which I have just said pertain to the nature of the body? I pause to consider, I revolve all these things in my mind, and I find none of which I can say that it pertains to me.... I find that thought alone is an attribute that belongs to me: it alone cannot be separated from me.... I am... a thing which thinks. ¹⁴

One might express this position by saying that " I am a mind, cogito, but I have a body," i.e. " I am a mind, and there is one physical object which stands in a very intimate causal relation to me (= to the cogito). " I "am" a body only in the derivative sense that a body stands in a unique relation to the real me, to the cogito. Thus, in certain legal contexts I might speak of carrying something "on my person," using "person" here in an extended sense, and meaning "in my pocket." In speaking in this way I am not committed to thinking of myself as

14) Rene Descartes, Meditations on First Philosophy in The Philosophical Works of Descartes trans. by Elizabeth Haldane and G.E.H. Ross (2 vols.; Cambridge, Cambridge University Press, 1968), vol. I, pp. 150ff. All references to works by Descartes are to the text of this edition hereinafter cited as: Descartes, works (Haldane and Ross).

a coat. Just so I might also call my body "me." But all that is "mine," is mine in virtue of eventual reference not to mind or body, but to the cogito. The body is not mine in itself, but by reference to the cogito. To put the matter succinctly: the fundamental principle of Cartesian philosophy is not "Seu cogito, seu corpus habeo," but rather "Ego cogito, ego sum." ¹⁵

Heidegger, on the other hand, does recognize that for Descartes the "I" is a res cogitans, the "subject" of the cogito, and not the physical body. As we have seen, Descartes' argument about "what I am" ¹⁶ moves through four steps:

- 1) dubito,
- 2) ergo cogito,
- 3) ergo sum,
- 4) sum res cogitans

It is the transition from 3) to 4) which Heidegger finds most dubious. Indeed, Descartes, according to Heidegger, did not "stop to consider what the soul was" long enough.

15) Descartes, Principles of Philosophy in Works (Haldane and Ross), vol. I, p.221. The theory I have just presented in this last paragraph is not pure, undiluted Descartes either, but rather an analytic reconstruction — Descartes, after all, does not speak of the "reference of the 'I' " — but it is an attempt to stay as close as possible to Descartes while at the same time allowing him to speak to Strawson's problem.

16) Descartes, Meditations on First Philosophy in Works (Haldane and Ross), vol. I, p.150

If he had, he might not have concluded so quickly that the cogito was to be analysed in terms of a res — but Descartes neglects to undertake a thematic analysis of the "mode of being" of the cogito. He assumes that there must be a "subject" of the cogito, and that this subject must be a res. And "naturally" everything which is a res must be a substantia. So Descartes takes over the traditional ontology of substance. Since Descartes' access to the sum is through the cogito, a misguided analysis of the cogito will imply a false analysis of what I am. As Heidegger states at the beginning of Sein und Zeit:

Mit dem "cogito sum" beansprucht Descartes, der Philosophie einen neuen und sicheren Boden beizustellen. Was er aber bei diesem "radikalen" Anfang unbestimmt lässt, ist die Seinsart der res cogitans, genauer der Seinssinn des "sum".¹⁷⁾

But the "unbestimmt lassen" here must not be understood as implying that Descartes had no theory of the res cogitans or the sum. Descartes left the "being" of the res cogitans indeterminate in the sense that he was not struck by the difference between the res cogitans and the other entities in the world. By overlooking the uniqueness of the human sum, by viewing it as simply a

17) SZ, p. 24 Chapter II will discuss in more detail what it means to investigate the "being" of an entity.

cogito, the activity of a "subject," he falsely assimilated its mode of being to that of the other entities in the world. For Descartes the "subject" of the sum is the "subject" of the cogito; the res cogitans is a substance, of which both sum and cogito are accidents. For Heidegger the uniqueness of the sum is so fundamental that it requires a whole new ontology to deal with it adequately. Descartes' very formulations invite philosophical confusion. Descartes attempts to answer the question "what am I?"¹⁸ Heidegger claims that to ask "what am I?" is already to presuppose a substance-ontology. To ask "what am I?" is to court the ontological disaster of supposing that I am an entity amenable to analysis in terms of an ontology of things. In Sein und Zeit Heidegger tries to shake the theory of man and of the "I" loose from this substantialist framework by asking instead "who am I?"¹⁹ Eventually, after the endgültiges Scheitern of the program of Sein und Zeit he will find even the formulation "who am I?" insufficiently radical.

Der Satz: "Der Mensch ek-sistiert", antwortet nicht auf die Frage, ob der Mensch wirklich sei oder nicht, sondern antwortet auf die Frage nach dem

18) Or, to catch the added epistemological dimension more precisely: "What can I know myself certainly to be?" Cf. Descartes, Meditations on First Philosophy in Works (Haldane and Ross), vol. 1, p.152.

19) Cf. SZ pp. 114ff and 44-45

"Wesen" des Menschen. Diese Frage pflegen wir gleich ungemäß zu stellen, ob wir fragen, was der Mensch sei, oder ob wir fragen, wer der Mensch sei. Denn im Wer? oder Was? halten wir schon nach einem Personhaften oder nach einem Gegenstand Ausschau. Allein das Personhafte verfehlt und verbaut zugleich das Wesende der seinsgeschichtlichen ²⁰Ek-sistenz nicht weniger als das Gegenständliche.

Since this paper is concerned to explicate Heidegger's theory of the self only in the early work, we need not discuss these second-thoughts in detail. However, even for our purposes it is important to note that the theory of the self in Sein und Zeit must be seen as part of a more general development of Heidegger away from substantialism in all its forms.

Both Heidegger and Strawson see Descartes as attempting to give an account of what kind of entity it is to which "I" refers. Heidegger would probably agree with Descartes that in trying to determine what or who I am the cogito is more crucial than e.g. duo manus habeo. But Descartes would interpret "more crucial" to mean that certain of my "attributes" are so essential to me, that that of which they are attributes, the "subject" in which they "inhere," has a right to be called the "I." "I" am whatever turns out to be the subject of the cogito, but not necessarily of the duo manus habeo.

20) Brief über den Humanismus in WM, p. 158.

Heidegger is engaged in "overcoming" Cartesianism, in that he gives an account of the cogito and of its related notions — the "mental" or "psychological" attributes or properties of the tradition -- without recourse to a subject, much less to a substance of which they are the "attributes." Heidegger is anti-Cartesian, in that he rejects Descartes' inference from cogito to sum res cogitans, ergo sum substantia aliqua. Just as for Descartes the "I," the "self," is defined by the cogito, so also for Heidegger, it will be a type of "knowledge" which is the defining feature of Dasein. Naturally, this "knowledge" is not the sort of propositional knowledge which figures so prominently in normal epistemology. But it won't be "knowledge how" either, but rather what Heidegger calls "Seinsverständnis," which we might render as "ontological knowledge."²¹ In any case, the "self" of Dasein will not be conceived as the "subject" of this knowledge in any sense.

Strawson's anti-Cartesianism consists in advocating that the "I" must refer to a single entity which is the subject of both m- and p-predicates. In contrast to both Heidegger and Descartes, Strawson denies any pre-eminence

21) Chapter Two will treat Seinsverständnis in more detail, but it would require a separate study of the whole of Sein und Zeit to clarify this concept completely.

to p-predicates in determining what the "I" is. The subject of any true predicate which is ascribed to the "I" has an equal right to the designation "I," and, in fact, the subject of the cogito turns out to be exactly the same entity as that to which m-predicates are ascribed.²²

It might seem as if I were manipulating the terminology here rather facilely. Descartes speaks of himself as investigating "what I am," Strawson is analysing the "concept of person," and Heidegger speaks of "selfhood." Can I simply identify "I," "self," and "person" in this way? This lack of precision in usage can be justified in as much as in the philosophic tradition no systematic distinction is made here. Thus, Descartes speaks of the "I," and is usually interpreted as calling the referent of the "I" the "self,"²³ while Strawson calls it "person." To be sure, there is the germ of a philosophic distinction between "I"/self on the one hand and "person" on the other in Kant, who uses "person" to refer to a rational creature considered in its aspect as a moral agent.²⁴

22) The obvious problem of how it is possible for the same entity to have two such different types of predicates is glossed over as not admitting of an answer. Cf. Individuals, pp. 107ff.

23) E.g. Kant in the Paralogismen of the Kritik der reinen Vernunft criticizes Descartes and his "rational psychology" using "Ich" and "das denkende Selbst" interchangeably (B 405).

24) Cf. Kant, Grundlegung zur Metaphysik der Sitten, A65f.

But the fact remains that even for Kant "I"/self and "person" are inseparable save in definition: all and only rational creatures — and given Kant's analysis of knowledge in the transcendental deduction²⁵ this means creatures who are self-conscious and can say "I" — stand under the moral law and are persons. Heidegger no longer belongs to the tradition which identified I=self=person. In fact, he never uses the term "person" at all in Sein und Zeit — except in an introductory passage which is clearly an attempt to point out deficiencies in alternative approaches.²⁶ The close relation of "I" and "self" will break down for Heidegger. However, until Heidegger's own distinctions can be drawn in their natural habitat in Chapter III, I will continue to use "I," "self," and "person" in the loose traditional way.

Here there comes to light for the first time something which will become increasingly important: the close interrelation of questions of methodology, of access, and of ontology. How is one to go about determining the reference of the "I"? If one already accepts the universal applicability of the subject/predicate scheme, and of its ontological analog, the substantialist

25) Cf. Kant, Kritik der reinen Vernunft, B 132ff.

26) SZ, pp. 47-48.

ontology of substances and their attributes, one simply looks at what can be truly said of the "I," and calls "I" whatever is the "subject" of these predicates — adding perhaps (as Descartes did) the proviso that certain of these predicates will be "essential," and that the "I" will be what is the subject of them. With this, the next stage of the investigation is already pre-determined: it is that of ascertaining what kind of entity it is to which "I" refers, of elaborating an ontology of the "I." But it is already clear that the "I" must be a subject of predicates, and, after all, it is well known how to analyse a subiectum ontologically.... But if one accepts neither the subject/predicate scheme, nor the substance/attribute, the investigation seems to have become totally ohne Leit - faden. One can hardly speak of the reference of the "I" at all, it would seem, without presupposing that the "I" is an entity to which one can refer, and hence some kind of subject. In addition, it is clearly a fallacy to suppose that in an investigation such as this one can avoid ontological presuppositions absolutely. The sophism proposed by Meno in the Platonic dialogue of the same name described the situation quite aptly: how is one to look for anything, unless one would at least recognize it upon finding it? But if one can recognize it, then one already knows it, and there would seem to be no sense in

searching for it.²⁷ Thus, equally in investigating the reference of an expression, "blue" for example, I must at least possess the modicum of ontological knowledge which allows me to distinguish colors from shapes or relations.²⁸ Since any ontological investigation presupposes ontological criteria — at least ontological criteria of a rudimentary sort — it would not be enough for Heidegger to criticize Descartes merely on the grounds that he has implicit ontological criteria in mind. Rather, one of the first tasks of Sein und Zeit must be to elaborate an alternative methodology not based on the subject/predicate distinction. This alternative mode of access must "give" the phenomenon in a more adequate or a more suitable way.

§ 3.

The previous two sections have been devoted to defining the problem. The rest of this chapter will deal with Strawson's proposed solution and certain difficulties with it.

One of the chief differences between Heidegger and

27) Platonis Menø, 80D et seqq.

28) In addition there is the problem of "direct" and "deferred" ostension. Cf. W.V.O. Quine, Ontological Relativity and Other Essays (New York, Columbia University Press, 1969) pp. 29ff.

Strawson on the Cartesian problem concerns appropriate categories. Strawson would not be able to accept Heidegger's contention that the categories applicable to things do not apply to the referent of the "I." Here we encounter the problem of how to describe in neutral terms the point of contention. Strictly speaking, it is Dasein & the "referent of the 'I'" to which categories do not apply. Heidegger will have to claim that both Descartes and Strawson are really failing to give an account of Dasein; this failure expresses itself, in part, in their statements that they are investigating the "I" — an entity in the world like any other. By conceiving their inquiry as an investigation into the nature of the "I" they doomed themselves to missing their goal (Dasein) completely. Particularly damning, from Heidegger's point of view, is the constant claim in Individuals that m-predicates at least apply to both persons and physical bodies. To be sure, Strawson in one passage does suggest that m-predicates might not apply univocally to persons and to things²⁹, but it is hard to

29) "Indeed, if we wish to locate type-ambiguity somewhere, we would do better to locate it in certain predicates like 'is in the drawing room,' 'was hit by a stone,' etc., and say that they mean one thing when applied to material objects and another when applied to persons." Individuals, p.101. Strawson here speaks of "type-ambiguity" but I use "equivocacy" to mean the same thing.

know how serious he is. If one is going to say "the chair weighs 100 lbs. and I weigh 100 lbs." in the first place, it is difficult to see how the predicate "... weighs 100 lbs." can be equivocal. What we normally have in mind in calling a predicate "equivocal" or "type-ambiguous" is something like the following: "Day broke, the rope broke, my heart broke, and I am broke." Here clearly "break" does not mean the same thing in all four cases. Furthermore, "day" and a "rope" are such different types of things that it is scarcely conceivable that "day" could "break" in the sense in which a rope breaks. It is equally clear that "... weighs 100 lbs." is not equivocal in this sense. However, since Strawson himself does not seem to put much stock in this point, I will treat this passage on p.101 of Individuals as a momentary slip.

But Strawson gives no reason to believe that p-predicates operate logically in a way different from that in which m-predicates do, and it is obvious that they at least conform to the subject-predicate mode of ascription. Perhaps the thrust of Heidegger's objections can be appreciated by looking at Strawson's argument in more detail.

The argument of the first part of Individuals is designed to show the systematic interconnection between:

the notion of a "non-solipsistic consciousness," the ability to ascribe states of consciousness, and the Strawsonian concept of a "person." Strawson assumes that consciousness can be "solipsistic." By a "solipsistic consciousness" he means one which " has no use for a distinction between itself and what is not itself." ³⁰ Or, in what Strawson seems to think is an alternative formulation, a solipsistic consciousness is said to be one whose experience is so constituted that it never comes to form the concept of " itself as subject of experience ." ³¹ It is not clear that these two formulations are equivalent, or that either of them grasps what is normally meant by "solipsism." It seems reasonable to assume that a consciousness which does have a concept of itself as subject of experience will make a distinction between itself and what is not itself. Conversely, a consciousness which makes a distinction between itself and what is not itself might be said to have a "concept" of itself, but from this it does not follow that it has a concept of itself as "subject" of experience, and Strawson nowhere argues for this final claim.

Even granting Strawson his distinction between "philo-

30) Individuals, p. 61.

31) Individuals, p. 82.

sophical solipsism" and a "solipsistic consciousness,"³² the normal usage of "solipsism" is to refer to a consciousness which is solus ipse in the sense that it has no knowledge of other consciousnesses. To translate this use of "solipsism" into Strawson's idiom, a "solipsistic consciousness" is one which is incapable of ascribing states of consciousness to others as subjects. If Strawson is to escape censure for violating ordinary usage, he must somehow justify equating "consciousness with no use for a distinction between itself and what is not itself," "consciousness which has no concept of itself as subject of experience," and "consciousness which is incapable of ascribing states of consciousness to others as subjects." In order to simplify matters slightly, I will assume that the final definition of "solipsistic consciousness" will not be couched in terms of "ability to distinguish self from non-self." I will just ignore this formulation altogether. As we have seen, any consciousness which has a concept of itself as subject of experience will also distinguish between itself and what is

32) Individuals, pp.65-66. A "philosophical solipsist" is one who believes that "every particular which exists [is] himself or a state of himself."

not itself. Thus, we must ask for the relation between ability to ascribe states of consciousness to others and possession of a concept of self as subject of experience. What can it mean for a person to have a concept of himself as subject of experience? It means at least that he is able to ascribe states of consciousness to himself.³³ So we must look for the relation between ability to ascribe states of consciousness to others and ability to ascribe states of consciousness to self. Strawson has an explicit argument to show that a consciousness unable to ascribe states of consciousness to others would also of necessity be unable to ascribe them to itself. If my experience is so constituted that I never ascribe states of consciousness or experiences to others, then the phrase "my state of consciousness" or "my experience" is pleonastic. A notion of possession in which what is possessed could not in principle be possessed by aught else than its present possessor is vacuous. This means that there cannot be a coherent notion of "logically non-transferable ownership" of experience, and, if my conceptual scheme is such that I cannot ascribe experiences to others, the

33) Strawson never argues for the thesis that he who has a concept of himself as subject of experience will also be able to ascribe states of consciousness to himself, but it seems a plausible assumption. Cf. Individuals, pp. 82-83, 91ff.

whole notion of "ownership" of experience falls into incoherence.³⁴ If all experience is mine, then experience is nobody-at-all's. Even granting this argument, it shows only half of what is needed. Even if a consciousness which cannot ascribe experiences to others would be equally unable to ascribe them to itself, it still must be shown that if a consciousness cannot ascribe experiences or states of consciousness to itself, it will be unable to ascribe them to others. This is a harder nut to crack and Strawson gives no direct argument for it. However, one can construct the kind of indirect argument he might have given, if he had treated the question explicitly. If one ascribes states of consciousness to others, one will have in mind some criteria for ascribing them. If a person has criteria for ascribing states of consciousness, it is at least possible that he might ascribe them to himself — if he himself fulfills the criteria. Note that this does not demonstrate that I ever do ascribe states of consciousness to myself, but, of course, that is not requisite. If one does ascribe states of consciousness to others, one can ascribe them to oneself. This shows that ability to ascribe states of consciousness to others and ability to ascribe states of

34) Individuals, pp. 91-97.

consciousness to oneself (i.e. possession of a concept of oneself as a subject of experience) do indeed imply one another.

Clearly most of us have non-solipsistic consciousnesses; we have a concept of ourselves as subjects of experience. Each non-solipsistic consciousness will be capable of ascribing states of consciousness to itself and to others. However, it is a necessary condition for ascribing states of consciousness at all, that the entity to which they are ascribed be one "to which both p- and m-predicates are ascribable," i.e. to a "person" in Strawson's sense.³⁵ This is because we cannot ascribe predicates at all if we cannot in principle identify the subject of predication. In order for us to be able to identify the subject of predication, it must have some material properties, it must be an entity to which both p- and m-predicates are ascribable, i.e. it must be a "person" in Strawson's sense.³⁶ The "Cartesian" solution

35) Individuals, pp. 97-98.

36) This would seem to imply that "p-predicates" designate non-publicly identifiable states: if p-predicates were intersubjectively verifiable, there would be no difficulty in identifying their subject in the first place. Strawson does think that at least some p-predicates are "private," but many of the examples he gives are certainly not. Cf. Individuals, p. 108.

to the problem of identifying the subject of p-predicates is that the "mind," the real subject of mental and psychological states, is identified by identifying the physical body associated with it. Strawson rejects this solution because "uniqueness of body does not guarantee uniqueness of Cartesian soul."³⁷ Here we have another instance of Strawson's distortion of Descartes. The argument behind the statement "uniqueness of body does not guarantee uniqueness of soul" is probably something like the following: body and soul are connected only by causal connections. Thus, there can be no valid inference from identity of body to identity of soul. But this argument is based on the post-Humean assumption that "causality" is an "accidental" relation. Needless to say, Descartes was not acquainted with Hume's criticism of the notion of "necessary connexion." For Descartes, even if body and soul are causally connected, it is still possible that one could "reason" from effect to cause, i.e. from body to soul. Strawson has a perfect right to find Hume's analysis of causality more convincing than that of rationalism, but he should be somewhat more careful in attributing a like view to Descartes.

But ignoring these difficulties of exegesis to return to the main thread of Strawson's argument, we have

37) Individuals, p.97

seen that if a consciousness is non-solipsistic, it is capable of ascribing experiences to other subjects, and it will be capable of ascribing experiences to other subjects only if the subjects to which the experiences are ascribed are Strawsonian "persons." The crucial link in this chain of argumentation is the appeal to the exigencies of predication, to the necessary conditions for ascribing certain types of predicates. These requirements for ascription of states of consciousness are what make the Strawsonian concept of person inevitable. As Strawson puts it:

Each of us distinguishes between himself and states of himself on the one hand, and what is not himself or a state of himself on the other. What are the conditions of this distinction and how are they fulfilled?... what we have to acknowledge in order to begin to free ourselves from these difficulties, is the primitiveness of the concept of a person. What I mean by the concept of a person is the concept of a type of entity such that both predicates ascribing states of consciousness and predicates ascribing corporeal characteristics... are equally applicable to an individual of the same type....
[A] necessary condition of states of consciousness being ascribed at all is that they be ascribed to the very same things as corporeal characteristics ... that is to say, states of consciousness could not be ascribed at all, unless they were ascribed to persons in the sense I have claimed for the word.³⁸

But there is a problem here of how one would recognize or identify a non-solipsistic consciousness, even under

38) Individuals, pp.81,97-98

these circumstances. If it in fact is the case that one cannot identify a non-solipsistic consciousness on Strawson's theory, Strawson is wallowing in epistemological difficulties every bit as grave as those he criticizes in "Descartes." Individuals gives no criterion by which one could distinguish solipsistic from non-solipsistic consciousness. It should not be too difficult to decide in one's own case whether one has or does not have a non-solipsistic consciousness, but it is not at all clear how one would decide in the case of others. An attempt might be made to supplement the statements in Individuals by asserting that a creature is known to have a non-solipsistic consciousness if it can use language correctly to ascribe states of consciousness to itself and to others. This would yield a sufficient, but not a necessary condition and would not be enough to allay more serious epistemological misgivings. The skeptic can always fall back on Quine's mode of argumentation³⁹: how is one ever to know that the creature is using language to ascribe a state of consciousness? If it brings forth a string of seemingly unintelligible noises, these may constitute the phonemes of a language

39) Cf. W.V.O. Quine, Ontological Relativity and Other Essays (New York, Columbia University Press, 1969), pp.46ff.

unknown to the investigator. On the other hand, even if the creature brings forth a series of sounds which approximates: "I wish I were in the land of cotton" we are free to refuse to translate this homophonically into our idiolect of English. Such extreme skepticism may seem arbitrary, but it is hard to answer. Strawson has two fundamental alternatives. First, he could try to live with the conclusion that we are never sure that we are in the presence of a non-solipsistic consciousness. The second alternative is to give some sort of behavioristic analysis of what is meant by "ascribing states of consciousness to others," e.g. "ascribing states of consciousness to others" means "uttering any of the following class of statements...." But even assuming a full and satisfactory analysis could be given in terms of covert behavior, Strawson does not wish to move in this direction. He does not want to tie himself to a behavioristic notion of ascription, to ascription considered purely as an overt act of verbalization.⁴⁰ He also rejects a behavioristic explanation of p-predicates. He clearly wishes them to

40) Individuals, pp. 51-52. Here Strawson is at pains to show that his analysis is not restricted in its application to overt acts of ascription. "For each of us can think identifyingly about particulars without talking about them."

refer to "private" experiences.⁴¹ If p-predicates did refer to publicly verifiable conditions, there would be no difficulty in allowing them to have their own subject, the "mind," as a logically primitive notion. Since "... has a non-solipsistic consciousness" and its equivalent, "... is able to ascribe states of consciousness," must be presumed to be themselves p-predicates, they must refer to "private" states or conditions.⁴²

So Strawson must throw himself on the first of the two alternatives. But this brings him face-to-face with a further dilemma. Strawson consistently and conveniently avoids the question of the relation of personhood to self-consciousness. "Self-consciousness" is thrown into the barrel of p-predicates (where "all cows are black"). A "person" has been defined as an entity to which p-predicates can truly be ascribed. A "non-solipsistic" consciousness" is defined in terms of ability to ascribe p-predicates to self and others. It is quite natural to ask whether there is any systematic connection between the two notions. In particular, one wonders whether a solipsistic consciousness can be a person. Strawson must give

41) Individuals, p. 31.

42) Individuals, pp. 31, 51-52.

an affirmative answer to this question. If he were to deny that a solipsistic consciousness can be a person, he would find himself back in the same predicament as Descartes, in the position he so strongly criticizes. Namely, if only non-solipsistic consciousnesses are persons and we can never be sure which consciousnesses are non-solipsistic, then we can never tell which entities are persons and, hence, which entities can support p-predicates. To avoid this most untoward consequence, which would put him back in the position of "Cartesianism" with no certain identification of a "person," Strawson must claim that there can exist a person with a solipsistic consciousness. Even if Strawson can make sense of the notion of a solipsistic person, the stock of p-predicates which will be ascribable to him will be very small. E.g. it will never be true of him that he is "thinking of visiting a friend," writing a letter to the editor," or doing any one of a number of other things which require less obvious reference to persons qua persons.

Traditionally the concept of a person has been linked to an ability to recognize and acknowledge others as persons, and, eventually — since ability to acknowledge others as persons seems to imply self-consciousness — to self-consciousness. Thus, for Kant a person is an entity

who realizes that he stands in relations of moral obligation to other persons. Husserl, too, defines "person" in terms of membership in a "Personenverband," a group of entities, each of which recognizes the others as persons — a group constituted in the "personalistische Einstellung."⁴³ If a solipsistic person is possible, this traditional position is undermined. Strawson never directly tries to justify this notion of a solipsistic person, but if he did, he would have considerable difficulty. If one could show that a solipsistic consciousness could not have a notion of "objective particular," this would be destructive of the possibility of a solipsistic person. A consciousness without a notion of "objective particular" would not be capable of conceptual thought at all, since it would not recognize a particular as an instance of a universal, and without this kind of recognition conceptual thought is impossible.⁴⁴ Such a solipsistic person would be incapable of any but the most rudimentary mental processes because he would be incapable of having a language. One might use a Wittgensteinian

43) Edmund Husserl, Ideen zu einer reinen Phänomenologie und phänomenologischen Philosophie, Husserliana vol. IV (The Hague, Martinus Nijhoff, 1960), vol. II, §§ 49-51.

44) Cf. Individuals, p.60

approach to show that if, per impossibile, a consciousness with no concept of "objective particular" had a language, its language would have to be "private," and there is an argument to show that there can be no private language.⁴⁵ Strawson, of course, is free to call such a collection of rhapsodic images and dull, inarticulate aches a "person," but such a designation is hardly in accordance with the normal use of the word "person." If Strawson is not analysing our everyday notion of a "person," what is he doing? Sheer, pre-conceptual consciousness cannot be a sufficient condition for being a person. If it were, animals would be "persons," but they are not — at least, not in the ordinary sense of the word. Or, perhaps Strawson is engaging in a bit of surreptitious revisionary metaphysics here, changing the reference of "person" so as to include animals. Nowhere in Individuals is there a discussion of the denotation of "person," but it is clear that Strawson means human beings to be persons — and probably ghosts, too.⁴⁶ Beyond this, he lapses into circularity: a "person" is

45) The point is not the proper exegesis of Wittgenstein, but it might be noted that Strawson subscribes to the arguments against a "private language" in his review of the Philosophische Untersuchungen which is reprinted in Wittgenstein, The Philosophical Investigations, ed. by R. Fitcher (Garden City, N.Y., Doubleday Anchor, 1969), pp. 42ff.

46) Individuals, pp. 112-113

an entity to which p-predicates are ascribable;
p-predicates are predicates which one ascribes only to
persons.⁴⁷

But it is not unambiguously clear that a solipsistic consciousness could have no concept of an "objective particular." Strawson is of two minds on this matter. In Individuals he states that a solipsistic consciousness could have a concept of "re-identifiable particular."⁴⁸ The point of the "No-space world" is to describe a mode of experience with a concept of "objective particular and also with a solipsistic consciousness, i.e. without self-ascription of p-predicates. But in The Bounds of Sense, Strawson's book on Kant, he formulates one of the main theses of the Kritik der reinen Vernunft as:

... that there must be such unity among the members of some temporally extended series of experiences as is required for the possibility of self-consciousness, or self-ascription of experiences on the part of a subject of such experiences.⁴⁹

He then comments that this thesis is

seen by Kant as inseparably linked with the requirement of the conceptualizability of experience, with

47) Individuals, pp.100ff.

48) Individuals, pp.74ff.

49) PF Strawson, The Bounds of Sense: An Essay on Kant's "Critique of Pure Reason" (London, Methuen, 1966), p.24

the requirement that particular contents of experience should be recognized as having some general character; and, so linked, may reasonably be seen as a standard-setting definition of what is to count as "experience." I doubt if any philosopher, even the most economical of empiricists, has ever in practice worked, or tried to work, with a more limited conception.⁵⁰

If "experience" is impossible without self-consciousness, then a solipsistic consciousness, since it has been shown necessarily to lack self-consciousness, could not be a "person," an entity to which experiences can be ascribed. Strawson seems driven to a more and more impoverished notion of "person." If even a solipsistic consciousness which is incapable of conceptualizing its "experience" is a "person," of what philosophic interest is so meager a notion?

Strawson tries to sit on a fence between behaviorism and mentalism. He claims that in ascription of p-predicates identificatory reference is made to something public — to a publicly ostensible "person" — while what is predicated of this public entity is something "private" — a private state of consciousness or experience. This does not represent much of an advance over Descartes: we still would not know whether or not a

50) Strawson, The Bounds of Sense, p. 25. Since this book is not only a commentary, but also an "evaluation" of Kant, Strawson seems bound by the conclusions he comes to.

given entity is a person — despite Strawson's complex theory. I leave it to the reader to decide whether a "private" state of a publicly identifiable entity is easier to understand than a (private) state of a non-publicly identifiable entity (the "mind"). This formulation brings out the haziness of the notions of a person and his "private states of consciousness."

Three aspects of Strawson's theory of "person" will be of central importance for the contrast with Heidegger. First, Strawson's claim that at least all non-solipsistic consciousnesses, als entities which can say "I," are "persons." Closely related is the second aspect, the constant appeal to the exigencies of ascription of states of consciousness, i.e. to the necessary conditions of predication. Strawson's whole justification of his concept of "person" rests on his contention that only with such a concept of person can ascription of states of consciousness take place. The third aspect of Strawson's theory which is of special importance is his distinction between states of consciousness and what is not a state of consciousness, but rather the "object" of a state of consciousness. In the passage quoted on p.25, which contains in nuce the whole doctrine of Strawson, it should be noted that "himself or a state of himself" means a "state of consciousness" in contrast with an

an object of consciousness.

These three theses of Strawson will give us a clue to guide the discussion of Heidegger.

§ 4.

Heidegger holds that any appeal to "consciousness" is misguided.⁵¹ For Strawson, too, the concept of a "pure, individual consciousness" cannot be "logically primitive,"⁵² but to say that an entity, or, rather, a type of entity, is "logically primitive" means for Strawson only that entities of that type can be identified independently.⁵³ Thus, to say that "pure, individual consciousness" is not a "logically primitive notion" means only that a pure consciousness cannot be identified, save through identification of the body "in" which it exists. Whatever the "logical" status of the concept, "ascription of states of consciousness" is a fundamental buttress of Strawson's argument.

To speak of "consciousness" simpliciter is already to assume a distinction between "subjective states of

51) Cf. Heidegger, Einleitung zu Was ist Metaphysik? in WM, pp. 202-205.

52) Individuals, pp. 50-51, 97-99.

53) Individuals, pp. 50-51, 97-99.

consciousness" and their objects. Heidegger is convinced that the problem of explaining how it is possible for our subjective conceptions to have objective validity, i.e. to be true of a world which is independent of us, cannot be solved at all when formulated in these terms.

Once one posits a chasm, a chorismos between "knower" and known, it becomes difficult to understand how knowledge is possible. In addition, if the knower exists independently of the known entity or state of affairs, it is an easy step to construe the knower as a substance. If knowledge is analysed into an "object" and a "state of consciousness" directed at it, it would seem that the "state of consciousness" must be a state of "something". Whether the entity of which it is a state is a res cogitans or a Strawsonian person, is relatively unimportant compared with the fact that there is an entity of which the knowing is a state, and this entity is "separated" from the known object. We already have the essentials of a theory in which the knower is a substance, and the knowing an attribute of that substance. But, as Heidegger points out, this makes knowing even more incomprehensible, for how can the "attribute" of a substance go "out beyond" that substance to refer to some objectively existing state of affairs? If the subject of

knowing is a substance, or, indeed, a thing of any sort, what kind of relation can it be which allows it to know another, independently existing state of affairs? The inability of traditional epistemology to solve the problem of knowing results from a false phenomenology of knowing and its corresponding false ontology of the "subject" of knowing. Descartes' analysis of the subjectivity of the subject of knowing as the substantiality of a res cogitans led subsequent philosophy down a blind alley. If, as Descartes asserts, knowing is to be analysed into a knower and an object known, and if knower and object known are substances, then by definition they need nothing else in order to exist and knowledge becomes impossible. The way out of this aporia lies in rejecting the notion that knowledge consists in a relation of a subject to an object, and that the "subject" of knowing is any kind of "thing" whatever. This amounts to giving a positive account of a "subjectless knowing."

Wählt man für das Seiende, das wir sind, und als "Dasein" verstehen, den Titel "Subjekt" dann gilt: die Transzendenz bezeichnet das Wesen des Subjektes, ist Grundstruktur der Subjektivität. Das Subjekt existiert nie zuvor als Subjekt, um dann, falls gar Objekte vorhanden sind, auch zu transzendieren, sondern Subjektsein heißt: in und als Transzendenz Seiendes sein. Das Transzendenzproblem läßt sich nie so erörtern, daß eine Entscheidung gesucht wird, ob die Transzendenz dem Subjekt zukommen könne oder nicht, vielmehr ist das Verständnis von Transzendenz schon die Entscheidung darüber, ob wir so etwas wie "Subjektivität" im Begriff haben oder nur

gleichsam ein Rumpfsubjekt in den Ansatz bringen.

Freilich wird zunächst durch die Charakteristik der Transzendenz als Grundstruktur der "Subjektivität" für das Eindringen in diese Verfassung des Daseins wenig gewonnen. Im Gegenteil, weil jetzt überhaupt der ausdrückliche oder meist unausdrückliche Ansatz eines Subjektbegriffes eigens abgewehrt ist, läßt sich auch die Transzendenz nicht als "Subjekt-Objekt-Beziehung" bestimmen. ⁵⁴

Traditional attempts to explain the fact of knowledge have ended by making knowledge seem impossible. The reason is that they began with a notion of knowing as a relation between a subject and an object, each of which are independently existing things. But the analysis of knowledge must begin with the phenomenon of transcendence, which is not a relation and requires no subject. ⁵⁵

To all this there are a number of objections. One might admit that Heidegger's argument is valid insofar as it is directed against a certain naive reification of consciousness associated with the doctrine of a "mental substance," but isn't Kantianism a sufficient defense against this type of reification? Don't the paralogisms of the Kritik der reinen Vernunft free philosophy from the assumption that the "ego" is a substance? Since Since no major post-Kantian philosopher has held the sub-

54) Heidegger, Vom Wesen des Grundes, in WM, p.34.

55) Cf. SZ, pp.45ff.

stance, isn't Heidegger here attacking a straw-man (and not Strawson)? In what sense does Strawson assume that the "ego" is a substance? In addition, I have shifted in the last few pages rather easily from "there is a knower in knowledge" to "there is an entity which knows" to "there is a thing which knows" to " there is a substance which knows." Neither Kant nor Strawson would agree that these statements are all equivalent, and by what right do I assume them to be so? Finally, Kant clearly distinguishes between ego qua substance and ego qua subject. How are the arguments against mental substance at the same time arguments against the subject-object dualism?

Using a terminology modelled on Kant's, we might speak of a "substance" as an "ontological subject" and contrast it with a purely "logical" subject of predication.⁵⁶ Classical philosophers, starting with Aristotle,⁵⁷ tended to ignore, or at least to minimize

56) Cf. Kritik der reinen Vernunft, A 350, where Kant contrasts "das bestimimte logische Subjekt des Denkens" with " [das] reale Subjekt der Inhärenz." Cf. also A 356 where he distinguishes "Substanz" as "reine Kategorie" from "der empirische Begriff der Substanz." In my terminology of above: "logical subject" = "pure category of substance"; " ontological subject" = " real subject of inherence" = " empirical concept of substance."

57) It will be clear to the reader that in the next few pages I am presenting a Child's Garden of Philosophers

this distinction, and to identify the basic structure of things in the world, as evinced in their primary process (, change, "motion," in the widest possible sense) with the structure of predication. Indeed, for Aristotle the linguistic form of "A is an attribute of B" and "A is predicated of B" is the same: *ti ekei to ti* can mean either. Substance, that which "really is" (*ousia*) is that of which other "things" are attributes, that of which all else is predicated. An ontological subject, a substance, is that which remains the same through change, that which, as the same, underlies changing attributes. A house is an ontological subject in that it can remain the same house despite changing attributes (being painted a different color, e.g.), and, correspondingly, the house can be a (logical) subject of many predicates.

Heidegger would agree with Kant's criticism of the rational psychology stemming from Descartes: the Cartesian inference from "I am a (logical) subject" to " I am an (ontological) subject (and that means a substance) is illicit.

The notion of "substance" undergoes considerable change in the roughly 2,000 years from Aristotle to Descartes and Kant. Heidegger has an elaborate philosophy of the history of philosophy which attempts to account for these changes. For my purposes I can ignore it, and take advantage of the resulting simplification.

Von jedem Dinge überhaupt kann ich sagen, es sei Substanz, sofern ich es von bloßen Prädikaten und Bestimmungen der Dinge unterscheide. Nun ist in allem Denken das I c h ,das Subjekt, dem Gedanken nur als Bestimmungen inhärieren, und dieses Ich kann nicht als die Bestimmung eines anderen Dinges gebraucht werden.⁵⁹

The "I" by its very nature can never be a predicate of aught else, but must always be a subject. One can call the "I" a "substance," but only in a purely logical sense. From this purely logical notion of substance one cannot move to the "empirisch brauchbaren Begriff" of substance.

Was soll ich aber nun von diesem [d.h. dem rein logischen] Begriff einer Substanz für einen Gebrauch machen? Daß ich, als ein denkend Wesen, für mich selbst f o r t d a u e r e , natürlicherweise w e d e r e n t s t e h e noch v e r g e h e , das kann ich daraus keineswegs schließen, und dazu allein kann mir doch der Begriff der Substantialität meines denkenden Subjekts nutzen, ohne welches ich ihn gar wohl entbehren könnte.

Es fehlt so viel, daß man diese Eigenschaft aus der bloßen reinen Kategorie einer Substanz schließen könnte, das wir vielmehr die Beharrlichkeit eines gegebenen Gegenstandes aus der Erfahrung zum Grunde legen müssen, wenn wir auf ihn den empirisch brauchbaren Begriff von einer S u b - s t a n z anwenden wollen.⁶⁰

From " 'I' is always a subject of predication and never a predicate" one cannot conclude that the " 'I' is an

59) Kant, Kritik der reinen Vernunft, A 349.

60) Kant, Kritik der reinen Vernunft, A 349

object given in experience which remains the same through change."

How can Heidegger persist in claiming that Kant substantializes consciousness,⁶¹ despite Kant's clear statement that the "I" is not a substance in the only empirically useful sense of that term, but only the "logical subject" of thought?

Heidegger formulates his criticism as follows:

Das Positive an der Kantischen Analyse ist ein Doppeltes: einmal sieht er die Unmöglichkeit der ontischen Rückführung des Ich auf eine Substanz, zum anderen hält er das Ich als "Ich denke" fest. Gleichwohl faßt er dieses Ich wieder als Subjekt und damit in einem ontologischen unangemessenen Sinne. Denn der ontologische Begriff des Subjekts charakterisiert nicht die Selbstheit des Ich qua Selbst, sondern die Selbigkeit und Beständigkeit eines immer schon Vorhandenen. Das Ich ontologisch als S u b j e k t bestimmen, besagt, es als ein immer schon Vorhandenes ansetzen. Das Sein des Ich wird verstanden als Realität der res cogitans.⁶²

What Heidegger seems to be claiming here is a very close connection between the distinction "subject/predicate" and that of "substance/attribute" and, as we have seen,

61) "Wenngleich Kant strenger als seine Vorgänger den phänomenalen Gehalt des Ich-sagens festzuhalten sucht, so gleitet er doch wieder in dieselbe unangemessene Ontologie des Substantialen zurück, deren ontische Fundamente er theoretisch dem Ich abgesprochen hat." SZ, p. 319.

62) SZ, pp. 319-320

there is a certain traditional precedence for this claim. If we use the subject/predicate scheme as our model for investigating "consciousness," we will end up with some-
"thing" which can be ontologically analysed only as a substance — an identifiable thing existing by itself as an individual. To say of an entity that it is a "subject," even a "subject of predication" means that it can be singled out to be spoken of by itself. To speak of a "subject" is already implicitly to speak of an entity to which predicates are ascribable. But the only analysis of "entity" available is the substantialist analysis stemming from Aristotle. Since Aristotle philosophy has tacitly accepted his ontological scheme in which "being" is the primary category. What is in the primary sense, is being, and all else that is, is only insofar as it is related in some way to being. This is the significance of Heidegger's reiterated demand that philosophy ask the "Seinsfrage," the question of what it means to be. If this question is not asked, philosophy will have no alternative scheme for ontological analysis and will inevitably fall back on Aristoteleanism. To ask the Seinsfrage means to question the identification of "being" with being.

So, for Heidegger, Kant and all those who, like him, deny that the "ego" is a substance, but yet speak of it as a "subject" — even as a "purely logical subject" —

are in a contradictory situation. On the one hand, Kant realizes that the "ego" is no substance in the full "empirical" sense of the term. Yet he still continues to define "ego" as a certain kind of "subject" (a subject of states of consciousness or thoughts). If the ego is a subject, it is an entity (of some kind or other). But the only analysis of "entity" available for one who has not undertaken a systematic reconsideration of the whole Western philosophic tradition is the "Aristotelean" analysis of "entity" as *ousia*. Even to begin to investigate the phenomena of "conscious life" with the subject/predicate scheme as guide is to substantialize consciousness. The subject/predicate pattern is developed to analyze the changes of entities in the world through time, and is more or less adequate for this type of analysis, but its only adequate ontological interpretation is in a substantialist ontology. In looking for a subject one is looking for an individual thing which can be identified and re-identified through time, and this is already the essential kernel of the ontological notion of substance.

This explains the primarily negative character of the Paralogisms, which are, after all, only criticisms and restrictions on Cartesian psychology. In the final analysis all that Kant can say is that the "I" is a subject which is not a substance, i.e. it is a non-substantial

substance, a substance which is not a substance. One might also notice that in fact the thrust of the Paralogisms is not against the doctrine that the "Ego is a substance," but rather against the apriority of the proposition: "The Ego is a substance in the full empirical sense of the term." The upshot of the Paralogisms is to differentiate the empirical from the apriori in the analysis of the Ego. Kant raises no objections in principle to an empirical psychology based on the notion of the Ego as substance. The objection to rational Psychology is merely that we cannot know apriori anything more about the Ego than that it is the logical subject of thought. If this interpretation of the Paralogisms is indeed correct, it would mean that Kant is a powerful critic of rational psychology as an apriori science, but not the philosopher to invoke to rid us of "substantialism" in the investigation of the mind.

To see to just what extent Strawson is subject to these same criticisms, one need only recall the general ontological scheme within which he discusses the concept of a person. Individuals is, after all, about individuals. His investigation is designed to determine what the "basic particulars" of our conceptual scheme are. ⁶³ A

63) Cf. Individuals, pp. 1,27-28.

"basic particular" is a particular which can be identified and re-identified independently of reference to any other type of entity. It is within this framework that the discussion of the "person" takes place. From the very onset Strawson is looking for something which is a basic particular, i.e. something which, just like the classical "substance," can be re-identified as the same entity through change in time.

Heidegger, of course, claims that there is no thing, no "entity" — no Ego and certainly nothing remotely like a substance — of which states of consciousness can be predicated. What this amounts to, is an attempt to do away with the concept of subject — but also of "particular," and "individual." In fact Heidegger will have to create a new language to speak of Dasein in which no obvious equivalents of "subject," "particular," or "individual" occur — a language which is a better medium for speaking of man and his world.

The three distinctions we have been most concerned with in this last section — the epistemological (subject/object), the logical (subject/predicate) and the ontological (substance/ attribute) — support one another. Heidegger will try to undermine all three of these distinctions. He will begin with the concept of "being-in-a-world." If "Dasein is being-in-a-world,"

one cannot isolate a "subject of knowing," neither in the sense of an entity which exists in and of itself, and can be referred to as the same through time, not in the sense of an "owner" of states of consciousness, of an entity which "has" states of consciousness directed at other independently existing entities or states of affairs (the "known objects").

Chapter Two will investigate this concept of "being-in-a-world."

Chapter Two: Methodology and Ontology

§ 1.

The last chapter has shown how Heidegger tries to locate his own philosophic undertaking vis-à-vis the tradition arising from Descartes. Heidegger points to what in his view are insufficiencies in Descartes' treatment of the res cogitans and related concepts. By failing to ask the question of the "Seinsart der res cogitans, oder genauer, des Seinssinnes des sum,"¹ Descartes missed his opportunity to open a path for philosophy into the dimension of "fundamental ontology." This chapter will discuss the nature of this "fundamental ontology." Some explanation must be given of just what is meant by "Seinsart" and "Seinssinn," both of which are essential for understanding Heidegger's program. The discussion of "Seinssinn" will lead to a more general consideration of Heidegger's method and a comparison

1) SZ, p. 7

with Strawson's method of "descriptive metaphysics." The central notion of the discussion will be that of Seinsverständnis; it is the point of departure.

Understanding of being is a necessary constitutive feature of Dasein. ²

In jedem Verhalten zu Seiendem, in jedem Sich-zu-sich-selbst-verhalten wird von "Sein" Gebrauch gemacht und der Ausdruck ist ohne weiteres verständlich.... Daß wir je in einem Seinsverständnis leben... beweist die grundsätzliche Notwendigkeit, die Frage nach dem Sinn von "Sein" zu wiederholen. ³

Das Dasein ist... dadurch ontisch ausgezeichnet, daß es diesem Seienden in seinem Sein um dieses Sein selbst geht. Zu dieser Seinsverfassung des Daseins gehört aber dann, daß es in seinem Sein zu diesem Sein ein Seinsverhältnis hat. Und dieser wiederum besagt: Dasein versteht sich in irgend einer Weise und Ausdrücklichkeit in seinem Sein. Diesem Seienden eignet, das mit und durch sein Sein dieses ihm selbst erschlossen ist. Seinsverständnis ist selbst eine Seinsbestimmtheit des Daseins. ⁴

Dem Dasein gehört nun aber gleichursprünglich — als Konstituens des Existenzverständnisses — zu : ein Verständnis des Seins alles nichtdaseinsmäßigen Seienden. ⁵

"Understanding" here seems to be used in a very broad and unfamiliar sense. Heidegger appears to be

2) SZ, p. 24

3) SZ, p. 4.

4) SZ, p. 12

5) SZ, p. 13

saying that from the fact that we take up attitudes and stand in relations to things and to their "being" it follows that we "understand" this being. But it certainly does not follow from my standing in a relation to an entity that I "understand" either that entity or its "being" — at least not in the normal English sense of "understand." For example, I now stand in the relation "... is 12 ft. due west of..." to whatever entity it might be which is situated 12 ft. due east of me at this moment, but I don't have any idea what this entity is — presumably it is some object in the apartment of my next-door neighbor — much less can I be said necessarily to "understand" it. Even if we take Heidegger to mean by "sich verhalten zu..." to "take up an attitude" in the sense of "consciously putting oneself in a relation to..." the inference is not valid. I can make conscious and intelligent use of light-switches (turning them on when it gets dark and off when I go to sleep, or when there is sufficient light from other sources) or automobiles without understanding how they work at all or knowing anything about electricity or mechanics.

The suspicion evoked by these obvious counterexamples — that Heidegger is using "understanding" as a technical term in a special sense — is confirmed by the chapter of Sein und Zeit on Verstehen which begins by asserting that

"Verstehen" dagegen im Sinne einer möglichen Erkenntnisart unter anderen, etwa unterschieden von "Erklären" muß mit diesem als existenziales Derivat des primären, das Sein des Da überhaupt mitkonstituierenden Verstehens interpretiert werden.⁶

Here Heidegger is distinguishing our normal and familiar sense of "understanding" — "I understand how the car works; I can explain it to you" — from another type of "understanding," which is "primary" and which is a necessary feature of Dasein. It is with this "existential" understanding that Sein und Zeit is exclusively concerned. "Existential" understanding is non-conceptual; Heidegger repeatedly asserts that Verstehen need not imply Begreifen.⁷ Dasein always has an understanding of being, but this understanding need not be conceptualized.

Wir gebrauchen zuweilen in ontischer Rede den Ausdruck "etwas verstehen" in der Bedeutung von "einer Sache vorstehen können", "ihr gewachsen sein", "etwas können". Das im Verstehen als existenzial Gekonnte ist kein Was, sondern das Sein als existieren. Im Verstehen liegt existenzial die Seinsart des Daseins als Sein-können.⁸

Understanding is an existenzial, a necessary feature of

6) SZ, p.143.

7) Cf. "Sein ist im Entwurf verstanden, aber nicht ontologisch begriffen." (SZ, p.147); "Sein kann daher unbegriffen sein, aber es ist nie völlig unverstanden" (SZ, p.183); "Das Sein dieses Seienden wird in gewisser Weise immer schon verstanden, wenngleich nicht angemessen ontologisch begriffen" (SZ, p.200) (emphasis added).

8) SZ, p. 143

any mode of relating to the world; explicit theoretical Begreifen is only one possible way to develop this understanding. Various modes of conceptualization are possible with varying degrees of appropriateness to the underlying existential understanding. In fact, existential understanding need not be developed by explicit theorizing or conceptualization at all; it can be developed in many other ways — through the creation of a work of art, the founding of a state, etc.

This non-conceptual understanding has the structure of an Entwurf.⁹ To say that Entwurf is the internal structure of "understanding" is no more than to give a name to the way in which Dasein in understanding itself and its world is its possibilities. In the Entwurf both Dasein itself and the entities in the world are revealed for what they are. Dasein defines itself through its Entwurf, i.e. through its understanding of itself, through the possibilities which it is.¹⁰ Similarly, the entities of the world define themselves in the Entwurf, since they are the innerworldly entities which they are only insofar as they are related to possible ways of

9) SZ, p.145

10) This notion of Dasein understanding itself in terms of its possibilities will receive further discussion in Chapter Three.

being of Dasein in an Entwurf. Of the possible ways of being as which Dasein understands itself, one will be primary. Dasein will exist primarily for-the-sake-of some (perhaps very general) possibility of being-in-a-world. This central possible mode of existence of Dasein is the point around which Dasein's world is oriented. By "world" Heidegger does not mean the sum total of all those whings which are — especially not if "being" is interpreted as "substantiality." Rather, "world" is that "in which"¹¹ Dasein understands itself. The world is the totality neither of things nor of facts, but of "Bezüge." ¹² "World" is a totality of references which all lead eventually to a possible mode of being of Dasein. These Bezüge and Verweisungen are a series of "for-the-sake-of's."

The reader will have notice a certain clumsiness in the last paragraph. This is due to the fact that it is very difficult to paraphrase Heidegger's doctrines without grossly distorting them. In this case the difficulty is that our normal instinct to think in terms of a number of independently given objects which then

11) SZ, p.86.

12) SZ, p. 87

enter into relations with one another is strong and must be combatted, if Heidegger is to be understood. One must resist as far as possible formulations of the doctrine which move from "objects" in the world to their "relations to one another." In fact, it will be extremely difficult to avoid such misleading formulations, because a bias in favor of the primacy of "objects" is built into our ordinary language. It is the attempt to go against the very grain of our language, to speak of Verweisungen and Bezüge as primary without reference to "objects related" which brings about the clumsiness of expression. If the totality of Bedeutsamkeit, the interlocking sum of Verweisungen and Bezüge is primary, we must try to see that what we normally call "objects" are "secreted" — as it were — at the nodules of the world, at the point where successive references and Bezüge meet. And they are "secreted" only under rather special circumstances — when the hammer breaks¹³ and our normal practical way of understanding schlägt um to a theoretical consideration of the world.¹⁴

To illustrate this, one might consider a bottle of

13) SZ, §16.

14) SZ, § 69b.

ink. What we call "ink," is essentially constituted by reference to the pen in which the ink will be used. The consistency and chemical composition of the ink depends on what type of pen it is meant to be used in. The ink is said to exist¹⁵ "for the sake of" the pen. In a very clear sense the referential context antedates and is "prior to" the ink as a physical or chemical substance and determines what kinds of characteristics ink must have in order to be ink. But this single referential nexus does not suffice unto itself. The pen, in turn, exists for the sake of writing, that is, of communication between men, and this is a mode of being-in-a-world, a possibility of Dasein. It is this "project"(Entwurf) of Dasein onto possibilities of communication between men which anchors the "world" of writing. If communication were not one of Dasein's possibilities, if Dasein did not understand itself as an entity which "possibly communicates," pen and ink would be without significance. They would not be pen and ink.¹⁶ To "understand" the world of writing means to have as a

15) Throughout I will use "exist" and "be" interchangeably. In Heidegger's terminology there is a clear difference between the two, but in explicating Heidegger in more or less ordinary English, I will ignore it.

16) This is not to deny that they may not "be" something else, i.e. function in some other "project."

possibility communication; it means to project oneself and the entities in the world onto a possibility of communication in which pens, ink, and writing have significance.

If this is what Heidegger means by "understanding," he surely does have a case for distinguishing it from Begreifen. Theoretical or conceptual knowledge of the entities of the world would not be requisite for this type of understanding. "Understanding" a car would just mean being in a world in which cars subserve a possibility which is a possibility of Dasein, and being able to make use of them.

The danger is to interpret Heidegger as being committed to some very strong version of idealism. Heidegger nowhere asserts e.g. : " Dasein baut sich eine Welt der Dinge durch seinen Entwurf auf," or " Dasein entwirft sich auf Möglichkeiten; dadurch entsteht eine Welt der Dinge," or " Die Welt der Dinge konstituiert sich im Entwurf." Such assertions might entail a return to an idealistic position similar to that of Descartes or, at best, to that of Husserl, positing an initial separation of "consciousness" and the "world" with consciousness vested in a weltloses Subjekt. To "understand" the world of writing means to "project oneself and the entities in the world onto a possibility of communication."

It must be admitted that this formulation is open to misinterpretation. In a way it is unfortunate that in Heidegger's German entwerfen can be used reflexively (Dasein entwirft sich auf Möglichkeiten) ; this gives the false impression that what we have here is some sort of activity which Dasein performs or carries out. This is definitely not the case. It might be less misleading to say, instead of "Dasein projects itself onto....," "Dasein is projected onto...." This would emphasize that Dasein in each case finds itself already in a world, with projects and possibilities that are not totally within its control, or the results of any undertaking on its part.¹⁷

"Understanding" and "project" lead directly to a consideration of "being." So much is clear: by "being" Heidegger does not mean some property shared by all things which are. Neither is it a "property" of things as they "are independently of us and of our understanding of them." There is no "common property" of "being": this is why "being" cannot be defined — if definitio fit per genus proximum et differentiam specificam.¹⁸

17) Cf. SZ, § 38.

18) Cf. SZ, pp. 3-4.

The "being of..." is not a characteristic of ... as... is in itself, but rather a specification of ... insofar as ... plays a role in Dasein's world, in the nexus of references determined by Dasein's Entwurf. Thus a hammer, to use Heidegger's favorite example, is not some-thing which has a specific property or set of properties, but rather the "hammerhood" of the hammer is constituted by its essential reference to Dasein's world; a hammer is whatever can function in the world as a "hammer," i.e. whatever is suitable for... driving nails or cracking skulls. It is not a configuration of physical properties which makes an entity a hammer, — after all, some hammers are of steel, some of wood, and some of rubber, not to mention plastic "toy-hammers" — but the place it fills in the referential nexus of Dasein's world. Or, to take another example, a gavel is just like other wooden hammers. The distinction between "gavel" and "hammer" refers not to any physical characteristics, but to a difference in the context of use. A gavel is a hammer used in certain ceremonial contexts: courts, the Senate, committee-meetings, etc. The question of being: "what is a hammer?", "what is a gavel?" is answered by: "A hammer is something... to drive nails," or "something to... crack skulls" (in the

case of Thor's hammer)," A gavel is something... to call a meeting to order with."

It is in this light that one must interpret Heidegger's oft-repeated statement about "die Unabhängigkeit des Seins, nicht des Seienden von Seinsverständnis." ¹⁹ A cup, a table, a hammer simply qua entity (Seiendes) is not dependent on Dasein or on Dasein's understanding inasmuch as Dasein's Entwurf does not bring the cup or hammer into existence. It has been the error of all major idealists to ignore this fact. No idealist could agree with Heidegger that "das Seiende" is not "abhängig" from Seinsverständnis (or whatever their equivalent of this notion may be). ²⁰ On the other hand, since the "being" of an entity is just its role in Dasein's Entwurf, i.e. whatever it reveals itself to Seinsverständnis as being, its being (but not the entity itself) cannot "be" independently of Dasein, specifically of Dasein's understanding. Yet, since the "being" of an entity is just what it is revealed to be

19) Cf. SZ, p.212, SZ, p. 230, SZ, p.183.

20) It is "Geworfenheit" which saves Heidegger from idealism. The fatal error of a Husserl was not to realize that man is not pure Entwurf, bringing himself and the world into being. Neither does Dasein bring forth all the things in the world, nor does it passively "receive" antecedently existing "objective states of affairs." Dasein is Entwurf, and thus far idealism is vindicated, but it is geworfener Entwurf.

in Dasein's understanding. Heidegger can avoid many of the epistemological difficulties which seem inherent in non-idealistic philosophy.²¹ If Heidegger means by "being" merely the role we understand the entity in question to play in a projected possible mode of being-in-a-world, then the Abhängigkeit of "being" from Seinsverständnis is unobjectionable, even to the most hard-headed of "realists."

This preliminary sketch of what Heidegger means by "being" is sufficient to allow us to turn to his second, and more precise, formulation of the Überwindung of Cartesianism: investigation of the "Seinssinn des sum." ²² Clarification of the notion of "Seinssinn" will open a way to a discussion of the "hermeneutic method."

Sein und Zeit begins with a reference to the fundamental question of philosophy for Plato and for

21) I am using "idealism" in a wide sense, as meaning any philosophic position which postulates that the world is dependent in its existence on "mind," "human subjectivity," or what have you. "Non-idealism" is used in a correspondingly loose way. The "epistemological difficulties" I refer to consist in the fact that if one denies that the world and the entities in it are dependent on mind, there is no guarantee that our cognition gives us the world as it is "in itself."

22) Cf. SZ, p.7.

Aristotle: *Metaphysics*.²³ From the very outset, Sein und Zeit is placed in the tradition of speculative ontology. The aim of Sein und Zeit is to ask the "Seinsfrage." But one must note that Heidegger glosses it, not as "Frage nach dem Sein," but as "Frage nach dem Sinn von Sein."²⁴ Sein und Zeit will indeed ask the Frage nach dem Sein, but only by way of the Frage nach dem Sinn von Sein. The reason for this close connection of Frage nach dem Sein with Frage nach dem Sinn von Sein and of Sein with Seinssinn can be determined only in the context of our previous discussion of understanding.

In understanding Dasein is projected onto possibilities which are possible modes of being-in-a-world, and which form the "Worumwillen" around which the nexus of significant references, which is the world, is oriented. The things of the world are self-effacing. One need not call to mind the relations which hold this totality of reference together in order to make intelligent use of it. The understanding can, in most

23) SZ, pp.1-2. A passage quoted by Heidegger in another context (Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik, Frankfurt/M., Vittorio Klostermann, 1951, p.222) gives a more pregnant formulation of this question: "... (Aristotelis Metaphysica, 1028b2).

24) Cf. SZ, pp. 6-7.

cases will, be unthematic. However, there is always the possibility of modifying our mode of being-in-a-world in such a way as to make it possible to "see"²⁵ any specific element of the whole network of significance in its relation to the whole. Seeing it in its significance means seeing it as etwas zum.... This explicit grasping of an entity as... is merely a development of existential understanding. I understand the gavel when it subserves one of my possibilities. When I see the gavel as " something to call a meeting to order with," I am merely being clear about what I understand it to be when I use it normally — without thinking. This explication of what is already implicit in understanding is called by Heidegger "Auslegung." Verstehen and Auslegen are not to be taken as two separate operations: the two are inextricably interconnected and any instance of understanding will contain an element of Auslegung.²⁶

Auslegung is dependent on what Heidegger calls the "Vorstruktur des Verstehens." This Vorstruktur consists of three elements, or moments, or aspects — it is extremely difficult to know what to call them since Heidegger's discussion of them is quite short, comprising

25) This preserves Heidegger's metaphor of Sicht. Cf. SZ, pp.146-147.

26) Cf. SZ, p. 149. Every perception is already Auslegung.

but a single paragraph of Sein und Zeit.²⁷ In order for an Auslegung to take place, a totality of significant references must be given in advance in understanding, to which the individual entity which is being interpreted is shown to be related. When I interpret the pen and ink — which is just what I am doing when I use them as examples — I show how they are related to the Entwurf as a whole. This totality of reference must already be given in understanding and cannot be brought into being by the interpretation itself. This understood totality is the "Vorhabe." Similarly, it is not enough to "have" this understood nexus of reference; I must also look to the specific elements of the Vorhabe which are directly relevant to the Auslegung of the things in question. This is the "Vorsicht." Finally, there must be some quasi-conceptual articulation of what is understood, of the elements of the totality of significance in their relations to one another and to the Entwurf — the "Vorgriff."²⁸ As mentioned, there are some difficulties

27) SZ, p.150. But cf. SZ, p.316.

28) Due to the extreme compression of the discussion of the Vorstruktur, any interpretation must be tentative. In particular, I have taken the first full paragraph of p.150 ("Die Zueignung des Verstandenen... ausgelegt werden.") as referring to the Vorsicht, as characterized in the next sentence, but it is not clear that this sentence does not belong, rather to the description of Vorhabe which immediately precedes.

in interpreting this doctrine of the Vorstruktur des Verstehens. For one thing, one would like to know whether Vorhabe, Vorsicht, and Vorgriff are independent of one another or not. Can an interpretation have the same Vorhabe and Vorsicht and yet a different Vorgriff than another, or does a change in any one of the three bring about a change in the others? Heidegger seems to tend toward claiming that all three belong together in a very strong sense, so that any change in one implies a corresponding change of the others. Thus, on p. 316 he states:

Mit der Herausstellung der vorlaufenden Entschlossenheit ist das Dasein hinsichtlich seiner eigentlichen Ganzheit in die Vorhabe gebracht. Die Eigentlichkeit des Selbstseinkommens verbürgt die Vor-sicht auf die ursprüngliche Existenzialität, und diese sichert die Frögun²⁹ der angemessenen existenzialen Begrifflichkeit.

Prima facie this seems to imply that at least Vorhabe and Vorsicht together do determine the Vorgriff, that one of the three elements of the Vorstruktur cannot vary independently of the others. But one must admit that the evidence on this point is not sufficient in the text to warrant excessive confidence in any interpretation. However, Vorhabe, Vorsicht, and Vorgriff might be related among themselves, it is at least clear

29) SZ, p.316.

that the three of them together determine the form of an Auslegung.

We can now look at Sinn. Sinn is "das formale Gerüst dessen, was notwendig zu dem gehört, was ver-
stehende Auslegung artikuliert."³⁰ What does Auslegung articulate? Obviously the whole network of references in the world, especially in as far as they bear on the projected possible mode of being of Dasein. The Sinn of an entity, then, is the Entwurf of Dasein which locates that entity in the world, the possible mode of being-in-a-world for the sake of which (ultimately) the entity is. Strictly speaking, one does not understand the "sense of an entity," rather the entity (not its "sense") is understood by being explicitly seen in its relation to a possibility of Dasein.³¹ In the strict sense, things of the world do not have Sinn at all; only Dasein which projects has — or lacks — Sinn.³²

To return to the hammer-example: What is the hammer? The answer to this request for an ontological analysis

30) SZ, p. 151

31) "Verstanden ist aber, streng genommen, nicht der Sinn, sondern das Seiende, bzw. das Sein." SZ, p.151

32) "Sinn 'hat' nur das Dasein, sofern die Erschlossenheit des In-der-Welt-seins durch das in ihr entdeckbare Seiende 'erfüllbar' ist. Nur Dasein kann daher sinnvoll oder sinnlos sein." SZ, pp.151-152.

will be couched in terms of what role the hammer plays, of its reference to some other activity: it is to drive nails. However, the analysis of what a hammer is, is not complete, unless I also "see" the implicit reference of "driving nails" to a possible mode of human existence — to the building of the house to keep myself warm and dry or to the Passion-play in which the driving of the nails plays a symbolic role. The hammer is a thing "to....," it is its place in the context of reference. But the totality of reference does not exist in and of itself. A world exists only relative to a certain Entwurf of Dasein. It is with reference to this Entwurf, which has a "sense," i.e. embodies a certain possibility, a possible mode of human existence, that we understand the entities of the world, and it is this "sense" which we articulate in Auslegung.

The dimension of Verstehen- Auslegen is pre-linguistic. Verstehen-Auslegen is one of the "existential grounds" of language. Heidegger emphasizes the priority of Verstehen to all linguistic considerations by postponing the discussion of Rede and Sprache to the very end of the section on the "Existenziale Konstitution des Da." This gives the (false) impression throughout the sections on Verstehen and Auslegen that Verstehen and Auslegen could take place in a sort of vacuum with no need of any conceptual articulation. Only later is

it stated that the phenomenon of Rede had been made use of in these prior sections.³³

In general, the whole treatment of language in Sein und Zeit is not sufficiently detailed.³⁴ The basic point to be kept in mind, however, is that Verstehen, Befindlichkeit, and Rede are "equiprimordial" (gleichursprünglich). There can be no Verstehen without its characteristic Befindlichkeit and Rede.³⁵ Befindlichkeit, Verstehen, and Rede are necessarily connected, and no one can be reduced to either of the other two or to any configuration of the other two taken together. All three are Existenzialien — necessary features of Dasein. Specifically, although Rede plays an indispensable role in understanding and, particularly, in the articulation of "sense," in interpretation, understanding cannot be reduced to Rede, much less to what we normally know as "language" (Sprache). The whole process of understanding and interpreting can well be non-verbal. Neither does

33) SZ, p.161.

34) Heidegger admits this in Unterwegs zur Sprache (Pfullingen, Neske, 1959) p.137, but also emphasizes that language has stood in the center of his thinking from the very start (cf. op.cit., pp.91-93).

35) Cf. SZ, pp. 142,161. One would like to know just how Rede is related to the Vorgriff of Auslegung. Sein und Zeit gives no enlightenment on this point.

Rede by itself constitute Verstehen, nor can it exist by itself without Verstehen and Befindlichkeit.

The method used by Heidegger in Sein und Zeit, the "hermeneutic method," is merely a development of the Auslegung which occurs in all understanding of the world. "Die Seinsfrage ist dann nichts als die Radikalisierung einer zum Dasein selbst gehörigen wesenhaften Seinstendenz, des vorontologischen Seinsverständnisses." ³⁶ In the main discussion of the "hermeneutic method," Heidegger states:

Der methodische Sinn der phänomenologischen Beschreibung ist Auslegung. Der Sinn der Phänomenologie des Daseins hat den Charakter des Verstehens, durch das dem zum Dasein selbst gehörigen Seinsverständnis der eigentliche Sinn von Sein und die Grundstrukturen des eigenen Seins kundgegeben werden. Phänomenologie des Daseins ist Hermeneutik in der ursprünglichen Bedeutung des Wortes, wonach es das Geschäft der Auslegung bezeichnet. Sofern nun aber durch die Aufdeckung des Sinnes des Seins und der Grundstrukturen des Daseins überhaupt der Horizont herausgestellt wird für jede weitere ontologische Erforschung des nichtdaseinsmäßigen Seienden, wird diese Hermeneutik zugleich "Hermeneutik" im Sinne der Ausarbeitung der Bedingungen der Möglichkeit jeder ontologischen Untersuchung. ³⁷

If "being" is just what is revealed in Seinsverständnis, an investigation of the internal structure of Seinsverständnis would disclose the conditions of ontological knowledge in general, and hence the conditions which

36) SZ, p.15.

37) SZ, p.37.

any possible ontology must meet.

Sein und Zeit will apply this "hermeneutic method" to the investigation of Dasein, i.e. it will develop Dasein's understanding of itself. In investigating the "Seinssinn des sum" Sein und Zeit will elaborate the Entwurf of Dasein in which Dasein's sum has significance. We will see later³⁸ that this Entwurf of Dasein is what Heidegger calls "Eigentlichkeit der Existenz." From the vantage point of Eigentlichkeit we will be able to determine both the Sein and the Seinssinn des sum.

§ 2.

In his paper in La Philosophie Analytique³⁹ Strawson outlines what he takes to be the five major "directions" of philosophic inquiry:

- 1) The therapeutic program formulated by the later Wittgenstein. Philosophy consists of a collection of "reminders" of how we use words. The collection is done unsystematically for the restricted illustrative purposes at hand: to resolve a spe-

38) In Chapter Three.

39) PF Strawson "Analyse, Science et Métaphysique" in La Philosophie Analytique (Paris, Editions de Minuit, 1962), pp.135-139. This paper has been translated into English in The Linguistic Turn ed. Richard Rorty (Chicago, University of Chicago Press, 1967), pp.312-331. This English version is a translation of Strawson's original paper, so I will quote this paper in the more authoritative French version.

cific paradox or misunderstanding arising from a misapprehension of the logic of our language — of the way in which our language normally functions.

2) The attempt to point to the "natural foundations" of our conceptual scheme in what occurs in nature and in us, to investigate why we have the concepts we do.

3) Conceptual revision, the recommendation of a scheme different from the one we have, and which highlights features often ignored by those using our ordinary language.

4) The Austin-program of a systematic study of the nuances of usage for its own sake.

5) "Descriptive metaphysics" understood as the attempt to describe the most general features of our conceptual scheme, retaining actual linguistic usage as its basis, but going beyond the mere investigation of how words are used."⁴⁰

Although at first glance this might seem to be the philosophical grab-bag Ayer later calls it,⁴¹ a closer look shows some order and coherence among these seemingly disparate strands. One can distinguish two major groups:

40) This listing is not a direct quotation, but it does follow Strawson's own list of the five directions very closely, using his own language as far as possible. One will notice that two of the categories seem to overlap: 2) and 5). The problem here is the vague description given of method 2). We will see that 2) is at the same time the most important and the least determinate.

41) "À vous entendre, la philosophie analytique apparaît comme un étrange fourre-tout, qui englobe toutes sortes de procédés, de techniques et de préoccupations différentes." Ayer in the discussion of Strawson's paper, La philosophie Analytique, p.157.

A.) 3) and 5) clearly correspond to the two types of metaphysics Strawson is willing to accept. 3) is "revisionary" metaphysics, such as that practiced by, e.g. Descartes. 5) is the "descriptive" metaphysics of Strawson himself in Individuals for which he finds historical precedents in Aristotle and Kant.

B.) 1), 2), and 4), on the other hand, are specific methods which might be used in metaphysics.⁴²

So the basic distinction is between certain overriding philosophic programs (3 and 5), and certain methodological techniques (1, 2, and 4). Strawson's own particular undertaking in Individuals can be seen as an attempt to use techniques 1), 2), and 4) for the purposes of "descriptive metaphysics" (5), i.e. for getting answers to his own reconstructions of some traditional problems in metaphysics.

42) This is an oversimplification, but it can stand for our purposes. Direction 1), for example, is clearly not just a method — at least not for Wittgenstein himself. "Was ist dein Ziel in der Philosophie? — Der Fliege den Ausweg aus dem Fliegenglas zeigen" (Philosophische Untersuchungen, I. § 309). Presumably the Ziel in some sense dictates the Ausweg. Prima facie there is need for justification when Strawson tries to build a metaphysics using methods designed specifically to show that all metaphysical problems are meaningless or based on simple linguistic confusion. The onus lies on Strawson to show that these methods can be detached from their original contexts for use in metaphysics — even in "descriptive metaphysics."

Strawson thinks of the three "methodological" directions (1),2),4)) as in some sense "linguistic" techniques, or methods of "conceptual analysis," and this seems to be an entirely appropriate description of at least 1), and 4). However 1) and 4) are not the only methods used — not even by Strawson himself. The first part of his own treatise in systematic metaphysics (Individuals) comprises a single central argument which forms a framework into which analyses of specific concepts ("material body," "person," etc.) are fitted. This argument moves from certain very general features of our conceptual scheme (" that is comprises objective particulars"⁴³) to the necessary conditions for its having this feature: we must be able to refer identifyingly to such objective particulars.⁴⁴ To recall Strawson's own explanation of method 2):

Un [fil conducteur] d'entre eux, c'est la tentation pour expliciter non seulement comment nos concepts, nos modes de discours, fonctionnent, mais pourquoi nous les possédons tels qu'ils sont. Cela n'est pas un enquête historique. On essaye d'exposer les fondements naturels de notre appareil logique et conceptuel, de les trouver dans

43) Individuals, p. 2.

44) Individuals, pp. 3-4. This is a kind of "transcendental argument" from features of our conceptual scheme to their necessary conditions. Strawson will have some difficulty giving an analysis of these conditions which can reasonably be called "linguistic."

la manière dont les choses se passent dans le monde et dans nos propres natures.⁴⁵

It is this method 2) for which the designation "conceptual analysis" is most difficult to justify, and it is this method which Strawson appears to use in the central argument of Individuals. In Individuals features of our "appareil logique et conceptuel" (namely, "objective particulars") are related to "la manière dont les choses se passent dans nos natures," to our ability to refer to and identify certain types of entities, but not others in a unified spatio-temporal system relative to a "here-and-now" point which we, the speakers, occupy.⁴⁶ "Ontological priority"⁴⁷ among entities — or, more precisely, among types of entities — depends on differences in our ability to identify instances of the type in question. But the "identification" mentioned here need not be identification in actual speech; we need only "thinkingly identify."⁴⁸

If this is what is meant by investigating the

45) La Philosophie Analytique, pp. 113-114.

46) Individuals, pp. 18-19.

47) Individuals, p. 50.

48) Individuals, pp. 51-53.

natural foundations of our conceptual scheme in the way in which "les choses se passent dans nos propres natures," if Individuals finds the basis of "ontological priority" in differential ability to "thinkingly refer" to certain types of entities, then, to be sure, this is not an "enquête historique." But it is not at all clear in what way finding the foundations of our conceptual scheme in the way we think is in principle different from the transcendental psychology which analytic philosophy was to banish once and for all.⁴⁹

If investigation of the grounds of our conceptual scheme in thought re-opens the door to transcendental psychology, a study of its foundations in "comment les choses se passent dans le monde" would seem to allow the possibility of ontological knowledge of a very traditional sort — knowledge which was not knowledge of concepts or of language alone. The very possibility of "revisionary metaphysics" or of the type of Gedankenexperiment Strawson performs in the construction of his "No-space

49) " This neat classification of questions into philosophical and scientific is useful... and has been used very effectively in the last twenty-five years as an axe to clear away the undergrowth of the tangled cross-purposes of apriori psychology called philosophy." S. Hampshire, "Are all Philosophical Questions Questions of Language?" Proceedings of the Aristotelean Society Supplementary vol. XLII (1968), pp. 51-68. Reprinted in Korty, op.cit. pp. 291ff.

world"⁵⁰ — the description of a totally different kind of world, and of a consciousness using a very different kind of language — implies some ability to get beyond the limits imposed on conceptualization by our normal language, and hence the possibility of some knowledge of reality independent of linguistic usage.⁵¹

Method 2) goes beyond "conceptual analysis" as it was originally conceived. It does not merely treat how specific concepts work within our conceptual scheme. Rather it asks about that scheme as a whole in its relation to reality. To ask why we have the scheme we do, as opposed to any possible alternative, is no longer to ask a "linguistic" question, or a question which can be settled by conceptual analysis. Originally "linguistic" questions were questions "internal"⁵² to the conceptual scheme as a whole. Typically they were resolved by making distinctions among various ways of using a word, between various senses of a word used in a confusing or ambiguous way. The word would be related to other

50) Individuals, pp. 54ff.

51) A distinction must be drawn between specific languages and language in general. But the more sharply one distinguishes, the less relevant do studies of specific languages become for philosophy, and the greater the role of unwanted psychological considerations.

52) Cf. Carnap, "Empiricism, Semantics, and Ontology" which has been extensively reprinted.

words and expressions in the scheme, and, by showing that it could be used synonymously with two very different groups of expressions, the confusion was resolved. The questions dealt with by method 2) are surely not "internal" questions about the relation of specific concepts to others within the scheme.

Of course, there is a sense in which the use of method 2) can rightly be called a "linguistic" undertaking — no one would want to deny that it is concerned with language in some way or other. Strawson's error is to shift from "the study of our language and conceptual scheme" to "conceptual analysis as a method of philosophizing." The former is the study of a certain subject-matter, and need not be philosophical at all — it certainly need not employ "conceptual analysis" as its method. Language can be studied historically, sociologically, from the standpoint of linguistics or even of physiology.⁵³ If Strawson wishes to call any study of language "conceptual analysis," whether it uses the method of distinguishing between the senses of words and expressions or not, he has a perfect right to do so. But then, unfortunately, the distinction between "science"

53) Strawson is very interested in distinguishing philosophy from history and the sciences. Cf. La Philosophie Analytique, p. 130.

as the study of the "facts" of the world, and "philosophy," the study of the concepts used in science, a distinction he is very interested in preserving, breaks down. If the use of method 2), the study of the "fondements naturels de notre appareil logique et conceptuel dans la manière dont les choses se passent dans le monde," is conceptual analysis, then so is physics. After all, the sciences can be said to determine the relation of certain types of concepts (theoretical terms, for example) and of conceptual schemes (scientific theories) to "la manière dont les choses se passent dans le monde." Science is quite good at this. In that case philosophy would not be qualitatively different from science. Rather than being a totally different kind of endeavor — analysis of concepts, not of facts — it would merely be a more general form of what the sciences do for more particular domains: investigate concepts in their relations to their objects. The contention that science and philosophy are related as less to more general is an old and reverend tradition in philosophy, but, unless Strawson wants to say that the physicist is a "conceptual analyst," reviving this old tradition will do him not good. So Strawson is faced with a dilemma : either define "conceptual analysis in the narrow sense as "use of the techniques of distinguishing meanings" —

in this case philosophy is not only "conceptual analysis" since it must make use of methods such as method 2), or define "conceptual analysis" in a broad sense as "any investigation in which concepts play an important role" — but then every science is engaged in "conceptual analysis." On either alternative the distinction between philosophy and science, between investigation of concepts and investigation of facts, will be blurred.

So Strawson cannot build up his traditional-type metaphysics with the methods of "conceptual analysis" alone — on any interpretation of "conceptual analysis" which is narrow enough to give the term content at all. He must use method 2) which goes beyond conceptual analysis and presupposes a modicum of what we might call "ontological knowledge."

But the worst of Strawson's problems are yet to come. Not only is conceptual analysis insufficient for his purposes, but he states himself that not even conceptual analysis together with method 2) will suffice:

... mais il me semble que les rapports que nous pouvons établir et les structures que nous pouvons déceler en n'empruntant que cette voie / i.e. la voie de l'analyse analytique / restent insuffisamment généraux et d'une portée insuffisamment grande pour satisfaire aux exigences de la pleine compréhension métaphysique... ces méthodes et ces conclusions servent de contrôle indispensable

aux solutions proprement métaphysiques. Mais ces méthodes ne suffisent pas d'elles-mêmes pour arriver à des conclusions de ce genre; et pour ma part, je ne connais aucune recette générale pour parvenir à l'espèce de compréhension dont il s'agit maintenant.⁵⁴

Here he not only admits that "conceptual analysis" will not be enough, will need supplementation from whatever ad hoc techniques recommend themselves to us, but also concedes that he has no idea what sorts of supplementary methods would be sufficient. At this point one begins to wonder how much of "philosophy as conceptual analysis" is left.

There are historical reasons for Strawson's attempt to pass off his own work in ontology as just so much more "conceptual analysis." Originally the method of linguistic or conceptual analysis was quite reasonable, given a philosophic program which claimed that all philosophic problems arose from kinks in language, from seduction by linguistic forms. If all philosophic problems are really questions of language, it is reasonable to call philosophy "linguistic analysis." However, by the time this philosophic program was scrapped, the term "conceptual analysis" had become honorific, meaning no more than a hard-headed, anti-speculative mode of

54) La Philosophie Analytique, p.117.

philosophizing which did a lot of talking about language. When the need was felt to engage in metaphysical thinking of a traditional sort, even it could be subsumed under the rubric "conceptual analysis," which by that time had become quite devoid of meaning. Once this point is reached, "philosophy as conceptual analysis" has become a catch-all for an increasing number of disparate theses.

Strawson can justify his method only by appeal to some rudimentary notions about the relation of language to reality. He essentially has two alternatives. The first choice is the position of "logical atomism." This is the position that there is no discrepancy between language and the world, that our language and conceptual scheme mirror in their fundamentals the basic structure of the world. Thus, one need only investigate the basic structure of language to develop a complete ontology. Of course, one could call this sort of investigation "linguistic analysis," but there is really no reason to emphasize the "linguistic" since, after all, knowledge of the basic structure of language is also knowledge of the basic structure of reality. Since we are presumably just as interested in reality as we are in language — and in fact ex hypothesi we are interested in the latter as a means of access to the former — there would appear to be no good reason to refuse to call this sort of in-

vestigation simply "ontology." One consequence of this is that Strawson's distinction between science (investigation of facts) and philosophy (investigation of concepts) is blurred. And Strawson does reject this approach:

Mais la première tâche n'en reste pas moins, pour l'analyste, de décrire cette structure conceptuelle et il ne me semble pas que l'on puisse tirer de cette analyse la moindre inférence intéressante, la moindre notion véritablement nouvelle sur la nature des choses elles-mêmes. Ce qui n'empêche pas, à mon sens, que l'on puisse parler comme je l'ai fait de la manière dont les choses se passent dans le monde comme fondement de la structure conceptuelle du langage, même si, comme je crois, le langage ne peut rien nous apprendre de neuf sur le monde.⁵⁵

This passage is ambiguous. In Heidegger's terms one might say that Strawson has not been sufficiently careful about distinguishing the ontic from the ontological. Is Strawson claiming that a study of our language will give us no new information about the facts of the world (ne nous apprendre rien de neuf sur le monde)? Thus, from the knowledge that we have a substantive "unicorn" one cannot conclude that unicorns exists. The rather strong language of the passage ("la moindre notion véritablement nouvelle sur la nature des choses elles-mêmes") suggests that he means this passage to be taken in an ontological sense. I take Strawson to mean

55) La Philosophie Analytique, p.126.

that he would reject any argument of the form: we have terms in our language called "names," therefore there must be objects which are designated by these "names" (whether or not we can ever know what these "objects" are). If Strawson rejects the approach of "logical atomism," he is forced to assume that there is some sort of discrepancy between language and reality. But if language does not exactly mirror in its basic structure the basic structure of the universe, either we can know of this discrepancy, or we cannot. If we cannot ever in principle know of the distorting effects of our language, we are back to the position of "logical atomism," for what could be meant by asserting that "reality has a structure which is quite different from the structure imposed on it by our language, but we can never know what that structure of reality is." In this case the distorting effect of our language would remain forever unknowable and the basic structure of the world-as-it-is-for-us would indeed be that of our language. On the other hand, if it is possible to come to a knowledge of this ontological distortion, then there is a place for a philosophic analysis of language, a therapeutic "linguistic analysis" intended to prevent the philosophic errors which result from seduction by the forms of language. But for such an analysis to be possible, the philo-

sopher must somehow be in possession of sufficient ontological knowledge to allow him to correct for the distorting effects of language. Such ontological knowledge cannot be mere knowledge of the "facts about our concepts."⁵⁶ Strawson assiduously rejects any interpretation of "the facts about our concepts" which would make of "analytic philosophy" anything more than the analysis of the relations of the basic concepts in our conceptual scheme to each other.⁵⁷ Whether or not the acquisition of the "ontological knowledge" mentioned above is an "activité marginale"⁵⁸ remains to be seen. If such "ontological knowledge" exists, it has a claim to the title "philosophic," since it goes beyond anything one could find in the special sciences. If no such "ontological knowledge" exists, there is no place for a philosophy which is more than the ancilla of the various special sciences.

§ 3.

Before proceeding, it might be of some profit to try to come to a more general understanding of what

56) La Philosophie Analytique, p.132.

57) La Philosophie Analytique, p.129.

58) La Philosophie Analytique, pp. 129ff.

Strawson is doing by using Heidegger's method of philosophic interpretation. Ignoring, then, for the moment, the historical reasons Strawson may have had for claiming to be engaged in "conceptual analysis," why would he persist in this claim when even his own statements about methodology make it clear that he goes beyond mere analysis of concepts? The answer to this question will also provide an opportunity for comparing Strawson's professed methodology with the "hermeneutic method."

To understand Strawson's claims for "analysis" one must look to the hidden assumptions of his work. It is assumed that there exists, on the one hand, a world of "objectively existing" entities, and, on the other, cognition of this world.⁵⁹ Science studies the real entities of the world and philosophy the cognition of these entities. However, since all cognition is "thought," and all thought in some sense language, philosophy can restrict itself to a study of language.⁶⁰ Obviously language is a much neater, easier-to-handle phenomenon than "cognition"; words and sentences have a hard-and-fast existence lacking in the shadowy ob-

59) Individuals, pp. 52-53. Naturally "world" is not being used in Heidegger's sense.

60) Individuals, pp. 51ff.

jects of transcendental psychology, and philosophy could rightly congratulate itself, if it could ignore or bypass transcendental functions in favor of a study of language alone. Note, however, that this type of program is a reasonable analysis of the tasks of philosophy only if supplemented by a number of further hypotheses. Strawson admits that there are a number of modes of being-in-a-world, but claims that all save language-use can safely be left to psychology.⁶¹ This rather odd thesis is one more attempt on his part to make a neat division between philosophy and science (here, the science of psychology). But more than division of labor is involved; Strawson seems to have in mind what I might call a "double aspect" theory of cognition. This theory asserts something like the following : as we look around us in the world, we find numerous natural occurrences. These "objective occurrences" involving natural phenomena are the proper subject-matter of science. But there is a small class of natural occurrences which present us with a double aspect: on the one hand, they are natural occurrences just like any others, but in addition they have a feature not shared by most natural occurrences — they give cognitive access

61) Cf. La Philosophie Analytique, pp. 129-130.

to the world. Thus, perception is a natural occurrence which can be studied by the natural science of psychology, but in its second aspect, as a "mode" by which we come to know the world, it is the proper subject-matter of philosophy. Most occurrences can be treated only under one aspect, as objects of the natural sciences, but "cognitive phenomena" can be treated by either science or philosophy. The problem arises as to which phenomena are "cognitive" in this sense. Strawson's claim is that only one mode of being-in-a-world is cognitive; only in language-use do we have an instance of direct cognitive access to the world. All other modes of being-in-a-world are mere natural phenomena, fit subjects for scientific investigation but of no philosophic import.

Heidegger's reaction to this type of metaphysical program would be to deny that philosophy ought to study "cognitive" modes of access to the world exclusively — if "cognitive" is taken in a narrow sense. If cognition is understood narrowly as "theoria" as opposed to "praxis" — a "theoria" aiming at propositional knowledge of determinate, objective states of affairs — then it and its objects have no ontological priority.⁶² Cog-

62) Cf. SZ, p. 193. Cf. also SZ, pp. 98ff. where Heidegger rejects the primacy of the sort of "objective properties" which are the normal outcome of a theoretical investigation.

nition of the world (Welterkennen) is only one mode of being-in-a-world; there are others and neither cognition nor the "objective properties" it reveals have privileged ontological status.⁶³ Rather, ontology for Heidegger means the attempt to interpret the being of all the various modes of being-in-a-world. The distinction "cognitive/non-cognitive" (or, "theoretical/practical") is not fundamental, and any attempt to carry through this distinction rigorously will only result in an inability to understand either "praxis" — modes of being-in-a-world which are not concerned exclusively with sheer knowing — or "theoria." So little in fact is "pure cognition" the fundamental mode of access to the world, that it is founded in Besorgen,⁶⁴ which has clear affinities with various practical ways of existing. Besorgen is an Existenzial, a fundamental way of being-in-a-world, and even purely theoretical modes of having to do with the world must be seen as "deficient modi" of Besorgen.⁶⁵ Not only does theoria have a practical aspect — even if that practical aspect con-

63) Cf. SZ, § 13.

64) Cf. SZ, pp. 56ff.

65) Cf. SZ, p. 57.

sists only in restraining oneself from interfering with...⁶⁶ — but practical modes of being-in-a-world have their own Sicht.

Das "praktische" Verhalten ist nicht "atheoretisch" im Sinne der Sichtlosigkeit und sein Unterschied gegen das theoretische Verhalten liegt nicht nur darin, daß hier betrachtet und dort gehandelt wird, und daß das Handeln, um nicht blind zu bleiben, theoretisches Erkennen anwendet, sondern das Betrachten ist so ursprünglich ein Besorgen, wie das Handeln seine Sicht hat.⁶⁷

Both "theoria" and "praxis" can be understood only if seen as specific modes of being-in-a-world with their roots in Besorgen. In particular, the Sicht of practical activity cannot be understood as a species of theoretical cognition.

Welterkennen cannot be understood without reference to its ontological foundations in the Erschlossenheit of being-in-a-world. " Erschlossenheit," or "Gelichtetheit,"⁶⁸ or " Offenheit"⁶⁹ are Heidegger's terms for the ontological feature of Dasein in virtue of which

66) SZ, pp. 61-62.

67) SZ, p. 69

68) SZ, pp. 132-133.

69) Cf. Vom Wesen des Grundes, passim.

cognition is possible. As Heidegger asserts in discussing the inner possibility of correspondence between a proposition and a state of affairs:

Das Wesen der Angleichung bestimmt sich vielmehr aus der Art jener Beziehung, die zwischen der Aussage und dem Ding obwaltet.... Die vorstellende Aussage sagt ihr Gesagtes so vom vorgestellten Ding, w i e es als dieses ist.... Vor-stellen bedeutet hier... das Entgegenstehenlassen des Dinges als Gegenstand. Das Entgegenstehende muß als das so Gestellte ein offenes Entgegen durchmessen und dabei doch in sich als das Ding stehenbleiben und als ein Ständiges sich zeigen. Dieses Erscheinen des Dinges im Durchmessen eines Entgegen vollzieht sich innerhalb eines Offenen, dessen Offenheit vom Vorstellen nicht erst geschaffen, sondern je nur als ein Bezugsbereich bezogen und übernommen wird. Die Beziehung des vorstellenden Ausserens auf das Ding ist der Vollzug jenes Verhältnisses, das sich ursprünglich und jeweils als ein Verhalten zum Schwingen bringt. Alles Verhalten aber hat seine Auszeichnung darin, daß es, im Offenen stehend, je an ein Offenbares als ein solches sich hält.⁷⁰

Rather than a subject and its object separated by a chorismos, we have being-in-a-world with its characteristic of Offenheit. This Offenheit (or erschlossenheit as it is usually called in Sein und Zeit) is constituted by Verstehen, Befindlichkeit, and Rede. Cognition, then, will be ultimately intelligible only in terms of Verstehen, Rede, and Befindlichkeit. So even

70) Vom Wesen des Grundes, in WM, pp. 72-73.

if one arbitrarily decides to study just one mode of being-in-a-world, cognition, it will not be reducible to language-use alone.

Language itself, in fact, is a "derivative phenomenon"⁷¹ and based on Erschlossenheit. Thus any study of language as a cognitive medium — and we have seen⁷² that language has its significance for Strawson only in its aspect as cognitive medium — would have to study the necessary conditions for the application of concepts to reality (to slip out of Heidegger's jargon for a moment), the Offenheit or Erschlossenheit which makes language-use possible. These necessary conditions for language-use will not themselves be anything linguistic and hence not amenable to study by conceptual analysis.

To summarize, Heidegger would deny the privileged status of cognition in ontology: the "really real" is not that determined in cognition, the object of *theoria*. There are many modes of access to the world, each of them having a characteristic structure which must be investigated in its own terms. *Theoria*/ *praxis* is not

71) SZ, p. 160. " Daß jetzt erst Sprache Thema wird, soll anzeigen, daß dieses Phänomen in der existenzialen Verfassung der Erschlossenheit des Daseins seine Wurzeln hat."

72) Cf. supra, pp. 83ff.

a fundamental dichotomy, although an analogous distinction can be drawn among modes of being-in-a-world between more and less theoretical and practical modes. Finally, a strong emphasis on the fundamental nature of the distinction between knowing or cognition and the "object" of cognition would leave Strawson open once again to the criticisms of Chapter I § 4 of this paper. Even if one restricts oneself to a study of "cognition," language-use will have no privileged status.⁷³ Strawson admits that there are various modes of "being-in-a-world,"⁷⁴ among which language-use is but one, and seems at times even to acknowledge that his decision to restrict himself to the study of language

73) Van Breda makes a similar point in his discussion of Strawson's paper. "Pour le phénoménologue... il est strictement impensable de dire que le seul et l'essentiel point de contact avec la réalité que le philosophe veut comprendre, soit l'usage linguistique ... le langage est proclamé par vous [c'est-à-dire, par les analystes] le seul moyen de contact avec la réalité.... La simple description de ma propre conscience et de tout ce que j'ai conscient, me montre qu'il y a une pluralité de façons d'être dans le monde et par conséquent d'avoir accès à une compréhension, à une intelligibilité de ce qui se passe dans le monde. Cette description ne me révèle aucunement que le langage possède en ces matières le statut privilégié que vous proclamez." La philosophie Analytique, p.127.

74) La Philosophie Analytique, p. 130.

is arbitrary.⁷⁵ However, he does not seem to realize to what extent his "method 2)" takes him beyond the limits of what can reasonably be called "conceptual analysis." The internal criticisms of his position developed in § 2 of this chapter were intended to show that Strawson, insofar as he does ontology, must make appeal to some kind of non-linguistic "ontological" knowledge. Strawson holds that this "ontological knowledge" is the result of an "activité marginale qui consiste à nous efforcer de comprendre le monde et notre existence dans le monde."⁷⁶ One can question whether or not this activity is really marginal, but in any case Strawson has no account to give of it. Heidegger at least makes an attempt to account for this ontological knowledge.

Strawson is in fact engaged in an undertaking which is much closer to that of Heidegger than he realizes or than he might like; he is just more confused about what he is doing. As a matter of fact, with very little

75) "Vous n'avez pas contesté cependant, que si ce que nous cherchons à faire est précisément d'élucider la structure conceptuelle qui commande nos façons de penser le monde, telles qu'elles se révèlent dans le langage de tout le jour, notre point de contact essentiel, sinon l'unique point de contact est par le langage, dans lequel nos concepts arrivent à prendre une forme articulée." La Philosophie Analytique, p.128.

76) Cf. supra, pp.84-86.

reconstruction, Individuals can be seen as a limited version of the more general program of Sein und Zeit. Strawson asserts that our normal conceptual scheme is based on the notion of identifying reference to objective particulars, i.e. that it is a necessary condition for our having the conceptual scheme we do, that we be able to refer to the basic particulars of the scheme. Heidegger could accept this totally as a description of our usual conceptual scheme, and of the mode of being-in-a-world on which it is based. Strawson's error is to absolutize his analysis. Just because "identifying reference" is crucial in one sort of Entwurf, it does not follow that it is essential to any conceivable Entwurf. With a different Mittentwurf identifying reference might play an insignificant role. Philosophy will analyse what an Entwurf is, not work out the details of one specific kind, which may change through history. If Sein und Zeit actually gives an analysis of the necessary features of any Entwurf, then it gives the necessary conditions which any ontology — any "conceptual scheme" in Strawson's terminology — must fulfill, including the ontology of Individuals. It is not at all difficult to see how this might be carried out in its broad outlines in terms of certain fundamental needs of Dasein as besorgtes In-der-Mitt-sein

and the need for easy identification of the entities in the world which would result from these human needs under certain circumstances. The major difficulty to this "reduction" is the rudimentary nature of Heidegger's discussion of Rede and Sprache. The positive account of language in Sein und Zeit is too meager to allow any detailed reconstruction of analytic philosophy within the framework of Sein und Zeit.

Here again we encounter a theme which will be important in the next two chapters: the close Ineinander-greifen of methodological and substantive considerations. Thus, Strawson's methodological difficulties derive to a large extent from his unfortunate theory of what constitutes cognition.⁷⁷ Similarly, the "hermeneutic method" is a rational way to go about philosophizing only if Sein and Seinssinn are more or less what Heidegger claims them to be.

⁷⁷) Assuming my reconstruction of his underlying motives (cf. supra, pp. 84ff.) is correct.

Chapter Three : Self

§ 1.

Of the three major theses of Strawson which I proposed to discuss,¹ two have already been treated, if somewhat cursorily. Only the first of the three remains: for Strawson every non-solipsistic consciousness, every entity capable of saying "I" is a person. Barring for a moment Heidegger's objections to the whole notion of consciousness, what sort of position would he take on this dictum? Does he in fact ever take a position on the relation of "selfhood" to "I-saying" ?

... was ist unbezweifelbarer als die Gegebenheit des Ich?... Ist es denn apriori selbstverständlich, daß der Zugang zum Dasein eine schlicht vernehmende Reflexion auf das Ich von Akten sein muß ?... Vielleicht sagt das Dasein im nächsten Ansprechen seiner selbst immer: ich bin es, und am Ende dann am lautesten, wenn es dieses Seiende "nicht" ist.²
In "Ich" spricht sich das Selbst aus, das ich zunächst und zumeist nicht eigentlich bin.³

1) Cf. supra , pp. 34ff.

2) SZ, p. 115

3) SZ, p.322.

The full import of these statements cannot as yet be clear, but they obviously represent some sort of rejections of "I-saying" as Leitfaden for investigating the self. This chapter will discuss what it is about "I-saying" which makes it unsuitable as a guide to the self. This leads directly to the question of how Heidegger distinguishes selves from non-selves without the use of "I-saying" as a criterion. Finally, we must ask what this reveals about what Heidegger means by "self." We can assume that the "self" will not be any type of subject or substance, but what sorts of ontological notions will be used to give an account of it?

We can approach this problem from Heidegger's rejection of the Cartesian formulation "What am I?" in favor of "Who am I?" At first glance the question: "Who is Dasein?" would seem to admit of a direct and obvious answer. In each case "Who is Dasein?" will be answered by "I (am)." "Dasein ist jemeines."⁴ This answer seems in its way final and unobjectionable. On its basis one can proceed to investigate the "I," to determine its reference, and to elaborate an ontology of it in the various ways we have seen. Both Descartes and Strawson treat the self as the entity revealed in

4) Cf. SE, p.42.

"I-saying" and proceed in just this fashion. But this short answer and the resulting approach to the problem of selfhood actually leads into a morass of interlocking distortions and misinterpretations of selfhood.

"Dasein ist Jemeines," and incontestably so, it would seem, but Heidegger is of the opinion that the normal interpretation of this maxim confuses the ontic with the ontological. More precisely, it attempts to draw illicit ontological conclusions about the self from a justified ontic characterization of it.⁵

"Dasein ist Jemeines" is an "ontische Selbstverständlichkeit"⁶ — but not a complete ontology of Dasein. This means that it is an obvious and indisputable fact about Dasein (ontische Selbstverständlichkeit) that it would reply to the question "Who are you?" with "I." In everyday life Dasein understands and interprets itself as an "I." However, this self-interpretation of everyday Dasein is not to be taken at face-value.

5) "Ontic/ontological" is a pair of concepts which is quite central to Heidegger's philosophy. Its full meaning is too complex to treat here. Suffice it to say that "ontic" usually occurs in such combinations as "ontic description, characterization, etc." and often seems to be used as an equivalent to "phenomenological," while "ontological" is reserved for such combinations as "ontological interpretation" and hence is closer to "hermeneutic."

6) SZ, p.116.

It embodies at least two errors. First of all, the notion of "I" is ambiguous: ontically it is always true of Dasein, and in using it Dasein always means itself and succeeds in referring to itself. Yet, although it always does succeed in referring to itself, and in this sense "means" itself, when it uses the word "I," it does not mean itself as itself, i.e. ontic success, success of reference does not preclude ontological error. This doctrine is difficult to understand. What is meant by asserting that "Dasein does not mean itself as itself"? The basic distinction here is between what Dasein means "ontically" and what it means "ontologically."⁷ What Dasein means "ontically" is what Dasein intends to refer to, the intended referent of the expression in question. What Dasein "means ontologically" is what Dasein understands to be the ontological status of the referent. But the thesis that success of reference does not imply ontological knowledge of the referent is surely strange and in need of justification. One must be careful not to be confused here by the obvious examples which come to mind. Thus, I obviously can refer successfully to a physical object without knowing what it is. I can speak of "this table," meaning what is in fact not a table at all, but

7) SZ, p. 68

a packing crate, and yet succeed admirably in referring. But in these sorts of examples "ontological" discrimination and knowledge play no role. Packing crates and tables are both physical objects and as such have the same ontological status. It is unclear whether the same success would be possible, if the speaker did not at least know that it was a macroscopic physical body to which he wished to refer. To reformulate the definition of "to mean ontologically": What Dasein "means ontologically" is what Dasein explicitly understands to be the ontological status of the referent." The emphasis must lie on "explicitly": if there is not some tenuous and unformulated ontological understanding, successful reference is impossible. And, naturally, Dasein does have tacit, "pre-ontological" understanding of what kind of entity it is. Only because of this pre-ontological understanding of itself can it successfully refer to itself. It is the discrepancy between such unformulated, vague understanding and its explicit self-interpretation — distorted by the sedimentation of centuries of philosophic reflection in ordinary language — which makes Dasein's ontological errors possible.⁸ Ontologically Dasein is "being-in-a-world," and

8) The notions of "mean" and "refer" are notoriously difficult to analyse, and it might appear as if Heidegger were committed to an untenable "psychologistic"

tacitly (i.e. pre-ontologically) it understands that it is being-in-a-world. But yet it refers to itself with "I." But "I" seems to pick out one specific item in the world, much like any other item, and individuate it as subject of predication. Thus, in referring to itself explicitly as "I," Dasein is committing an ontological error. In using "I" to refer to itself, everyday Dasein does not mean itself as being-in-a-world, but as an "I," an innerworldly entity which is subject of predication.⁹ This ontological mistake will have further ramifications in the ontic dimension. The ontology underlying my normal self-interpretation is: a self is a thing (etwas Vorhandenes) which says "I." This faulty analysis of the self will cause me to make mistakes in describing entities as selves which are in fact not. I will call all things which say "I" selves. "Zunächst ist das Wer des Daseins nicht nur ontologisch ein Problem, sondern es bleibt auch ontisch verdeckt."¹⁰ By misinterpreting itself as a "thing which says 'I',"

interpretation of them. However, I think the argument could be reconstructed without such dubious psychological notions. In any case, any criticism of Heidegger on this count would apply equally to Strawson. Cf. Individuals, pp.51-52.

9) SZ, pp. 317-318.

10) SZ, p. 116

Dasein "covers over" even the phenomenon of selfhood. Note that Strawson's concept of a "person" is quite close to what Heidegger calls the "normal self-interpretation of everyday Dasein." Even if not every "person" is a thing which can say "I" — there is the problem of whether or not solipsistic persons are possible — at least every "thing which says 'I'" is a "person."¹¹ And even at this point it should be clear that Heidegger will reject any attempt to orient the theory of self on the "I" (whether in the form of "I-think" or of "I say:I"). If the "I" really commits one to positing Dasein as an innerworldly entity, then any theory based on "I-saying" is subject to the criticisms developed in Chapter One § 4.

But we are now back where we started with the problem of how to distinguish selves from non-selves without appeal to an "I." Is "Dasein ist jemeines" then merely an ontic description without ontological import? "Dasein ist jemeines" is neither just an ontic description nor yet a complete ontology: it is a "formale Anzeige."¹²

Dasein ist Seiendes, das ich je selbst bin, das Sein ist je meines. Diese Bestimmung zeigt eine ontologische Verfassung an, aber auch nur das.

11) Cf. supra, Chapter One §§ 3-4

12) SZ, pp. 114, 116

Sie enthält zugleich die ontische—obzwar rohe—Angabe, daß je ein Ich dieses Seiende ist und nicht Andere.¹³

"Formale Anzeige" does not belong to the stock of the most common Heideggerean expressions, and its meaning is not immediately clear. But, since § 9 of Sein und Zeit, which gives an overall view of the whole ontology of Dasein, is referred to as a "formale Anzeige,"¹⁴ we are justified in assuming that a "formale Anzeige" will have some ontological import. The term "formale Anzeige" also points to a distinction Heidegger will draw between what I call the "formal self" and the "essential self."¹⁵ I intend these terms as a shorthand for "self in a formal sense" and "self in the essential sense." There is no presupposition that they designate different entities, as indeed they do not.

The first characterization of the "formal self" is so obscure as to discourage direct approach at all.

Das "Ich" darf nur verstanden werden im Sinne einer unverbindlichen formalen Anzeige, von etwas, das im jeweiligen phänomenalen Seinszusammenhang vielleicht sich als sein "Gegenteil" enthält. Dabei

13) SZ, p.114

14) SZ, p.114

15) This formulation is modelled on Heidegger's statement (SZ, p.303) that "Dasein wird wesentlich in der eigentlichen Existenz." The "essential self" will turn out to be the self of "eigentliche Existenz."

besagt dann "Nicht-Ich" keineswegs soviel wie Seiendes, das wesenhaft der "Ichheit" entbehrt, sondern meint eine bestimmte Seinsart des "Ich" selbst, zum Beispiel die Selbstverlorenheit.¹⁶

Some sort of distinction is being drawn between "I" in the sense of a "formale Anzeige" and "I" in some other, as yet unspecified sense, and there is a suggestion that "I" in the first sense be understood as "Ichheit," and that "I" (or rather, "Not-I") in the other sense as some sort of "loss of self." This information does not look too promising, and so we would perhaps do well to look at "self in the essential sense" first.

No matter what kind of more specific theory of the self Heidegger eventually gives, we can expect the "self" to be construed as some sort of Existenzial,¹⁷ i.e. as a mode of being-in-a-world. To anticipate the course of the rest of the argument, Heidegger will distinguish two ways of being in a world: Selbständigkeit and Unselbständigkeit. A "self" in the essential sense will be Dasein which exists in the mode of Selbständigkeit, while "Non-self" will be the corresponding mode of unselbständig existence. With this we will return to the "formal self," which will be seen to be a structure of self-understanding

16) SZ, p.116.

17) " Wenn das 'Ich' eine essentielle Bestimmtheit des Daseins ist, dann muß sie existenzial interpretiert werden." SZ, p. 117.

realized in different ways in selbständig and unselbständig existence. Thus, the "I" which is sometimes not an "I," but a "not-I," but not in the sense of "lacking I-hood" — this monstrum horrendum informe ingens — would be Dasein which is formally a self, i.e. is characterized by a structure of understanding, but not essentially a self, i.e. is not selbständig. The basic question will then be: how is the self in the formal sense related to the self in the essential sense, or alternatively, how are self-understanding and Selbständigkeit related? Heidegger must show that in some significant sense the essential self, the self of selbständig existence, is a concrete realization of something "implicit" in the formal self. The rest of the chapter will be concerned with elucidating this relation.

§ 2.

Dasein can exist in the world in a number of ways. A "way" of existing in the world is uniquely determined by its mode of Erschlossenheit, i.e. by a characteristic configuration of Rede, Befindlichkeit and Verstehen. The two fundamental ways of existing in the world are Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit.¹⁸ Uneigentlichkeit

18) SZ, pp. 42ff.

is the mode of existence of everyday Dasein and is characterized by Verfallen, Neugier, and Zweideutigkeit.¹⁹ Of these, Verfallen is the most significant for our purposes. Verfallen is the mode of existence in which Dasein is "taken up" or "pre-occupied" (benommen) by the objects of its care and concern (Besorgen). Verfallen is a state of "not having chosen oneself." To say that verfallenes Dasein is "von der Welt benommen"²⁰ means that Dasein itself does not choose the possibilities onto which it "projects itself." Rather Dasein's Entwurf of possibility of itself is determined by das Besorgte — the entities of the world which are the objects of Dasein's concern. In this state Dasein exists "for the sake of" its objects of concern, or, more exactly, for the sake of the possibilities of itself as determined by its objects of concern. To illustrate this, we can take the example of the classical capitalist. Assuming his primär Besorgtes to be the maximization of profits, not only will his actions be determined chiefly by the laws of the market, rather than by himself — he will not choose what to do, but something external will dictate to him what he must do — but the whole "world" will have significance for

19) SZ, §§ 35-38.

20) SZ, pp. 61, 113ff.

him only insofar as he can relate it to maximization of profits. As Marx noted, in his hands everything becomes a commodity. In each Entwurf both the world and the self of Dasein are revealed.²¹ Even in everydayness Dasein will be revealed to itself in some way. In fact, we can predict how the "self" of the capitalist will be revealed to him. He will understand himself only in terms of his own possible ways of maximizing profit. He will understand himself as being "an entity which can maximize profits or can fail to maximize profits." To formalize this to the general case, we can say that verfallenheit, everyday Dasein will be revealed to itself as "a thing in the world which says 'I,' is concerned about (besorgt) ..., and has possibilities --- as determined by the objects of its primary concern." In Heidegger's terminology Dasein exists here not "as" itself. Dasein has lost itself; its self has been absorbed by the world. It exists only as a reflex of the entities which are the objects of its concern in the world²² — specifically in the social world. The "self" as which Dasein understands itself in everydayness, the self determined by the world,

21) SZ, p. 297.

22) "Reflex" not in the sense e.g. of "muscle reflex," but of "reflection in a mirror." Cf. SZ, pp. 15-16, 21. Heidegger drops these light-metaphors after the Introduction to SZ, but they seem to me quite apt.

is called "das Man-selbst." ²³ Since it is given to itself in everyday life as a mere shadow of that which is the object of its concerns and pursuits in the world, and since these objects of concern in the world are never totally subject to its control — they can change and shift in manifold unexpected ways — Dasein becomes "zerstreut." ²⁴ It must increasingly move from moment to moment, from one item of concern to the next. The more it is caught up in entities of the world which are subject only to their own laws, the greater does Dasein's Zerstreuung become, the less coherence does Dasein's existence show. Searching for something permanent and unchanging in its manifold of shifting experience, it finds nothing and is driven to posit some purely formal principle of unity behind the phenomena. ²⁵

At this point some clarifications are in order. It is not clear in what sense — to remain with our example — the ardent capitalist does not exist "as" himself, or has "lost" his "self." To be sure, his possibilities are in some sense given to him by the laws of the mar-

23) SZ, § 27.

24) SZ, pp. 172, 346ff.

25) SZ, p. 322.

ket, by a socially defined role, etc. But in another sense he has chosen himself. After all, no stipulation was made that the capitalist in our example was forced to become a maximizer of profits. Even if "capitalist" is a social role present only in some societies and not in others — as it surely is — and determined in its essence by the society,²⁶ he has chosen himself to the extent that it is his decision to become a capitalist. In addition, the characterization of everyday Dasein as "zerstreut" seems singularly inappropriate in the face of the example. "Zerstreuung" was conceived in terms of lack of coherence in existence. Is not a consistent, coherent capitalist existence possible? One thinks here of men like Rockefeller, whose every movement seemed determined by the overriding desire for economic power. In what sense is such a robber-baron zerstreut? The final clarification of all these difficulties must depend on whether Heidegger can give content to his notions of "existing as a self" and "choosing oneself." If he can do this, he has a chance of showing that the capitalist has not "chosen himself" in his special sense of this term, although he may have chosen to be a capitalist

26) Cf. SZ, §§ 26-27 where the social nature of the world is emphasized.

in the normal sense of "choose."

Of course, in a way I have chosen a bad example. Since Eigentlichkeit is not an ethical ideal, perhaps even an eigentlicher Kapitalist is a theoretical possibility. But any example would be less than satisfactory. The difficulty is that the ontological analysis of Sein und Zeit will have no consequences for the concrete possibilities of Dasein.²⁷ Sein und Zeit neither advocates nor condemns any concrete possibility. I have meant by "capitalist" a person who adopts the social role of capitalist, or rather who finds himself already playing this role — such a person will not be eigentlich. What makes the capitalist zerstreut, are the facts of Angst, Gewissen, and death. These will have no place in his Entwurf, yet he will not completely elude them; they will interrupt his well-ordered existence. Thus, he might find himself compelled to do things from conscience even though they do not serve to maximize profit — one must forget the specific example of Rockefeller at this point. He will be ridden with Angst which he cannot comprehend. Finally he will die. His Entwurf as capitalist has no place for any of these things: they constitute mere interruptions of his daily round

27) SZ, p. 298.

of exploitation. This is Zerstreuung.

Everyday Dasein understands itself as a "thing," but not even in its "fallen" state does it actually become a thing.²⁸ Here Heidegger's own methodology begins to dog his steps — Sein und Zeit derives no small part of its interest from Heidegger's ability to turn this liability into an asset. Chapter Two has shown that Sein und Zeit is a "hermeneutic analysis" of Dasein. Hermeneutics is a method of making explicit what is already understood in an undifferentiated way. As Heidegger quite rightly emphasizes, "interpretation" develops existing understanding and cannot precede it. Interpretation cannot bring forth understanding, but must be based on pre-existing understanding. If this is the case, if Sein und Zeit is merely explicating our understanding of being (and particularly of our own being: existence), how can Heidegger claim that although everyday Dasein understands itself in a certain way — as a "thing which..." — it actually does not exist in that way — it is not a thing, but being-in-a-world. Is not this going beyond the hermeneutic method? Here, it would seem, Heidegger is clearly not developing our understanding, he is contrasting the erroneous under-

28) SZ, p.318.

standing of everydayness with what Dasein "really" is. For Strawson, e.g., the existence of ontological error presents no special problem: Cartesians are simply wrong in their understanding of the problems of the concept of a person. Strawson can tell what a person "really" is, i.e. what it is independently of what anyone might think it to be. But the adoption of the "hermeneutic method" changes the situation. To what court of appeal can Heidegger turn to brand everyday Dasein's understanding mistaken? Heidegger cannot even work with a distinction between what Dasein "is" and what Dasein "understands itself to be," because Dasein's being is constituted precisely by its understanding of itself. Dasein is literally defined as "Seinsverständnis," which includes understanding not only of the being of the entities of the world, but equally understanding of its own being.

Der Sinn von Sein kann nie in Gegensatz gebracht werden zum Seienden oder zum Sein als tragenden "Grund" des Seienden, weil "Grund" nur als Sinn zugänglich wird, und sei er selbst der Abgrund der Sinnlosigkeit.²⁹

This passage asserts that one cannot even speak of a "being" which is independent of understanding. For one could speak of an independent "being qua being" only by contrasting "being qua being" as the "real ground"

29) SL, p. 297.

of that which is with "being qua understood." But "ground" is accessible only as "sense." "Sinn bedeutet das Woraufhin des primären Entwurfes, aus dem her etwas als das, was es ist, in seiner Möglichkeit begriffen werden kann."³⁰ But with this we have come full circle, and the "being qua being" which is supposed to be the ground of that which is (das Seiende) is now seen not to be independent of understanding. Rather it is nothing more than the possibility of Dasein from which "that which is" (das Seiende) can be understood. This is not so much an argument, as a demonstration that Heidegger cannot consistently speak of a "being" independent of Seinsverständnis.

Does this then mean that Heidegger must accept everyday Dasein's self-interpretation as ultimately binding? If this were the case, there would be no need for philosophy. Philosophy is possible because of two features of Dasein: 1) there are a number of ways of being-in-a-world, besides everydayness. Thus, it is conceivable that from the point of view of a mode of existence which is not that of everydayness, Heidegger could assert that "everyday Dasein understands itself as..., but is not ... (i.e. but reveals itself to the

30) SZ, p. 324.

Philosopher who considers it from a non-everyday point of view as not ...)." Naturally the non-everyday point of view, the point of view of Eigentlichkeit, cannot be just "another way of looking at " Dasein, unrelated to everyday existence. If everydayness, Uneigentlichkeit, and Eigentlichkeit were simply two equally perspicuous modes of being-in-a-world, how could one justify claiming that Dasein "really is" what it is understood to be in Eigentlichkeit? In other words, Eigentlichkeit must have some ontological precedence over Uneigentlichkeit, it must be shown that in Eigentlichkeit Dasein understands even Uneigentlichkeit better than everyday Dasein can. If Eigentlichkeit cannot be shown to have clear ontological precedence over Uneigentlichkeit, if it cannot be shown that Dasein reveals itself in Eigentlichkeit as it "really is," then there is no reason at all to try to interpret everyday Dasein from the standpoint of Eigentlichkeit rather than vice versa — such an attempt would be, to adopt the Hegelian expression, "äußere Reflexion" and as such as objectionable to Heidegger as it would have been to Hegel.

This brings us to the second feature of Dasein which allows Heidegger's "hermeneutic phenomenology" room for survival. Everyday Dasein's self-interpretation is not as seamless and monolithic as it appears at first

glance. In developing its understanding of itself, everyday Dasein finds itself involved in seemingly insoluble ontological difficulties. On the one hand, it understands itself theoretically as "a thing which says 'I'" — but pre-ontologically it understands that it is not a "thing."³¹ This discrepancy between its own pre-ontological understanding of itself and the explicit categories it makes use of to elaborate this understanding will make it impossible for everyday Dasein to come to an adequate theoretical account of itself. Furthermore, everyday Dasein will find itself permeated with phenomena like Angst and Gewissen which are theoretically incomprehensible to everyday Dasein and which motivate the shift from Alltäglichkeit to Eigentlichkeit. This is the reason for the inclusion in Sein und Zeit of such seemingly unpromising material as the detailed analyses of Angst, Gewissen, and death. "Existenziale Analytik ist letztlich existenziell verwurzelt:"³² the shift from the thing-ontology of everydayness to the ontology of Sein und Zeit is mediated by the ontic phenomena of Angst, Gewissen, and death.

How precisely does Angst, for instance, motivate

31) Cf. SZ, pp. 12-13.

32) SZ, p.13.

Dasein to go beyond everydayness and its interpretation of Dasein? In one of his methodological chapters Heidegger declares:

Solange die existenziale Analyse nicht vergißt, daß das ihr vorgegebene thematische Seiende die Seinsart des Daseins hat und sich nicht aus vorhandenen Stücken zu einem Vorhandenen zusammenstücken läßt, müssen sich ihre Schritte insgesamt von der Idee der Existenz leiten lassen. Das bedeutet für die Frage nach dem möglichen Zusammenhang zwischen Vorlaufen und Entschlossenheit nichts weniger als die Forderung, diese existenzialen Phänomene auf die in ihnen vorgezeichneten existenziellen Möglichkeiten zu entwerfen und diese existenzial "zu Ende zu denken". 33

One begins with an "existential phenomenon," such as Angst or Gewissen.³⁴ What it means to say that they are "existential phenomena" is that they are concrete ways of being-in-a-world which at the same time reveal in a very pregnant way what being-in-a-world is. They are natural analogues to the "indicators" discussed by § 17 of Sein und Zeit in that they are ontic phenomena whose function is to point out ontological structures. Thus, Angst is a Befindlichkeit which brings

33) SZ, p.302.

34) In fact in this passage Heidegger is not speaking of Angst or Gewissen but of Vorlaufen and entschlossenheit, but the structure is the same.

Dasein to realize that it cannot understand itself "from" the world.³⁵ Realizing that it cannot understand itself from the world, Dasein can project a concrete mode of existence which incorporates this ontological insight, a way of being which would be appropriate for and entity which cannot understand itself in terms of the world. This is what is meant by "diese existenzialen Phänomene auf die in innen vorgezeichneten existenziellen Möglichkeiten entwerfen." A concrete way of existing is "vorgezeichnet" in that not any way of existing is possible for a Dasein which wishes to exist in a way appropriate to itself, a way appropriate to it as it really is, as revealed to itself in Angst. This concrete way of existing, in which Dasein realizes that it cannot understand itself from the world, is called Eigentlichkeit. Eigentlichkeit, since it is a way of being-in-a-world, will have its own understanding of being and of itself. The hermeneutic method can then be applied to develop this understanding and to formulate the structure it reveals. The course of this type of analysis in which the existential follows the existentiell and is, in turn,

35) SZ, § 40.

followed by it: phenomena which reveal an existential structure, which predetermines (vorzeichnen) existential possibilities, is such that each turn of the screw leads to a deeper understanding, to a structure which is more "ursprünglich." The fundamental structure revealed at the end of this type of analysis, the structure of "eigentliche Existenz," is related to everyday existence in a number of ways:

- 1) the structures revealed in Eigentlichkeit constitute what Dasein "really" is, and hence what everyday Dasein, too, is, whether it knows it or not.
- 2) Eigentlichkeit is the only point of view from which the structures of everydayness are comprehensible.
- 3) The structures of Eigentlichkeit "make possible" those of everydayness.³⁶

This is enough to justify the ontological priority of Eigentlichkeit over Uneigentlichkeit which is necessary if Heidegger's "hermeneutic" is ever to get beyond the self-interpretation of everyday Dasein. Eigentlichkeit would give the philosopher an alternative vantage point

36) These three aspects of the relation between Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit deserve and require further elaboration, but this can come only after the discussion of Eigentlichkeit which will follow.

from which to consider everyday Dasein. If this alternative vantage point actually has the ontological priority which Heidegger claims for it, it will also allow the philosopher to distinguish between what Dasein "is" and what it understands itself to be in everyday existence, without going beyond the "hermeneutic" analysis of Dasein's Seinsverständnis.

§ 3.

One preliminary distinction is needed before anything of substance can be said about Eigentlichkeit. For Heidegger the fact that "Dasein is..." (or, as he sometimes expresses it, "Dasein is ontologically ...") in no way implies that "Dasein exists as...." Intuitively this distinction between "Dasein is..." and "Dasein exists as..." is a distinction between merely being... and being... in such a way that one understands that one is.... Thus Dasein "is (ontologically) to-death";³⁷ but this does not imply that Dasein exists as an entity which "is-to-death," i.e. that Dasein exists in such a way as to understand that it "is-to-death": in fact, normally Dasein does its best

37) S2, §§ 46-53.

to "cover over" and flee from its being-to-death rather than understanding it.³⁸ Unless Dasein "understands itself as....," it does not "exist as" Dasein "is" (ontologically) what it reveals itself as being in its ursprünglichster Entwurf. When it "exists as... what (or, who) it is," Dasein acknowledges itself as being what it is and is said to "appropriate" (sich aneignen, übernehmen) the relevant ontological features into its existence. To reformulate the distinction between Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit in these terms: Eigentlichkeit is the mode of being in which Dasein exists as... it is; Uneigentlichkeit the mode in which Dasein does not exist as... it is.

This distinction throws light on Heidegger's assertion that "Dasein ist seine Möglichkeit" and on the relation of the existenzial to the existenziell. For example, "Dasein ist schuldig" is an ontological statement, which asserts that Schuldigkeit is an Existenzial. Thus, Dasein need not "exist as schuldig," i.e. "understand itself as schuldig." It can understand itself as schuldig or refuse to do so, and in each case it has already decided on one of the alternatives. It is important to note that the choice is not between under-

38) SZ, pp. 252-255.

standing oneself as schuldig" and "not understanding oneself as schuldig" (in the sense in which a table, for instance, simply does not understand itself as anything, and certainly does not understand itself as schuldig), but between " understanding oneself as schuldig" and "refusing to understand oneself as schuldig." ³⁹ This is due to the fact that Dasein remains schuldig whether or not it understands itself as schuldig — if Schuldigsein is really an Existenzial. With this we are back to the problem of how Dasein can be ... if it does not understand itself to be.... The answer is the same as before⁴⁰: we can say that everyday Dasein is schuldig even though it does not understand itself as schuldig, because from the point of view of Eigentlichkeit the philosopher can see that everyday Dasein is schuldig. One might say that Schuldigsein is so basic a feature of Dasein, that even in refusing to understand itself as schuldig, Dasein shows that it is schuldig,⁴¹ although, of course, only eigentliches Dasein can see this reve-

39) I will use the expression "not understanding oneself as..." as loosely equivalent to "refusing to understand oneself as...."

40) Cf. SZ, pp. 97ff.

41) Cf. SZ, pp. 283ff. For Heidegger Schuldigsein means Grundsein einer Nichtlichkeit. But any understanding has the structure of an Entwurf, and any Entwurf is essentially nichtig in that in revealing some possibilities

lation of Dasein's Schuldigsein. Schuldigsein as an Existenzial is the existenziell possibility of existing as schuldig or not-a-schuldig. Dasein is its possibility in the sense that all that is (ontologically) is the possibility of existing (ontically) as... or not as....

Das Schuldigsein gehört zum Sein des Daseins selbst, das wir primär als Seinkönnen bestimmten. Das Dasein "ist" ständig schuldig, kann nur heißen, es hält sich in diesem Sein je als eigentliches oder uneigentliches Existieren. Das Schuldigsein ist keine nur bleibende Eigenschaft eines ständig Vorhandenen, sondern die existenzielle Möglichkeit, eigentlich oder uneigentlich schuldig zu sein. Das "Schuldig" ist nur im jeweiligen faktischen Seinkönnen. Das Schuldigsein aus dieser, weil zum Sein des Daseins gehörend, als Schuldigseinkönnen begriffen werden. Die entschlossenheit entwirft sich auf dieses Seinkönnen d.h. versteht sich in ihm. Dieses Verstehen hält sich demnach in einer ursprünglichen Möglichkeit des Daseins. Eigentlich hält es sich in ihr, wenn die Entschlossenheit, ⁴² das, was sie zu sein tendiert, ursprünglich ist.

Dasein is (ontologically)...., but has in addition a "tendency" ("zu sein tendiert" above) to understand what it is, i.e. to exist as what it is. "Tendency" is certainly a strange word for Heidegger to use. If interrogated about Dasein's "tendency" to understand

it also excludes others. So any Dasein which understands itself at all is schuldig, is the Grund einer Wichtigkeit.

42) SZ, pp. 305-306.

itself, Heidegger could only reply that Dasein is defined by the fact that it understands being: Dasein ist seinsverstehend. This is the major premise upon which Heidegger's whole thought turns.⁴³ If one tries to unpack "Dasein ist seinsverstehend," to explain just what is meant by "sein," "Verstehen," "Dasein," etc. , one will come out with a large chunk of Heidegger's system. "Dasein ist seinsverstehend" is so basic that one cannot even argue about it in the normal sense of "argue." One can only accept or reject the basics of Heidegger's phenomenology as an adequate or inadequate, a satisfactory or unsatisfactory description of man, his world, and their interconnection.

This interpretation of Eigentlichkeit/Uneigentlichkeit has the virtue of vindicating Heidegger's repeated statements that Eigentlichkeit is not a surreptitiously introduced ethical ideal.⁴⁴ Heidegger's purpose in Sein und Zeit is ontology, in the first instance an ontological analysis of Dasein⁴⁵ and not ethics or even

43) SZ, pp. 14-15.

44) Cf. Brief über den Humanismus, in WZ, pp. 149, 163, 183ff.

45) SZ, §§ 4-5.

"philosophic anthropology,"⁴⁶ which would treat the specific existenziell possibilities of Dasein. Eigentlichkeit figures in Sein und Zeit only insofar as it furthers the Seinsfrage. Eigentlichkeit is introduced solely because it is a concrete way of being in which Dasein exists as itself, i.e. understands its own being properly. Such a concrete mode of existence is needed, if hermeneutic analysis is to have a proper understanding of being to operate on. If one wants to do fundamental ontology, one must start with Eigentlichkeit, but there is no moral judgement made on the "need" to do fundamental ontology. It is "natural," it is "die Radikalisierung einer zum Dasein selbst wesentlich gehorigen Seinsstendenz,"⁴⁷ but nowhere does Heidegger assert that we "ought" to do anything at all. Now, to be sure, our normal moral consciousness may cause us to judge that the type of self-knowledge implicit in Eigentlichkeit is morally superior to ignorance of self, but, strictly speaking, this ethical theory is independent of Sein und Zeit, and the thesis that such self-knowledge is superior to ignorance of self would have to be justified by means which go beyond the scope of anything in Heidegger's work. This is not to say

46) SZ, p.17.

47) SZ, p. 15.

that Sein und Zeit has no consequences for ethics. If one is independently committed to an ethical position which holds that it is good for man to do what accords with his nature — and this is a quite wide-spread view — it is probable that Heidegger's analysis of Dasein will affect one's concrete ethical position very deeply. But here, too, the specifically "ethical" portion of the doctrine is imported from outside Sein und Zeit. To search through Sein und Zeit for an "existentialist ethic" is totally misguided.

The doctrine of the relation of Eigentlichkeit to self is easy to parody by expressing it in the following unenlightening fashion: What is Eigentlichkeit? It is that mode of being in which Dasein understands itself not from the world, but from its real self.⁴⁸ And what is Dasein's self? It is what Dasein understands itself to be when it exists eigentlich. But what is eigentlichkeit? ... We can step into the circle by way of Heidegger's characterization of the being of Dasein as Sorge.

Sorge is the unitary structure of Existence (Entwurf), Faktizität (Geworfenheit), and Verfallen.⁴⁹ For

48) SZ, p. 146.

49) SZ § 41.

present purposes we can ignore the dimension of Verfallen and speak of Sorge as meaning that "Dasein ist geworfener Entwurf."⁵⁰ Geworfenheit cannot strictly be separated from Existenzialität, but for the purposes of this discussion one can emphasize one aspect at a time. Thus, "Dasein ist geworfener Entwurf" means that I have not laid the grounds of my own existence — I did not bring myself into existence ex nihilo one moment ago with all the traits I might wish to have. I am not responsible for my existence, nor have I total control over my own character. At any given time I find myself "already in" a world with certain characteristics, possibilities, and engagements which are the result of no Entwurf of mine. However, although I did not bring myself into existence, I am the ground of my being.⁵¹ To be eigentlich a geworfener Entwurf means to understand that I am the ground of my being even though I did not bring myself into being. To be geworfener Entwurf means to project oneself onto one's ownmost Seinkönnen. But one's ownmost Seinkönnen is death.⁵² To be geworfener Entwurf thus means

50) SZ, p. 148.

51) This is clear if one recalls that "ground is accessible only as sense" (SZ, p. 152). To say "I am the ground of my existence" means "only from me can my existence have sense." Given the analysis of "sense"

to be the "ground of one's own being in being-to-death."⁵³ If Dasein is Sorge, then Eigentlichkeit of Dasein should consist in Dasein's existing as Sorge, in Dasein's existing as geworfener Entwurf — as the ground of its own being and as being-to-death. To exist as the ground of one's being means to assume, to take over (übernehmen) the ground of one's being, i.e. to understand that one is the ground of one's own being — particularly to understand that one is a geworfener Entwurf, the ground of one's being, but in such a way that one can never totally determine one's being. Heidegger calls this mode of being in which one understands that one is the ground of one's own being "Entschlossenheit."⁵⁴ To exist as being-to-death means to understand oneself as being-to-death, to project oneself onto one's death as one's ownmost possibility. Heidegger's technical term for this projection onto death is "Vorlaufen in den Tod."⁵⁵ Eigentlichkeit then is vorlaufende Entschlossenheit.

in SZ § 31, this is not a very revolutionary proposition.

52) Both of these propositions require considerable clarification and justification and are treated at great length in Sein und Zeit. A full discussion of them here would exceed the limits of this paper.

53) SZ, § 62.

54) SZ, pp. 284ff, 295ff.

55) SZ, pp. 262-263.

In vorlaufender Entschlossenheit Dasein will understand itself in a certain way, Dasein will be "revealed to itself" as.... It is this "self" revealed in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit which is the "essential self." Dasein's essential self is what it understands itself as being in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit. But this is still only the sketch of a theory.

Sorge is the being of Dasein. "Die Entschlossenheit aber ist nur die in der Sorge gesorgte und als Sorge mögliche Eigentlichkeit dieser selbst."⁵⁶ The full structure of vorlaufender Entschlossenheit is one in which Dasein, anticipating (vorlaufen) its own death as its ownmost possibility, comes back on itself to assume the burden of being the ground of its own Sein-können, thereby understanding itself as an entity which is the ground of its being-to-death. Even in this formulaic description the underlying quasi-temporal structure is noticeable: "Dasein anticipates (vorlaufen)....," "Dasein comes back from its anticipated death to itself." Eigentliches Dasein exists as being-to its ownmost Sein-können only if it can come back on itself from its anticipated death. This is due to the fact that understanding myself as ... or appropriating any possibility as my own implies at least some sort of reflexive structure.

56) SZ, p.301.

Heidegger calls the reflexive structure which makes Eigentlichkeit possible "temporality" (Zeitlichkeit).⁵⁷ Temporality constitutes selfhood⁵⁸: Dasein can understand itself as..., only if it can appropriate some possibility as its own, and it can appropriate a possibility as its own only if it can come back on itself from its future.

Vorlaufen has its foundation in the condition of Dasein in which it comes back to itself. However, this "coming back to itself" from its anticipated possibility is a "coming back to itself" only if Dasein is not only "futural,"⁵⁹ but at the same time is its thrown past. That is to say, one can speak of coming back to "itself," only if what Dasein comes back to is itself, i.e. only if Dasein is its past. The "present" is construed simply as the past when returned to in this way from the future.⁶⁰ Temporality, the unity of future, past, and present is the ground of Sorge and the most ursprünglich analysis of Dasein given in Sein und Zeit.

57) SZ, pp. 325-326.

58) Cf. Vom Wesen des Grundes, III, pp. 34-35.

59) "Zukünftig" — cf. SZ, pp. 325, 357, 367.

60) SZ, pp. 326, 328-329.

Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit, the two fundamental ways of being-in-a-world, can be re-interpreted in temporal terms — each will be characterized by a certain concrete mode of temporality.⁶¹ Eigentlichkeit, vorlaufende Entschlossenheit, has already been seen to be a configuration of temporality — indeed the whole purpose of the analysis of Eigentlichkeit was to reveal temporality as the ground of Sorge. Both eigentliches and uneigentliches Dasein are temporal — since, if Dasein were not temporal, no possibilities could be appropriated and no understanding would be possible — but Eigentlichkeit has the peculiarity of revealing the underlying temporal structure of understanding.

Wenn sich die Zeitlichkeit hierin ursprünglich bekundet, dann ist vermutlich die Zeitlichkeit der vorlaufenden Entschlossenheit ein ausgezeichneter Modus ihrer selbst.⁶²

The temporality which characterizes Eigentlichkeit is a pre-eminent mode of temporality, because in it temporality reveals itself for what it is, the ground of Sorge.

From this point of view one can look back at

61) SZ, §§ 66-67.

62) SZ, p. 304.

everydayness with greater understanding.⁶³ Everyday Dasein does not exist "as itself," but rather as "das Man-selbst"⁶⁴ — it does not choose its possibilities freely and of itself, but has them given it by das Man. Everydayness is overcome by Dasein's "Nachholen einer Wahl,"⁶⁵ i.e. by Dasein's choice of itself and of its possibilities from its ownmost Seinkönnen. In the previous discussion (§ 2) this notion of "choosing possibilities from oneself" was not explicated. If the analysis has now progressed far enough to give a positive account of the "Nachholen einer Wahl," it will be clear just how and why everyday Dasein fails to choose its own possibilities.

Dasein cannot make itself independent of the öffentliche Ausgelegtheit of everyday existence by creating its own possibilities ex nihilo — this would be contrary to Dasein's Geworfenheit.⁶⁶ Dasein's possibilities are still taken from das Man, but they are no longer merely passively received. Rather, Dasein chooses from among the possibilities available in a certain historico-social

63) Once again: the analysis of Alltäglichkeit is carried out in Sein und Zeit from the point of view of the philosopher and his eigentliche Existenz.

64) SZ, p. 129.

65) SZ, p. 268.

66) SZ, pp. 298-299.

context certain possibilities as its own, as its own eigentliche Möglichkeiten. But what is the force of asserting that Dasein chooses its possibilities "from itself"? To say that Dasein chooses its possibilities "from itself" means that Dasein appropriates these possibilities as its own in choosing itself. Dasein chooses itself by understanding itself as the ground of its own being, i.e. Entschlossenheit is the choice of oneself. Entschlossenheit, choice of self, means acknowledging and accepting the fact that one is the ground of one's own existence. To choose a possibility "from oneself" means to appropriate and understand the possibility as my own in coming back on myself from death. Thus the whole structure of "choosing a possibility from oneself" is: Dasein understands itself as ground of its existence, of its whole existence, i.e. it understands itself as the ground of its being-to-death; coming back on itself from its anticipated death it appropriates certain possibilities as its own. These are its eigentliche Möglichkeiten; we say they are "chosen from Dasein's self."⁶⁷

67) This interpretation of "choosing a possibility from oneself" is based chiefly on three passages in Sein und Zeit : p. 268, ll. 1-19; p. 287, ll. 33-39; p. 298, l. 35 - p. 299, l. 24.

So, to return to our capitalist example, it is quite possible for there to exist an eigentlicher Kapitalist — provided he "chose" to be a capitalist "from himself" in the manner just described, and did not simply acquiesce in it as a social role.

Dasein which finds itself projected onto eigentliche Möglichkeiten in this way is called "selbständig." What does this Selbständigkeit mean and in what sense is eigentliches Dasein "selbständig"?

§ 4.

"Selbständig" is etymologically ambiguous. As a compound of "selb" (or: "selbst") and "stehen" it partakes of the ambiguity of "selb/selbst." "Selb/selbst" means either "the same" or "self" according to construction.⁶⁸ "Der selbe Mann" = " the same man." "Der Mann... selbst" = " the man... himself." Correspondingly one can distinguish two meanings of "selbständig" :
a) "selb" (= self) + stehen + ig . Something is called

68) This same ambiguity can be paralleled in other European languages. Cf. Greek: ὁ αὐτὸς ἄνθρωπος = the same man; ὁ αὐτὸς ἄνθρωπος αὐτὸς = the man... himself.

"selbständig" in this sense if it stands of, as, or by itself, i.e. if it is "independent" or self-sufficient.

b) "selb" (= the same) + stehen + ig. In this sense an entity is "selbständig" which stands or remains as the same entity — whether or not it is a self. Thus a stone can stand out and remain the same stone, without being a "self" in any significant sense.⁶⁹

As usual, Heidegger's philosophic distinctions parallel these linguistic ones. The traditional interpretation of "selfhood" — the analysis of what it means for an entity to be a self — is carried out in terms of the second (b) of the two meanings of "selbständig." Only an entity which can be determined to stand or remain as the same entity through time can possibly "stand" as a self. The search for what constitutes the self may "find" any number of varying things: selfhood is constituted by the soul, by the substantial unity of personality, by the analytic unity of consciousness, etc., but from the very onset of the investigation the object is some - "thing" which remains the same through change.

69) Unfortunately, this is not the end to the linguistic complications of "selbständig." There is a further ambiguity which cuts across the one mentioned in the body of the text. Is "selbständig" to be broken up: "selb + stehen + ig" or "selb + ständig"? Assuming "selb" in the first sense (selb = self), we can interpret "selbständig" either as "standing of itself

Strawson, for instance, is very conscious of pre-supposing this sort of framework for his analysis of "person." Strawson's "basic particulars" are entities which can be re-identified as the same through change in time.⁷⁰ This puts his attempt to construe a "person" as a basic particular in its proper perspective, as an attempt to find in man some re-identifiable entity which remains the same through time and in virtue of which Dasein is a self. He also denies that Dasein need remain the same through time in order to be a self. Dasein is a "self" in the essential sense, if it is selbständig.

Prima facie one might expect that the counterpart of "selbständig," namely "unselbständig," would require equal clarification of ambiguity. We might try to distinguish two basic meanings of "unselbständig": the first, "un-selbständig," simply denies that the entity of which it is asserted is "selbständig" (in any further sense). The second, "unselb-ständig," makes a positive

(selbst + stehen)" or as " that which continues as a self (selb + ständig)." Fortunately, the crucial philosophic distinction is between "standing as a self" and "remaining the same," and for this we need not enter into all the complexities of philology.

70) Cf. Individuals, chapters 2 and 3.

assertion about Dasein: it states that Dasein is "ständig" an "Unselbst." It is not a quibble to call this a "positive" assertion about Dasein. To say that Dasein is not ständig a self, is not necessarily to assert that it is ständig an "unself." Especially since "unself" can be given a concrete interpretation as "das Man-selbst" — a positive phenomenon which is analysed in some detail by Heidegger. Thus it is possible to distinguish:

- 1) un-selbständig:
 - a) unständig, i.e. not ständig anything.
 - b) not ständig a self — whether it is ständig anything else is left open.
- 2) unselb-ständig: ständig an Unselbst, i.e. ständig das Man-selbst.

Fortunately, we will be able to ignore these nuances of meaning here. All three meanings will reduce to the first: unselbständig = unständig. The reason will be clearer after the discussion of "Selbständigkeit."

Eigentliches Dasein, Dasein which is vorlaufend and entschlossen, is selbständig. It is selbständig in the sense that it is its own ground. In choosing itself

and its possibilities Dasein "ermöglicht sich selbst." ⁷²
 In addition, qua vorlaufend zum Tode Dasein anticipates
 the whole of its existence. Thus the self revealed in
vorlaufender Entschlossenheit is one revealed in a pro-
 ject which anticipates the whole of existence. As such,
 the self revealed in this kind of project will be a
ständiges. ⁷³ The connection here between "whole" and
"ständig" is simply this: if the whole of existence
 actually is anticipated, the self revealed in such an
Entwurf must be one appropriate for the whole of existence,
 hence one that is ständig throughout Dasein's existence.
 Dasein which is revealed to itself as ständig a self in
 this way will be selbständig.

But one must avoid a tempting misinterpretation of
 this "Selbständigkeit." Dasein is not selbständig be-
cause it at every moment of its "life" (i.e. beständig)
 projects itself onto its ownmost possibility. This is
 an impossible goal, because one based on a false con-
 ception of Entwurf. Heidegger makes it clear that
eigentliche Existenz does not consist in a series of
 moments of Entschlossenheit:

72) SZ, p.263.

73) SZ, p. 308.

Erschlossen in seinem "Da" hält es scilicet, das Dasein ⁷⁴ sich gleichursprünglich in der Wahrheit und in der Unwahrheit. Das gilt "eigentlich" gerade von der Entschlossenheit als der eigentlichen Wahrheit. Sie eignet sich die Unwahrheit eigentlich zu. Das Dasein ist je schon und demnächst vielleicht wieder in der Unentschlossenheit.⁷⁴

Vorlaufend entschlossen hält sich das Dasein offen für ständige, aus dem Grunde des eigenen Seins mögliche Verlorenheit in die Unentschlossenheit des Man.⁷⁵

Die Existenz kann aber auch im Augenblick und freilich oft auch nur "für den Augenblick" den Alltag meistern, obzwar nie auslöschen.⁷⁶

If Eigentlichkeit were an ethical ideal, we might be inclined to attribute to Heidegger a rather pessimistic view of man — a modern reconstruction of the medieval view of man as "in Sünden ertrunken."⁷⁷ But eigentlichkeit is not an ethical ideal, it is merely the way of existing in which one explicitly asks the question of being, and obviously not even Heidegger spends the whole day asking himself what it means to be (at least not explicitly). So no opprobrium attaches to man's congenital Uneigentlichkeit. Dasein is not the sum

74) SZ, p. 298.

75) SZ, p. 308.

76) SZ, p. 371.

77) SZ, p. 180.

of all the moments in its life; it is not the aggregate of all instantaneous experiences. Any attempt to understand "Selbständigkeit" as a condition of Dasein in which each instant of Dasein's life is selbständig imposes a false Fragehorizont: it is an attempt to find in Dasein an inappropriate thing-unity. It is quite unobjectionable to look for unity and continuity in a thing, an object in the world, by summation of its separate parts either in space or in time. But to look for "separate" parts in Dasein is to invite mistaking the phenomenon. The Ständigkeit of Eigentlichkeit does not consist in the fact that Entschlossenheit is an "act" which "lasts" throughout Dasein's life.

Die Entschlossenheit wurde ontologisch mißverstanden, wollte man meinen, sie sei nur so lange als "Erlebnis" wirklich, als der "Akt" der Entschließung "dauert". In der Entschlossenheit liegt die existenzielle Ständigkeit, die ihrem Wesen nach jeden möglichen ihr entspringenden Augenblick schon vorweggenommen hat.⁷⁸

Entschlossenheit is not an "act" nor a series of acts, and it certainly does not last through time.⁷⁹ The

78) SZ, p. 391.

79) The whole discussion of Entschlossenheit, Sorge, etc. takes place in a pre-temporal (or: atemporal) dimension, much like that of the Kantian transcendental ego. "Time" in the ordinary sense is derivative of the temporality of Dasein. Thus the structure of temporality itself cannot be said to be in time.

Ständigkeit of Eigentlichkeit consists in the fact that Entschlossenheit is proleptic, anticipating the whole of existence. Since Dasein has no parts — spatial or temporal — the only kind of unity which can be expected of it is this sort of proleptic unity in Entschlossenheit.

Selbständigkeit is the opposite of Unzusammenhang, Zerstreuung, Wirbel, and the Verfallen of everyday Dasein.⁸⁰ In Selbständigkeit Dasein comes to rest in itself. By Vorlaufen it anticipates its whole future up to its death; by "repetition" (Wiederholung) — by returning and accepting possibilities given it from its "heritage" (the past) — it recapitulates its past. Dasein is ständig, ständig a "self" in that the whole of its existence is "caught up in" Entschlossenheit.⁸¹

In contrast, verfallenes everyday Dasein is unständig. Verfallen is the condition of Dasein in which

80) Cf. S2, pp. 172, 346ff.

81) Ad "Wiederholung" cf. S2, pp. 308, 339, 382ff. The whole of existence is "eingerollt." In the foregoing discussion I have emphasized the "futural" aspect of Selbständigkeit, but the whole of existence includes the past too. If one understands the underlying idea of the existential analysis and follows the discussion of Vorlaufen, the dimension of the past can easily be filled in.

it is "beside" (bei) the things of the world which are the objects of its concern. As was already mentioned, in Verfallen Dasein's relation to its own possibilities, its Entwurf, is not freely chosen, rather it is determined by the objects of concern, and since the objects of concern are always objects in the social world, Dasein exists as das Man-selbst.

[Das sorgende Seinkönnen⁷ läßt das Dasein im besorgenden Sein beim Besorgten auf sich zukommen.... Das Dasein... ist besorgend seiner gewartig aus dem, was das Besorgte ergibt oder versagt. Aus dem Besorgten her kommt das Dasein auf sich zu. Die uneigentliche Zukunft hat den Charakter des Gewartigens. Das besorgende Sichverstehen als Man-selbst aus dem, was man betreibt, hat in diesem Modus der Zukunft den "Grund" seiner Möglichkeit.⁸²]

That is, Dasein's relation to its possibilities is one of "expectancy" mediated by present objects of concern. Dasein is totally taken up by the objects of concern and relates to its possibilities only as to something which will be fulfilled or not by the present object of concern. Whereas Eigentlichkeit is a mode of temporality in which the future takes precedence — Dasein is-to-death and death is ständig möglich, but never actually present as long as Dasein continues to exist — it is from this perpetually possible possibility, from its own future death,

82) SZ, p.337.

that Dasein understands the world and that present in it. Eigentlichkeit is the mode of existence which accepts this priority of the future. Uneigentlichkeit, however, does not. In Uneigentlichkeit the possibilities onto which Dasein is projected become increasingly mere reflexes of the objects of concern. The future remains the primary mode even in Uneigentlichkeit — understanding can only be in terms of possibilities and sheer presence allows no possibilities — but Uneigentlichkeit tries to escape its future and to become sheerly present. To become sheerly present would mean to cease to be temporal at all. A perpetual present without past or future is a nunc stans — eternity. Uneigentliches Dasein tries to escape time by becoming utterly absorbed in the present object of concern. The present is cut off from the future, as the object of concern absorbs Dasein more and more. But Uneigentlichkeit can never succeed. The present object of concern can never totally absorb Dasein; eventually it must pass on to a new present, a new object of concern (or at least a new aspect of the old object), and, since Uneigentlichkeit has tried to deny its temporality, suppressing its future and trying to live as pure present, the shift must be a discontinuous leap. Isolated in itself from past and future, Besorgen leaps

disconnectedly from one object of concern to the next. This frantic hopping from one atomized moment to the next is Unständigkeit.

With this temporal interpretation in mind, it is clear that the distinctions between the various possible meanings of "Unselbstständigkeit" (cf. supra, p. 135) can be ignored. What is not ständig a self will be either unständig or ständig an unself — thus we can delete "not ständig a self" as an independent formulation. But we have seen that "unself" means "das Man-selbst": thus what is ständig an unself is ständig das Man-selbst, but it was just shown that the temporal interpretation of verfallenes Dasein, of Dasein which exists as das Man-selbst is "Unständigkeit." Being ständig an unself means being unständig.

Here there is a minor problem, since there seems to be one bit of textual evidence against the assertion that das Man-selbst is unständig. On p. 128 of Sein und Zeit we read that

In den herausgestellten Seinscharakteren des alltäglichen Untereinanderseins... liegt die nächste "Ständigkeit" des Daseins. Die Ständigkeit betrifft nicht das fortwährende Vorhandensein von etwas, sondern die Seinsart des Daseins als Mitsein.

If das Man-selbst is characterized by a certain Ständigkeit des Mitseins, how can it at the same time be unständig? The case seems analogous to the one involving the "self which is not a self." Heidegger is careful to put quotation marks around "ständigkeit" at its first occurrence in the passage. In a loose colloquial sense Dasein is ständig das Man-selbst, but on a closer analysis the "Ständigkeit" of everyday Dasein shows itself to be ständige Unständigkeit. In a way the situation is paradoxical: the more intensely Dasein exists in the present alone, the less ständig is its existence. On the other hand, ständiges Dasein is one in which future and past assume such pre-eminence that Dasein's temporality is characterized by an "Entgegenwartigung (des Heute)." ⁸³

This sufficiently clarifies the relation of Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit to temporality. Eigentlichkeit reveals that Dasein is temporality. The basic structure of temporality and of Eigentlichkeit are the same: Dasein could be "temporally" only if it came back from an anticipated possibility to appropriate the past, and this is precisely what it does in Eigentlichkeit. In Eigentlichkeit Dasein exists as itself in the essential

83) SZ, p.391.

sense.

We have spoken of the "essential self," the self revealed in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit, and of the mode of existence in which Dasein exists not as itself, but as das Man-selbst. But "selfhood" (Selbstheit) and the "self in the formal sense" have not yet been treated. "Selfhood" is best considered in conjunction with the thesis that temporality is the "ground of Sorge." ⁸⁴

§ 5.

In §§ 68 and 69 of Sein und Zeit Heidegger argues that temporality constitutes the "Erschlossenheit des Da überhaupt." But to say that Dasein's "Da" is "erschlossen" means that Dasein "has" (i.e. is "in") a world, or that it is "transcendent." Temporality, then, is the common ground of the "essential self" and of transcendence.⁸⁵ The relation of "selfhood" to temporality is discussed in Vom Wesen des Grundes in the following terms:

Die Transzendenz bezeichnet das Wesen des Subjektes,
ist Grundstruktur der Subjektivität.... Was

84) SZ, p. 323.

85) This will be explained in the following discussion.

überstiegen wird/[in der Transzendenz] ist gerade das Seiende selbst, das dem Dasein unverborgen... sein kann, und zwar jegliches... mithin auch und gerade das Seiende, als welches "es selbst" existiert. Im Überstieg kommt das Dasein allererst auf solches Seiendes zu, das es ist, auf es als es selbst. Die Transzendenz konstituiert die Selbstheit.... Sofern... das Dasein als Selbst existiert — und nur insofern — kann es "sich" verhalten zu Seiendem, das aber vordem überstiegen sein muß.⁸⁶

The important implication of this passage is that it clearly states that all Dasein is characterized by selfhood. Even alltägliches, uneigentliches Dasein, although it does not exist as itself, nevertheless does exist in a world — indeed in a sense alltägliches Dasein is more intensely in the world than eigentliches — and to be in a world means to be transcendent. If transcendence indeed constitutes selfhood, if Dasein can "relate" to other things in the world only insofar as it is transcendent, then even uneigentliches Dasein is as self — even if not "it"self.

At this point a coherent pattern begins to emerge. What in Vom Wesen des Grundes and Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik is called simply "self,"⁸⁷ is what I

86) Vom Wesen des Grundes in GA, pp. 34-35.

87) Cf. Vom Wesen des Grundes, GA, pp. 34-35, 53-54, 59-60, 70-71, and also Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik (2d ed.; Frankfurt/M., Vittorio Klostermann Verlag, 1951), pp. 138, 142ff, 170ff.

have called the "formal self" or "self in the formal sense" at the beginning of this chapter, i.e. the "self" as described in the formale Anzeige. Each Dasein is such a "self in the formal sense" because if Dasein did not go beyond (trans + scando) the entities of the world to a possibility of itself and return to itself, thereby constituting itself as a self, there would be no transcendence and no being-in-a-world.⁸⁸ Every Dasein is a self (although not necessarily itself) insofar as it is Sorge, for Sorge contains in itself (einschließen) a reflexive structure which it is reasonable to call a self-structure.⁸⁹ However, although each Dasein is characterized by this self-structure, it is "revealed" only in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit. To say that the self of Eigentlichkeit is Dasein's "essential" self means that the self revealed in Eigentlichkeit is Dasein's "real" self, i.e. that the same formal structure can be seen to underlie both Eigentlichkeit and everyday existence. In Eigentlichkeit Dasein understands itself as it "really" is; its "essential" self is revealed to it in that the implicit self-understanding which any

88) Cf. Vom Wesen des Grundes, WM, pp.53-54.

89) Cf. SZ, p.323.

Dasein must have in order to be Dasein has become explicit. All Dasein qua transcendence is a formal self: it returns from the world, a possibility of itself, to the entities in the world in such a way as to allow them to "begegnen." Such transcendence is already implicitly self-knowledge (Auf-sich-zukommen).⁹⁰ Eigentlichkeit merely exists in such a way as to understand that Dasein is always Auf-sich-zukommen from an anticipated possibility.

This does not quite adequately deal with some of the methodological difficulties raised by Heidegger's procedure. What exactly is meant by "revealed" in the statement "Dasein's essential self is revealed in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit" ? It surely cannot mean that a person who exists eigentlich thereby of necessity has explicit theoretical knowledge of the "self." If this were the case, it would imply that no one before Heidegger was eigentlich — after all, Heidegger was surely the first to discuss the "self" in precisely the terms of

90) Cf. Vom Wesen des Grundes, AM, pp. 53-54. "Das Dasein ist so, das es würden seiner existiert. Wenn aber die Welt es ist, im Überstieg zu der sich allererst Selbstheit zeitigt, dann erweist sie sich als das, worumwillen das Dasein existiert.... Worumwillen aber Dasein existiert, ist es selbst. Zur Selbstheit gehört Welt; diese aber ist wesentlich daseinsbezogen." Note the lack of any significant distinction between self and world: Welt ist daseinsbezogen and the self is constituted by Dasein's possibilities, all of which are possible ways of being-in-a-world.

Sein und Zeit. In general, the relation of existenzielles Verstehen to existenziales Verstehen is complex and obscure. One cannot claim that the "revelation" of Dasein in eigentlicher Existenz means that in this case existenzielles Verstehen implies existenziales Verstehen. But, on the other hand, to claim that there can be existenziell eigentliches Verstehen without existenziales Verstehen is strange. Would not a faulty existenziales Verstehen point to at least some inadequacy in the existenzielles Verstehen? I say that this isolation of existenzielles from existenziales Verstehen is strange because Heidegger's whole attempt in Sein und Zeit has been to connect the two forms of Verstehen as closely as possible. The analysis of "Everydayness" (Alltäglichkeit) emphasizes this point repeatedly: alltägliches Dasein understands itself as a thing (as etwas Vorhandenes)⁹¹ — but this self-interpretation, this existenziales Verstehen of itself is not correct. Not even alltägliches Dasein which understands itself both existenziell and existenzial as a thing is a thing. From the point of view of Eigentlichkeit it can be clearly seen that the categories of thinghood do not apply even

91) Cf. SZ, pp. 128ff.

to verfallenes Dasein.⁹² Nevertheless, even verfallenes everyday Dasein retains a proper "pre-ontological" understanding of being and of itself. Alltäglichkeit is incapable of adequately grasping its own being: the ontology of Vorhandenheit which expresses the existenzielles Verstehen of Alltäglichkeit is patently insufficient, but the insufficiency of the ontology of Alltäglichkeit is a direct result of Dasein's own faulty existenzielles Verstehen. Dasein's mode of existence distorts its correct pre-ontological understanding.⁹³ But in Eigentlichkeit Dasein has an ex hypothesi correct existenzielles Verstehen, so there can be no distortion of Dasein's vorontologisches Seinsverständnis from this quarter. If Verstehen always includes Auslegen, how can Dasein whose existenzielles Verstehen is adequate fail to have an existenzial adequate understanding? If Dasein's existenzielles Verstehen is flawed, how can it continue to have an eigentliches existenzielles Verstehen? Yet Heidegger clearly states that this is possible:

So wenig die Existenz notwendig und direkt beeinträchtigt wird durch ein ontologisch unzu-

92) Cf. SZ, p. 318.

93) Cf. SZ, p. 16 "Dasein ist ihm selbst ontisch 'am nächsten' ontologisch am fernsten, aber vorontologisch doch nicht fremd."

reichendes Gewissensverständnis, so wenig ist durch eine existenzial angemessene Interpretation des Gewissens das existenzielle Verstehen des Rufes gewährleistet.⁹⁴

One way to avoid this difficulty would be to stress the difference between vorontologisches Verstehen and existenzielles Verstehen on the one hand, and the construction of explicit ontologies and existenziales Verstehen on the other.⁹⁵ This is equivalent to emphasizing the independence of the Vorgriff in Auslegung. But it has already been noted that in other passages Heidegger seems to be unwilling to allow for independence of the Vorgriff.⁹⁶ It is clear in what sense the basic phenomena of Dasein are "covered up" in everydayness — do what it may, Dasein exists in such a way that it cannot understand them ontologically. But does "In Eigentlichkeit Dasein is revealed for what it really is" mean only that eigentliches Dasein can possibly grasp its own being in an ontologically adequate fashion?

To say that transcendence constitutes the self,

94) SZ, p. 295.

95) Cf. SZ, p. 12.

96) Cf. SZ, p. 319 et cf. supra, pp. 63ff.

then, or that Dasein is a self in a formal sense means that Dasein is characterized by a reflexive structure of coming back on itself from its possibility. "Selfhood" in this sense is an Existenzial, and as such is the possibility that Dasein exist as a self or not. To exist as a self means to understand oneself (existenziell) as a self, and this existenzielles Verstehen is possible only for a Dasein which is vorlaufend and entschlossen. Dasein always has a vorontologische Verstandnis of what it itself is; in Eigentlichkeit (vorlaufender Entschlossenheit) the existenziell obstacles to developing this understanding are removed. In Eigentlichkeit Dasein has a proper existenzielles Verstehen. Dasein's world will be "given free" to it from its own anticipated death. Dasein will not understand itself as merely an entity which besorgt It will have chosen its own possibilities. This existenziell understanding may, but need not be developed into an explicit theoretical understanding of the underlying structures of Dasein.

However, there is one small qualification which bears mention. I have spoken as if "verfallenes Dasein" and "uneigentliches Dasein" were synonymous, and as if eigentliches Dasein were somehow not verfallen. But not

even Eigentlichkeit can totally escape from the world. Verfallen is an Existenzial, an integral part of Sorge, and as such is the fate of all Dasein.⁹⁷ Das Man is equally an Existenzial.⁹⁸ If eigentliche Existenz is indeed the "truth" of existence,⁹⁹ then we must interpret the oft-repeated dictum "Dasein ist immer zugleich in der Wahrheit und in der Unwahrheit"¹⁰⁰ as meaning that eigentliches Dasein is always also uneigentlich. Eigentlichkeit and Uneigentlichkeit are inextricably intertwined. No matter how hard it tries, Uneigentlichkeit can never flee so fast as to escape Sein-zum-Tode and Schuldig-sein; part of Eigentlichkeit is the realization that Dasein can never cease to be verfallen.¹⁰¹ If "Uneigentlichkeit hat immer mögliche Eigentlichkeit zum Grunde"¹⁰² and the uneigentliches Selbst is an "existenzielle Modifikation des eigentlichen Selbst"¹⁰³

97) SZ, pp. 192-193.

98) SZ, p. 129.

99) Heidegger's theory of truth is such to complex to discuss even in the most superficial way, but cf. SZ, § 44.

100) Cf. SZ, pp. 221-222.

101) Cf. SZ, pp. 254ff, 184ff, 299ff, 308.

102) SZ, p. 259.

103) Cf. SZ, p. 317.

yet equally the eigentliches Selbst is an "existenzielle Modifikation des Man."¹⁰⁴ The uneigentliches Selbst might be called an "existenzielle Modifikation des eigentlichen" because even in the uneigentliches Selbst the basic structure of selfhood is realized and can be revealed by modifying Dasein's existenzielles Verstehen; the uneigentliches Selbst is a distortion of the selfhood revealed in Eigentlichkeit. On the other hand, the eigentliches Selbst is an "existenzielle Modifikation des Man" in that Dasein is always and in every case already thrown into the world of the Man, so that Eigentlichkeit is a condition attained by modifying Dasein's existenziell understanding of the world.

But in any case it is clear that one must distinguish between: a) das Man and Verfallen as Existenzialien; b) Selbstheit as an Existenzial; c) das Man-selbst; d) das eigentliche Selbst. All Dasein is verfallen and all Dasein is a self in the formal sense, but it can realize this self-structure concretely in two different ways: a) the self can enter into a fusion with the Man-structure, i.e. Dasein can project itself onto possibilities given it by das Man. In this case Dasein

104) Cf. SZ, pp. 130, 179.

understands itself as das Man and exists as das Man-selbst. Or, b) Dasein chooses itself and its possibilities in the manner described.¹⁰⁵ It exists as itself, as a self in the essential sense. It remains verfallen; the Man-structure remains, but Dasein now understands that it is verfallen and appropriates certain possibilities as its own from das Man, rather than passively receiving them.

The inseparability of Uneigentlichkeit from Eigentlichkeit and of Wahrheit from Unwahrheit might seem to vitiate the whole program of Sein und Zeit: what is the sense of following through the whole analysis, if in the end illusion will be inextricable from truth? The answer is that, although Dasein can never be made totally durchsichtig, can never totally free itself from Uneigentlichkeit, it can make progress in this direction. Sein und Zeit is itself an Entwurf with all the limitations of an Entwurf: it is not absolutely ursprünglich. Indeed, "absolutely ursprünglich" makes no sense — no Entwurf is "absolutely ursprünglich." Other, more ursprüngliche Entwürfe are possible — one can in a sense "go beyond" Sein und Zeit — but Sein und Zeit would retain its value

105) Cf. supra, pp.128ff.

as an investigation of the distortions of the philosophic tradition based on an ontology of verfallenes Dasein.

§ 6.

We must try to pull together some of the more important strands of the argument. What does Heidegger finally mean by "selfhood" (self in the formal sense)? The basic phenomenon of selfhood is Sorge.¹⁰⁶ However, Sorge itself is a complex phenomenon: the subaspect of Sorge which is of ontological relevance to selfhood is Existenzialität. Existenzialität means that "Dasein ist sich-vorweg."¹⁰⁷ This in turn is only an ontological paraphrase of the normal formale Anzeige of existence as the essence of Dasein¹⁰⁸: "Dasein existiert" means "daß es diesem Seienden in seinem Sein um dieses Sein selbst geht"¹⁰⁹ — or, alternatively, "Dasein existiert" = "Dasein ist Seiendes, das sich in seinem Sein verstehend

106) SZ, p. 323.

107) SZ, pp. 191ff.

108) SZ, pp. 191ff.

109) SZ, p. 12.

zu diesem Sein verhält."¹¹⁰ "Es geht um..." is explained as meaning that Dasein is Verstehen, "sich entwerfendes Sein zum eigensten Seinkönnen."¹¹¹ So it seems we must work with at least four formulations of the basic phenomenon of selfhood:

- 1) Dasein ist sich-vorweg.
- 2) Dasein ist Seiendes, dem es in seinem Sein um dieses selbst geht.
- 3) Dasein ist Seiendes, das sich in seinem Sein verstehend zu diesem Sein verhält.
- 4) Dasein ist Verstehen, als sich entwerfendes Sein zum eigensten Seinkönnen.

Of these number 1) is called the "ontological" foundation of selfhood, numbers 2) and 3) are alternative formulations of the formale Anzeige der Existenz des Daseins — but it is not yet clear that they are really equivalent — and number 4) is a clarification of 2). These formulations fall into two groups: a) a group which stresses what I will call "being-to-self"¹¹² — numbers 1) and 2) — the

110) SZ, pp. 52-53.

111) SZ, pp. 191-192.

112) Cf. SZ, p. 192 "Dasein ist Sein zum Seinkönnen, das es selbst ist." Dasein is its possibility: being-to-possibility is "being-to-(it)self."

"ontological" side of selfhood; b) a group which stresses the "epistemological" side of "self-understanding" — numbers 3) and 4).

But how are these two different ways of formulating "selfhood," the "ontological" and the "epistemological" related? In the late work Nietzsche Heidegger declares that selfhood is " die Art, wie der Mensch als Mensch er selbst ist und sich dabei weiß."¹¹³ Here again one might suppose that there are two separate elements in selfhood: "wie der Mensch als Mensch er selbst ist" and "wie der Mensch sich [als Selbst ?] weiß." But the whole discussion of Dasein in Sein und Zeit and in particular the sections on Verstehen have shown that in the case of Dasein no sharp distinction between "being" and "understanding" can be made. The "definition" of Verstehen given in § 31 of Sein und Zeit states that

Verstehen ist das existenziale Sein des eigenen Seinkönnens des Daseins selbst, so zwar, daß dieses Sein an ihm selbst das Woran des mit ihm selbst Seins erschließt.¹¹⁴

113) Heidegger, Nietzsche (2 vols.; Pfullingen, Neske Verlag, 1961), vol. II, p. 157.

114) SZ, p. 114.

Understanding is a certain "existential being" — a mode of being which "discloses" possibilities. This gives the key to overcoming the apparent contrast between "wie Dasein es selbst ist" and "wie es sich weiß."

Heidegger's position can be understood as an analysis of the phrase "Dasein ist es selbst." "Dasein ist es selbst" is in fact incomplete as it stands. It must be thought of as shorthand for a much longer expression, such as: "Dasein ist es selbst als...", where the "als..." is indispensable. "Dasein ist es selbst als..." is explicated as meaning "Dasein ist zum Sein-können ..." or "Dasein versteht sich als...", where in each case the "... " is filled in by the appropriate possibilities which constitute the content of Dasein's understanding of itself. Thus, in speaking of Seneca, one would assert that: "Dasein (homo) versteht sich als 'animal rationale'" — i.e. "Dasein ist zum Sein-können: 'rationales vernünftiges Wesen,'" that is "Dasein entwirft sich auf die Möglichkeiten rationalen oder irrationalen Seins" — "Dasein ist es selbst als vernünftiges Wesen." To say that "Dasein ist es selbst" simpliciter means that Dasein understands itself as..., and the shorter form (without "as...") can be used if one wishes merely to speak in general about Dasein without committing oneself to any specific understanding of self which a historical Dasein might have.

However, this façon de parler must not lead one to conclude that self-understanding stands of itself, so to speak, that one can have self-understanding in any absolute sense: knowledge of some entity, the "self," which is not understanding of oneself as..., i.e. in terms of possibilities. In particular, as Heidegger never tires of repeating, the "self" is not an entity at all. From "Dasein is being-to-self" one cannot conclude that "There is an x, such that x is Dasein's self and Dasein is-to x"; equally from "Dasein understands itself" one cannot infer that "There is an x, such that x is a self, and Dasein understands x." 115

Although self-understanding naturally does not mean "being in a state of knowledge about oneself" or consciously formulating propositions about oneself, — the "understanding" is of the existential variety implicit in Sorge — yet this self-understanding has an internal structure which is amenable to analysis. Dasein's understanding of self is an Auf-sich-zukommen from the world.

Welt als Ganzheit "ist" kein Seiendes, sondern das, aus dem her das Dasein sich zu bedeuten gibt, zu welchem Seienden und wie es dazu sich verhalten kann.

115) As we will see in Chapter Four, § 2 Dasein's self-understanding cannot be construed as knowledge of an entity, chiefly because Dasein's self-understanding as... constitutes Dasein as being ..., and this destroys the possibility of any "objective knowledge" of self.

Dasein gibt "sich" aus "seiner" Welt her zu bedeuten, heißt dann : in diesem Auf-es-zukommen aus der Welt zeitigt sich das Dasein als ein Selbst, d.h. als ein Seiendes, das zu sein ihm anheimgelassen ist. Im Sein dieses Seienden geht es um dessen Seinkönnen. Das Dasein ist so, daß es unwillen seiner existiert. Wenn aber die Welt es ist, im Überstieg zu der sich allererst Selbstheit zeitigt, dann erweist sie sich als das, worumwillen Dasein existiert.¹¹⁶

Dasein understands itself in terms of the world, of "its" world.¹¹⁷ This "world," of course, is not the "totality of existing entities" as in the philosophic tradition, but the "wherein Dasein understands itself" as constituted by a Seinkönnen of Dasein. This Seinkönnen serves as point of reference on which the Verweisungen of the world are oriented.¹¹⁸ Without Dasein and its Seinkönnen there would be no world.¹¹⁹ In understanding itself from this world (the "sich zu bedeuten geben" above) Dasein is being-to-the Seinkönnen which constitutes the world, i.e.

116) Vom Wesen des Grundes, Wd, p.53. Cf. SZ, pp. 86ff.

117) "World" is used in a wide sense to include both the entities in the world and the Seinkönnen of Dasein which is their Umwille. Note that this is quite different from the "world" which figures in the definition of Uneigentlichkeit ("Dasein understands itself from the world"). A more precise formulation of Uneigentlichkeit would be: "Dasein understands itself in terms of the entities within the world." In Vom Wesen des Grundes (Wd, pp. 51ff.) Heidegger states that he is using "world" in a wider sense than in Sein und Zeit.

118) Cf. SZ, p. 194.

119) "Wenn kein Dasein existiert, ist auch keine Welt da." SZ, p.365.

to be in the world constituted by a Seinkönnen means that Dasein understands itself as that Seinkönnen.¹²⁰

Dasein ist immer schon "über sich hinaus" nicht als Verhalten zu anderem Seienden, das es nicht ist, sondern als Sein zum Seinkönnen, das es selbst ist.¹²¹

Coming back to itself from the world is coming back to itself from the possibility of itself which forms the Worumwillen of that world. This means that Dasein understands itself as that possibility. In so doing it appropriates the possibility as its own and exists as it. So the three formulations:

- a) Dasein ist es selbst als...
- b) Dasein ist zum Seinkönnen...
- c) Dasein versteht sich als...

are equivalent. What or who Dasein is, is as what or as whom it understands itself and this in turn is from what possibilities it comes back to itself.

The structure of Auf-sich-zukommen through which Dasein is its possibility and exists as a self is, of course, just the structure of eigentliche temporality as revealed in vorlaufender Entschlossenheit. But this

120) Cf. SZ, pp. 86ff, 334, 364ff.

121) SZ, p. 192.

purely formal structure of understanding of self in Sorge — the "self in a formal sense" — does not of itself determine as what or as whom Dasein will understand itself. As what or as whom Dasein understands itself depends on what possibilities constitute the world from which Dasein returns to itself. Certain possibilities will be such as to cover over the being-to-self of Dasein. If Dasein understands itself in terms of uneigentliche Möglichkeiten, possibilities dictated by the entities in the world which are the objects of concern, Dasein's being-to-self will be obscured. Certain kinds of possibilities make it impossible for Dasein to realize that it is what it understands itself to be, and that it must choose its own possibilities. If Dasein understands itself as just another entity in the world, it will not realize that what it means for it to be a self is to understand itself as.... In fact, not only are there possibilities, which, if appropriated by Dasein, cover over Dasein's being-to-self, but Dasein has a tendency to understand itself from just such possibilities. Verfallen is an integral part of Sorge; ab initio Dasein is bei dem innerweltlich Seienden. When Dasein "sich zu bedeuten gibt" from a world constituted by das Man, the social world of everyday life, it understands itself as das Man-selbst and thereby hides from itself the real

temporal structure of selfhood. This is "everydayness."

We have now developed the self-structure both "forward" and "backward." This chapter began with an analysis of the "self" of everydayness and followed the course of Sein und Zeit until we found ourselves compelled to recognize another mode of existence: Eigentlichkeit. Eigentlichkeit showed itself to have a certain ontological pre-eminence in that from its vantage point one could understand everyday Dasein better than everyday Dasein understands itself — one can see, e.g., that everyday Dasein is-in-a-world and is not just another innerworldly entity — and could formulate an ontology of Dasein which is more consistent than any ontology possible from the point of view of everyday Dasein. More importantly, Eigentlichkeit reveals the underlying temporal structures of the self. Just now we have followed the same path, but from the other direction, so to speak, starting from the "formal self" of being-to-self and self-understanding and showing that Dasein's own nature leads it to cover over itself in everydayness.

Chapter Four : Objectivity

§ 1.

It is now possible to summarize the chief results of the comparison of Heidegger's concept of "self" with Strawson's concept of a "person."

In the philosophic tradition "self" and "person" are closely identified, if not used interchangeably.¹ Both are used to account for what it is about man which makes him essentially different from other entities. The "essence" of man is found in the fact that he is a "person" (i.e. usually some sort of moral agent) or that he is a "self" (usually construed in terms of "self-consciousness"). A complete "philosophic anthropology" can then be developed by investigating the properties and characteristics of the "person" or "self."²

Strawson's use of "person" clearly falls within the main stream of this tradition. Man is a "person," a type of basic entity (or, "basic particular"), which is distinguished from other entities by the possession of

1) Cf. supra, p. 13ff.

2) Cf. supra, p. 14f.

certain abilities and characteristics ("p-predicates"). These "abilities and characteristics" are construed as "properties" of the "person." When linguistic prejudices against the "ontological" mode of speech gain the upper hand, these "properties" are re-interpreted as "predicates" — specifically, a certain restricted class of predicates are isolated as especially characteristic of the "person." In no case is the question raised whether man can in fact be appropriately analysed as a subject to which predicates are applicable.³ A "person" is an entity to which predicates of this restricted class, p-predicates, can be significantly ascribed. We are never told in detail just what sorts of predicates Strawson has in mind, or whether they have anything in common beyond the fact of being ascribable to a certain type of entity — normally Strawson gives a circular characterization of them as "the kind of predicate one would not think of predicating of anything else but a person." However it is reasonable to assume that predicates ascribing states of consciousness will form at least one important sub-class of p-predicates. A "per-

3) Cf. Chapter One, pp. 35ff. "Analytic" philosophers in general do reject the substance/property scheme as inadequate ontologically, but their skepticism does not extend to subject/predicate. Heidegger claims that the latter makes sense only if understood "ontologically" as the former.

son" is — at least — an entity to which states of consciousness are ascribed.⁴ As usual in the tradition "consciousness" and "personhood" are closely related. In fact, the only justification Strawson gives of his theory of the "person" is the exigencies of ascription of states of consciousness. We do in fact ascribe states of consciousness in ordinary life, and it would be possible to ascribe states of consciousness only if such states were ascribed to an entity which was a "person" in Strawson's sense of the term.

If Heidegger used "self" in the traditional sense, the comparison with Strawson could be direct. But he does not. He still sees himself as engaged in "philosophic anthropology"⁵ — at least as an heir to this tradition, if no longer a full member. In the final section of his book on Kant, he agrees with Kant that the three basic questions of philosophy, "Was kann ich wissen? Was soll ich tun? Was darf ich hoffen?," can in the end be reduced to the question "Was ist der Mensch?"⁶ But his approach to philosophic anthropology is not traditional. The "self" is not an entity at all,

4) Cf. supra, pp. 16ff.

5) Cf. Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik, pp. 185-197.

6) Cf. Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik, pp. 186-187.

in the sense in which the traditional self, e.g. of Descartes or the "person" of Strawson is. There "is" no self, there "is" only Sorge with its constituent aspects of being-to-self and of self-understanding. In addition, "selfhood" is not the essential characteristic of man, that which distinguishes him from all else that is. Man's essence lies in "existence," not in selfhood."⁷

Ein Selbst zu sein, kennzeichnet zwar das Wesen desjenigen Seienden, das existiert, aber die Existenz besteht weder im Selbstsein, noch bestimmt sie sich aus diesem. Weil jedoch das metaphysische Denken das Selbstsein des Menschen von der Substanz her oder, was im Grunde das selbe ist, vom Subjekt her bestimmt, deshalb muß der erste Weg, der von der Metaphysik zum ekstatisch-existenzialen Wesen des Menschen hinleitet, durch die metaphysische Bestimmung des Selbstseins des Menschen hindurchführt.⁸

What is rejected here is not the whole notion of "self," but rather an inappropriate approach to "man" through the "self." Rather than beginning with "selfhood," one must begin with existence, and only within the ontological framework provided by existence can one "erörtern, welches ontologische Recht der Substantialität, Simplizität und Personalität als Charakteren der Selbstheit zugewiesen werden kann."⁹ If a direct com-

7) Cf. SZ, p.43.

8) Cf. Einleitung zu Was ist Metaphysik? in WN, p.204.

9) SZ, p.323.

parison is to take place between Heidegger and Strawson, its proper terms are not: "man is a 'person'" versus "man is a 'self'" but rather: "man is a 'person'" versus "man exists." Since,

Der Satz: "Der Mensch existiert", antwortet nicht auf die Frage, ob der Mensch wirklich sei oder nicht, sondern antwortet auf die Frage nach dem "Wesen" des Menschen.¹⁰

Heidegger could not accept the arguments for the justification of Strawson's doctrine of "person" based on the necessities of ascription of states of consciousness. To speak of "ascription of states of consciousness" is to presuppose a subject/predicate scheme for ascription and any such subject/predicate scheme is inextricably tied to a substance-ontology.¹¹ Nor can human subjectivity be analysed in terms of "consciousness." Consciousness is not the basic phenomenon of human subjectivity and by way of positing a subject/object dualism leads down the same broad highway to the perdition of substantialism.¹² Rather than approaching "selfhood" through consciousness, the "I" or the vagarities of ascription of psychological predicates, Heidegger investigates the internal consti-

10) Cf. Brief über den Humanismus in WM, p. 158.

11) Cf. Chapter One, pp. 35ff.

12) Cf. Chapter One, pp. 35ff.

tution of self-understanding as a mode of being-in-a-world, i.e. of existence.

The only reply Strawson would appear to have to this line of criticism is to re-iterate his contention that philosophy is analysis of ordinary usage, that the subject/predicate distinction is so basic to ordinary usage that any philosophy of ordinary language must accept it without criticism, and that only his concept of person can explain how it is possible for us to identify persons and ascribe states of consciousness to them.

Of these three counter-objections, the last carries little weight. We have seen in Chapter One, pp. 16ff., that Strawson himself is not convincing on the problem of the identification of "persons." Chapter Two, pp. 83ff., has suggested that the whole ontology based on "identification" and "re-identification" of basic particulars can be shown by Heidegger to be "derivative." If Heidegger can give a coherent account of Er-schlossenheit and its Entwurf then Strawson's whole enterprise is superceded: it appears only as an elaboration of the ontology of one possible Entwurf.

The second objection — that the subject/predicate distinction is basic to ordinary usage and hence must play a fundamental role in philosophy — is likewise not telling. In the first place it is sometimes claimed that the subject/predicate distinction is peculiar to

Indo-European languages.¹³ But even ignoring the problems which this contention raises, it is clear that insofar as the subject/predicate distinction is a part of our ordinary usage, it is as the "sediment" — to use the apt term of Husserl (Niederschlag) — of a certain philosophic interpretation of language. This distinction does not even make a philosophic appearance until the Sophistes of Plato in the fourth century BC.¹⁴ To allow very much of this type of philosophic sediment to pass as ordinary usage is to drive philosophy in the direction of "history of ideas." So even if one does decide to restrict philosophy to analysis of ordinary usage, one would have good reason not to accept the subject/predicate scheme as an unquestionable given.

We are left with the first objection, the claim that Strawson's "person" explicates our ordinary use of "person" and that philosophy is analysis of ordinary language. What is at issue here is nothing less than the goals and methodology of philosophy. Should philos-

13) Although Quine's theses of "indeterminacy of radical translation" and its concomitant ontological relativity show how difficult it would be to decide this question either way.

14) For example, the dialogue Kratulos breaks a ... down only into Cf. Kratulos 385b ff. Apparently Plato had not yet reached the point of Sophistes 262 with its assertion that there is a ...

ophy be "conceptual analysis" or "asking the question of being"? The issues of methodology and the substantive doctrines of "person" and "self" are closely interconnected. Thus Heidegger, who espouses a "hermeneutic" method for philosophy, conceives of "self" as what Dasein understands itself to be, while Strawson, committed to "linguistic analysis," defines "person" as a subject of which a certain class of predicates is attributable.

How might one go about trying to choose between these two methodological approaches? Is there any way to show that one is superior to the other? Since methodology does not exist in vacuo, for its own sake, but for the sake of helping to understand a certain subject matter, the best justification of a methodology is that it does in fact contribute to the understanding of the subject matter. In the second section of this chapter I will try to point to some characteristics of man which seem to call for a hermeneutic approach, in the sense that they cannot be understood save by using it. If Heidegger's method is justified, then we can at least assert, if not that all his substantive conclusions are supported in all their detail, that at any rate Strawson's approach to the problem is misguided, and Heidegger offers a better chance of success and enlightenment. The "characteristics of man" which I will point out will of necessity be rather gross. This is due to a number of reasons.

First, there can be no neutral description of the phenomena — at least no description neutral between Heidegger and Strawson, for precisely what is at stake is in what sorts of terms to describe the phenomena. Any more refined description would already beg the question of how the phenomenon is to be described. In addition, given the close connection of methodology and substantive positions, any attempt at detailed systematic description might easily become involved in an infinite regress. Any sustained description of the phenomenon would itself have to be guided by some sort of systematic methodology, but we began by assuming that the methodology would be supported by showing that there were characteristics of the subject-matter which made it reasonable to approach it in one way rather than another. So now we have a method justified by appeal to the nature of the subject-matter, but in describing the subject-matter we make use of some method, which presumably must be justified by appeal to the nature of the subject-matter etc.... This "hermeneutic circle"¹⁵ cannot be avoided. The only way to justify entering one type of hermeneutic circle (Heidegger's) rather than another (Strawson's) is by pointing to as many macro-characteristics of the subject-matter as

15) Cf. 82, pp. 7-8, 152-153, 314ff.

possible which cannot be adequately understood from the point of view of one "circle." The next section will try to make it intuitively plausible that certain significant characteristics of man can be adequately analysed only in terms of being-in-a-world and the related notions developed in Sein und Zeit. In particular they cannot be adequately understood and analysed in a "Cartesian" conceptual scheme which recognizes only extended and thinking things, or in any analogous scheme, such as one which countenances "objective particulars" and "states of consciousness" only. If man in fact has these characteristics, it must be shown that only a "hermeneutic" method would be adequate for dealing with them.

§ 2.

In historical discourse one will often encounter assertions such as: "Medieval man lived in a theocentric universe." Given a normal Cartesian ontology which countenances only two types of entities, res extensae and res cogitantes,¹⁶ a philosophically-minded critic might feel compelled to paraphrase statements of this sort in some such way as the following: "Medieval man believed

16) I am ignoring for the moment God, who is the third type of substance in Cartesian ontology.

that he lived in a universe, which had God at its center" or "Medieval man thought of himself as living in a universe centered on God." Man-living-in-a-theocentric-universe is split in two: on the one hand we have a collection of "substances." In addition one of these substances — man — has a certain type of "accident": subjective belief-states, thoughts, states of consciousness, "propositional attitudes," call them what you wish. These accidents have a curious nature in that they "refer" to the world, to that substance of which they are accidents, and to the relation of "their" substance to the totality of substances. A "full" Cartesian account of man-living-in-a-theocentric universe would have to read something like: "During the Middle Ages thinking substances showed a characteristic configuration of 'accidents' which differs markedly from that exhibited at other times in history. Typical accidents of thinking substances of the period include persistent belief-states about the nature of the totality of substances in the universe to God." Note that not even this is a "full" Cartesian analysis — indeed in a sense I have glossed over the Cartesian's greatest problem. To speak of a "theocentric universe" is indeed to imply that there is a certain body of beliefs about the nature of God and about his relation to the universe, but it also implies more than this, namely that these beliefs are shared in a

social group — are grounded and expressed in social practices and institutions. For more than two hundred years Cartesianism has struggled with the problem of how we can know that "other minds" exist, and none of the solutions have been too convincing. If Cartesians have difficulty demonstrating even to themselves the mere "existence" of other minds, they do not have much prospect of success in accounting for interlocking sets of social practices, beliefs and institutions. A characteristic pattern of beliefs about God and the universe occurring in a number of minds is not what is meant by living-in-a-theocentric-world.

I won't use this literal Cartesian position in the following discussion because most modern versions are framed without reference to a notion of "substance." Rather, I will use a reconstructed position which will preserve the basic dualism of Descartes, while allowing an easier transition to Strawson. Instead of speaking of res cogitans/res extensa and of subject/accident, I will speak of "objectively existing entities and states of affairs" on the one hand and "concepts or states of consciousness" on the other. What is meant by saying that there are "objective states of affairs" is that certain states of affairs are what they are independently of man's cognition of them. But this notion of "objectivity" is not sufficiently precise to be of much use, until we have

explicated "independently of human cognition." First there is to idealist objection that it can't make any sense to speak of how things are simpliciter independently of how humans can know them to be. At best one must speak of how things can be known to be: epistemology sets limits to ontology. In addition to Kant, we must also classify here all those descendants — legitimate and otherwise — of the Tractatus¹⁷ which emphasize the importance of investigating not what there is, ontology simpliciter, but ontology relative to a conceptual scheme, the "ontological commitment of a theory."¹⁸ But the notion of "objectivity" can be reconstructed even within systems of this sort. One might, e.g. follow Peirce and speak of "reality" (i.e. objective reality) as the correlate of the beliefs which would be held by an ideal scientific community if it carried on research indefinitely.¹⁹ In any case — as Peirce realized — reality and objectivity must be relative to "cognizability"²⁰ rather than to actual cognition. This gives sufficient

17) L. Wittgenstein, Tractatus Logico-Philosophicus. Cf. esp. 5.6.

18) Cf. esp. Quine, "On What There Is" in From a Logical Point of View, pp. 1ff.

19) Cf. Peirce, Collected Papers (ed. Hartshorne & Weiss) vol. 5 paragraph 311. Also cf. vol. 5 paragraphs 503ff.

20) Cf. Peirce, op. cit. vol. 5 paragraphs 254ff.

leverage to make the requisite distinction. No one holds the bizarre opinion that "things" in all cases are just as each individual thinks them to be — probably not even Dewey and Protagoras. In any case one clearly can distinguish what a state of affairs can be known to be from what any one person might think it to be, and this is sufficient for the notion of "objectivity" in this reconstructed form. We do in fact draw this distinction in a rough and ready way in everyday life: "He thinks it's a Rembrandt, but I actually painted it myself." "He thinks it's a house, but it's actually a cleverly painted piece of canvas." "He thinks that Borodin string quartette is beautiful, but he has rotten taste." "He thinks that string quartette is beautiful, but that is just his opinion." "He thinks that string quartette is beautiful, but we all know that it is really just vibrations of the air, and the 'beauty' resides in the ear of the auditor." No one will deny that these heterogeneous examples are different in many important respects: it would require the subtlety of an Austin to give a full analysis drawing all the necessary distinctions. But they do show that the very gross distinction I propose is drawn, that we do contrast an individual's "subjective" notions with the "objective state of affairs" — although the "objective" is not to be analysed in the naive way proposed at first.

But in the example about "medieval man" the distinction becomes more difficult to draw. While it makes perfect sense to say that "He thinks it is a house, but actually it is a painting," it does not seem to make sense to say that "Medieval man thought he was living in a theocentric universe, but actually he wasn't." A person who made the latter assertion would show that he did not understand what we intended in saying that "Medieval man lived in a theocentric universe." In the case of the piece of canvas painted to resemble a house one can investigate the "house" oneself without reference to the deceived individual's beliefs about it. Conceivably one could even bring the deceived individual to investigate it in like fashion and disabuse him of his false belief. There does not seem to be any way in principle in which one could investigate the "universe" in which a historical community lives, independently of the beliefs, attitudes, and social practices of that community. In fact one would go about investigating the type of "universe" in which a community lived precisely by looking at records of their speculations and beliefs about the world. The "universe" in which a social group lives cannot be said to be anything "in itself" or "objectively."

One might try to save the dualist ontology with a number of expedients of which I will consider two of the

most plausible. One might say that in the example of medieval man we have a case of subjective beliefs influencing the objective state of affairs. After all, so this objection would run, in stating that there are only two kinds of entities, "belief-states" and "objective states of affairs," one is not committed to holding that the two types of entities can not influence one another. But even if one attempts to move in this direction, one has made the "subjective" in "subjective belief-states" vacuous. Beliefs can be said to be "subjective" insofar as they can be right or wrong, inasfar as they state what is the case or not. But we have just seen that it does not make sense to say that "Medieval man thought he lived in a theocentric universe, but actually he didn't." What kind of "subjective belief" is it which cannot be false?²¹ How is one to analyse this infallible "knowledge" man has of his world? If one is willing to call a "state of mind" which cannot in principle be "wrong" or "false" a "belief" or "knowledge" then "knowledge" at least ceases to be

21) There is a sense in which Heidegger will say that man's beliefs about the universe or "world" in which he lives can be in error. But it will be a completely different kind of error, analysed in a different way, and more related to "self-deception" than to propositional error. In any case, this is not what is at issue here; rather, what is at stake is whether Cartesianism in the simple form presented here is tenable.

simple passive "reception" of what is the case and "belief" ceases to be a mirror of an objective state of affairs, which can mirror it correctly or incorrectly. Beliefs and knowledge become themselves factors constituting the reality about which they are beliefs. This strange self-relatedness is just what one finds in Heidegger's existential analysis and just the sort of thing which Cartesianism has the most trouble in dealing with.

To draw an analogy which is, I hope, not too far-fetched, to illustrate why this state of affairs is pernicious to the whole classical tradition in philosophy, consider the following passage from Karl Popper's The Poverty of Historicism. In contrasting his own approach of "piece-meal social engineering" to social policy-making with Utopian holism, Popper quotes Karl Mannheim disapprovingly:

The political problem, therefore, is to organize human impulses in such a way that they will direct their energy to the right points and steer the total₂₂ process of development in the desired direction.

In commenting on this passage Popper remarks that

It seems to escape the well-meaning Utopian that this program implies an admission of failure,

22) As quoted in Karl Popper, The Poverty of Historicism (New York: Harper & Row, 1964), p. 70.

even before he launches it. For it substitutes for his demand that we build a new society, fit for men and women to live in, the demand that we "mould" these men and women to fit into his new society. This clearly removes any possibility of testing the success or failure of the new society. For those who do not like living in it only admit thereby that they are not yet fit to live in it; that their "human impulses" need further "organizing". But without the possibility of tests, any claim that a "scientific" method is being employed evaporates. The holistic approach is incompatible with a truly scientific approach.²³

Popper finds it "incompatible with scientific method" to adopt a policy or theory of society which itself changes the state of affairs it is intended to "describe." The theory of human nature of the Utopian is "unscientific" because it cannot be tested on an independently existing reality. Adoption of the social policy of Utopian holism, and of the corresponding theory of human nature which underlies it, is itself a social decision which changes the subject-matter of the theory. The picture drawn of the "scientist" is the familiar one of a man measuring his subjective views against the unchanging reality of the world. Whatever plausibility this picture might have for the methodology of the natural sciences, it is not unchallenged even for the "strictest" of the natural sciences. I am not qualified to pass judgement on the

23) Karl Popper, The Poverty of Historicism, p. 70.

criticisms of this picture of "scientific method" drawn from recent developments in micro-physics. But it is clear that it is as good as impossible to prevent the contamination of social reality by the "observer" — in any case the situation is much "worse" than in physics because at present we have no impulse to ascribe beliefs to electrons which affect their behavior. But Marxism, propounded as a "theory of society," ends up as a social force in its own right in the realm of the "objects" of sociology, and what is more, as a social force which might lose some of its efficacy is intellectually discredited. Despite Fritz Machlup's fantasy, Russian genes will not pass resolutions siding with Lysenko.²⁴ The "unscientific" method which Popper finds in the Utopian seems rather to be a characteristic of all the "sciences of man." Confronted with the concrete work of the social sciences, the "Cartesian" dichotomy of "objective states of affairs" and "subjective beliefs" becomes more and more difficult to maintain. All the theories of the social sciences partake of the nature of at least potential self-fulfilling (or self-destroying) prophecies, because the action of men in society crucially depends on what they

24) Cf. Fritz Machlup, "If Matter Could Talk" in Philosophy, Science and Method, Essays in Honor of Ernest Nagel, ed. S. Morgenbesser (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1970), pp. 286ff.

know or think to be the case.²⁵ At the very least, the great difficulty in drawing the distinction might lead one to be skeptical of whether it should be used as a basis for ontology. Heidegger, e.g. does not deny that under certain circumstances it might be quite appropriate to draw a distinction between "objective states of affairs" and "subjective beliefs": what he does deny is that this distinction can be carried through in all cases or that it is an adequate foundation for ontology.

In this situation the persistent Cartesian, ardent to save his ontology even at the cost of his philosophy of science, is liable to take a second and opposing tack. He could still claim that his ontology can keep its head above water, because the social and historical sciences have as their object "human subjectivity." Naturally "human subjectivity" is not an "objective state of affairs" and the method of investigating it will be quite different from that appropriate to the natural sciences which do investigate "objective states of affairs." This destroys the possibility of "testing" of the type viewed as essential by Popper, and speaks against a unity of method between natural and social sciences, but

25) Cf. Robert Merton, "Self-fulfilling Prophecy" in Social Theory and Social Structure (New York: The Free Press of Glencoe, 1957), pp. 421ff.

it does seem to allow us to retain the ontological distinction. The "world" or "universe" of which the example speaks is something merely "subjective." In investigating the "universe" of medieval man we are just investigating his "subjective beliefs" and not the "objective properties" of the universe. The arguments offered in the last few pages might show that the subject-matter of the social sciences is not any "objective state of affairs" but this of itself does not speak against taking the "universe" as something "purely subjective" — provided that one is willing to embrace an anti-naturalist position in philosophy of the social sciences.

This view is not totally at odds with some of Heidegger's sentiments in Sein und Zeit.

Wenn das Subjekt ontologisch als existierendes Dasein begriffen wird, dessen Sein in der Zeitlichkeit gründet, dann muß gesagt werden: Welt ist subjektiv. Diese subjektive Welt ist dann als zeitlich-transzendente "objektiver" als jedes mögliche Objekt.²⁶

But note that "world" is "subjective" only in Heidegger's sense of "subjective" (zeitlich-transzendental) and very clearly not in the sense in which "subjective" is opposed to "objective," nor in the sense in which one speaks of "subjective impressions and beliefs." In the first place

26) SZ, p. 366.

"world" is not "subjective" in the sense of being the fallible belief of an individual. At the very least "world" must be conceived as "intersubjective" with all the difficulties this notion causes for dualism of the Cartesian sort. It is likely that no attempt like Husserl's to build up a whole world of social significance in the "monad" of individual consciousness²⁷ can succeed. One must begin with the given social world, with intersubjective beliefs (however one will finally analyse an "intersubjective belief"). Secondly, one will want to take account of such things as "tacit beliefs." Thus, one would certainly want to say of the medieval peasant that he "lived in a theocentric universe" even though it might not be clear in what sense he could be held to have "subjective beliefs" about God, man, and the universe. An illiterate peasant might not even be capable of coherently formulating the "beliefs" about cosmology one would like to attribute to him. The beliefs in question might be specifiable only by reference to his participation in social practices and institutions (religious rituals and ceremonies, for example), which are not in themselves anyone's "subjective belief-states." Finally there is the whole battery of arguments developed

27) Cf. Edmund Husserl, Cartesianische Meditationen, Husserliana, vol. I (The Hague: Martinus Nijhoff, 1950), V. Meditation.

by the followers of the later Wittgenstein which make it very unlikely that beliefs can be analysed as any sort of "mental occurrences." And for the "objective state of affairs/subjective belief-state" dichotomy to have ontological import, the belief-states in question would have to be some kind of mental entity or occurrence. In short, all of these considerations seem to me rather conclusive against construing "universe" in our medieval example as referring to a sum-total of anyone's belief states.

Strawson is committed to basically the same type of analysis as that just rejected. The conceptual means at his disposal are equally impoverished and do not exceed those of the "dualism" described above. Strawson, too, would have to reconstruct "Medieval man lived in a theocentric universe" in an equally clumsy way in terms of "objective particulars" and "states of consciousness which refer to them." Any criticism of the "dualism" touches Strawson too.

§ 3.

We have examined — albeit cursorily — an example or two of statements from the social sciences or the "sciences of man" which seemed to resist analysis in terms of a traditional dualist pattern. Both the example of the medieval peasant and Popper's example of the Utopian

political theorist seemed to move in the direction of Heidegger's concept of a "world" in which Dasein "exists." Popper criticizes the "unscientific" methods of the Utopian social planner because his reconstruction of society is so far-reaching that it destroys any possibility of testing the theory against an independent, "untouched" social reality. Social schemes on a large scale are, if not completely self-fulfilling, at least self-reinforcing: the Utopian, by massive intervention in society, shapes it to correspond with his antecedent theory and destroys the independence of his "object." But Popper seems to think that this inability to confront theories of society with an "independent" reality uncorrupted by manipulation is a flaw intrinsic in Utopianism, and is at least in principle avoidable. But any theory of society — Popper's included — contaminates the "subject-matter." For example, Popper's voting behavior is part of the reality of society and one can predict on the basis of knowledge that he holds a theory of piece-meal social engineering that he will vote against certain types of Marxists and welfare-state liberals. Adopting Popper's theory, too, affects the "objective state of affairs" against which it must be measured. The fact that Popper's derangement of the social reality is minor is a mere accident: think of a large mass of Popper-students organized as a voting and lobbying block and the situation is quite analogous to

that of the Utopian. The principle of objectivity Popper seems so concerned to uphold is not tenable because any theory is itself a social fact, if held at all.²⁸

A theory of "world" such as Heidegger's would take the strange self-relatedness of the phenomena we have been discussing into account. For Heidegger there is no split between Dasein and world. The "world" is partly constituted by Dasein's understanding, and, although conscious theorizing does not exhaust "understanding," changes in one's explicit theorizing will be mirrored in changes in one's "understanding" and changes in "understanding" are changes in the "world" in which Dasein exists. A Strawsonian type of ontology would have considerable difficulty with the medieval example in which we want to speak of a peasant "understanding" himself and his world in a certain way even though in describing this understanding we often make use of language ascribing to him "tacit beliefs" which may be beyond his own ability to formulate.²⁹ This makes the method of "analysis of ordinary

28) Even the adoption of a policy of not allowing one's "political" behavior to be influenced by the theories of society one holds is itself a social fact.

29) I stress that Heidegger can consistently use language about the peasant that the peasant himself might not understand, to point out that use of the "hermeneutic method" in Heidegger's sense does not commit one to a position like that found in Winch's Idea of a Social Science and Its Relation to Philosophy (New York: Humanities Press, 1957), pp. 45ff. Winch claims that I have an

language" seem dubious as the be-all-and-end-all of philosophy. Analysis of the language of the medieval peasant will not tell us much about his understanding of the world, if he himself is incapable of formulating this understanding adequately. The symbolic gestures, ritual acts, ceremonies, etc. which one might well wish to take as evidence are not amenable to "linguistic analysis" at all.

To this the Strawsonian analyst might reply: You might wish to attribute to the Medieval, "understanding" in some sense beyond what he could himself explicitly formulate, but you, the historian, cannot in principle attribute to him anything beyond your conceptual resources, and this is just what linguistic analysis investigates. But the point is that the hermeneutic phenomenologist in investigating "understanding" can change usage, or even invent a new vocabulary as Heidegger does in Sein und Zeit to express what he finds. To call this "revisionary metaphysics" is misleading —

explanation of a piece of meaningful behavior "B" only if my explanation is couched in terms which could be understood by the agent. Heidegger would object to the "could be understood by the agent" as intolerably ambiguous (cf. pp. 2-3). If the phrase means "terms which the agent himself would use in describing what he is doing" it is inordinately restrictive. If it means "terms which the agent could be brought to understand" it is so loose as to exclude practically nothing.

there can be no question here of an arbitrary shift in the meaning of words. Rather Heidegger's characteristic move is one of uncovering a distortion in normal linguistic usage and correcting it, defining his new terms by appeal to a detailed description of the phenomenon under investigation. It profits little to quibble over words, but one might rather think of this as "corrective" rather than "revisionary metaphysics." It is not the same as investigating an antecedently given body of linguistic usage — either the Medieval's or our own. Heidegger comes down on the other side of Strawson's science/philosophy distinction. Just as the scientist in investigating the facts of the world may be brought to correct normal usage ("The sun doesn't really rise") or introduce a new technical vocabulary, so the hermeneutic phenomenologist should feel free to do the same. So we come to the same conclusion in this chapter as in Chapter Two: linguistic analysis is obviously a very important part of the philosopher's task, but not for the reasons given by Strawson. Man's understanding of himself and of his world will largely be expressed in his normal linguistic usage, largely, but not entirely. The task of the philosopher is to explicate understanding, whether this understanding is formulated in language or not. "Linguistic analysis" has its philosophic value only when seen in the wider context of phenomenologic

hermeneutics.

If we must in fact revise our ontology to include such "things" as "world," if we can no longer defend the simple dichotomy of subjective beliefs/objective states of affairs, then we would seem to be driven toward a hermeneutic method something like Heidegger's, i.e. to a method which attempts to explicate the "understanding" which constitutes such a world. Such a hermeneutics will make use of ordinary linguistic usage as material but will not be restricted to it; it will try to explicate all the other ways in which we "are-in" and understand the world and will create its own conceptual scheme for expressing the results of its investigations.

If hermeneutic methodology is justified in these very general terms, it will be a quite appropriate way of approaching the specific problem of self. It seems clear that if "objectivity" breaks down in our investigation of the "world" or "universe" of social man, there will be even less chance of analysing "person" or "self" in terms of the ontology of objective entities or states of affairs/subjective beliefs. If it is a fact that man's understanding of himself constitutes him what he is, then one must needs turn to a hermeneutic methodology. The model of "person with a state of consciousness..." where the "..." is filled in with the "object of consciousness" will be an inadequate account, even if the "state of con-

sciousness" has as its object the "person" of whom it is a state.

§ 4.

But no final solution has been given to the most crucial problem: the status of the notions of "individual," "particular," and "subject of predication." For Strawson these are the central notions which it is philosophy's task to make sense of. For Heidegger, too, they are in a way the "inevitable" task of philosophy — "alltägliches Dasein ist verfallen" and, as such, has an innate tendency to understand itself and the world in terms of an ontology of individuals. Although inevitable, this ontology of the "particular" is a distortion. Heidegger could take two possible positions concerning this distortion:

(a) He could try to develop a whole new way of speaking about man, the world, and his language. A particularless language and an analysis of this language which made no appeal to anything analogous to the subject/predicate distinction: Clearly such an ontology and such a language must be possible — not even Strawson claims that the notion of an objective particular is a language-universal, it is basic in our scheme, but not necessarily in all. If Strawson did claim that there

could be no language without his objective particulars, he would be wrong — one need only consider some of the more meager language-games described in the beginning of the Brown Book³⁰ to see that there are conceivable languages in which the notion of "subject of predication" and the related ontological notion of particular have no place. The only question is whether any moderately complex language is possible without these features. However, one does not in fact find such a whole new way of speaking about man, his world, and his language in Sein und Zeit. This suggests that,

(b) in fact the ontology of "particulars" is "inevitable" in a stronger sense. Not only does Dasein have a natural tendency to interpret itself in this way, but in addition no complete alternative ontology is possible. The most one can do, then, is recognize the distortions involved in particulate language and ontology without being able to replace it with a non-particulate one.

In sum, then, Heidegger's conception of the "self" in terms of "self-understanding as ..." is much to be preferred to Strawson's analysis of it as a basic particular. The hermeneutic approach seems more reasonable. But one cannot accept Heidegger's whole theory until he

30) Ludwig Wittgenstein, The Blue and Brown Books (New York: Harper Torchbooks, 1958).

has clarified in greater detail the relation of "understanding oneself as ..." to the ontology of particulars. This clarification is not to be found in Sein und Zeit and until it is forthcoming one must suspend final judgment.

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A Chronological Listing of the Works of Heidegger Cited

Date of original publication is provided in parentheses.
Works collected in Wegmarken are designated WM.

Sein und Zeit (1927)

Vom Wesen des Grundes (1929, WM)

Kant und das Problem der Metaphysik (1929)

Was ist Metaphysik? (1930, WM)

Vom Wesen der Wahrheit (1943, WM)

Brief über den Humanismus (1947, WM)

Einleitung zu Was ist Metaphysik? (1949, WM)

Unterwegs zur Sprache (1959)

Nietzsche (1961)